

Microstructure Evolution in Irradiated Ferritic-Martensitic Steels: A comparison Between Cluster Dynamics and Experiments

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Abstract

The microstructural evolution of ferritic-martensitic steels under irradiation is investigated by comparing cluster dynamics simulations with experimental observations. A reaction admissibility graph is used to systematically organize the admissible reactions among point defects, helium-vacancy clusters, and dislocation loops, while a size-bin moments formulation enables efficient tracking of the evolving cluster size distributions. The model captures the nucleation, growth, and coarsening of helium-vacancy clusters and interstitial loops as functions of dose, temperature, and helium generation rate. Predicted number densities and mean sizes are shown to be in good agreement with experiments.

Keywords: cluster dynamics, radiation damage, reaction admissibility graph, ferritic-martensitic steel, helium-vacancy clusters, size-bin moments

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1. Introduction

Reduced-activation ferritic/martensitic (RAFM) steels, and in particular Eurofer97, are the leading structural material candidates for the first-wall and blanket components of future fusion reactors and advanced fission systems [1–3]. Under reactor service, however, these materials are exposed to intense fast-neutron fluences that produce high levels of atomic displacement damage, as well as transmutation-generated helium and hydrogen gasses. Together, these drive a complex, coupled microstructural evolution whose signatures are now well documented by post-irradiation examination (PIE): the accumulation of irradiation-induced dislocation loops, vacancy clusters, helium-stabilized cavities, and radiation-enhanced solute precipitates. This microstructural degradation is the root cause of macroscopic irradiation hardening, loss of ductility, and ductile-to-brittle transition temperature (DBTT) shift that ultimately set the operational limits of the material.

Post-irradiation characterization using transmission electron microscopy (TEM), weak-beam dark-field (WBDF) imaging, scanning TEM (STEM), small-angle neutron scattering (SANS), and atom probe tomography (APT) has built a quantitative database of the irradiation-induced microstructure in Eurofer97 and related F/M alloys (T91, HT9, F82H, Fe–9Cr model alloys, and pure α -iron). The principal experimental findings, compiled from neutron irradiation campaigns at BOR-60, BR2, ATR, HFR Petten, and from ion irradiation facilities, may be summarized as follows.

Dislocation loops. Loops form with two dominant Burgers vectors in bcc iron-based alloys: the glissile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ type, which dominates below $\sim 300^\circ\text{C}$, and the sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ type, which becomes dominant above $\sim 350^\circ\text{C}$ as its lower migration energy confers higher thermal stability [4, 5]. Loop number density peaks near 300°C (typically $\sim 1.2 \times 10^{22} \text{ m}^{-3}$ in Eurofer97 at 16.3 dpa [5]) and decreases monotonically at higher temperatures. Mean loop diameter increases monotonically with temperature, from $\sim 2.5 \text{ nm}$ at 250°C to $>12 \text{ nm}$ at 415°C in Eurofer97, and to $>25 \text{ nm}$ in T91 at 460°C under BOR-60 irradiation [6]. With increasing dose at fixed temperature, loop density near 330°C approaches saturation between 15 and 32 dpa in Eurofer97—with the density increasing only from 1.4×10^{22} to $1.7 \times 10^{22} \text{ m}^{-3}$ and the mean diameter growing modestly from 3.4 to 4.8 nm [4]—whereas in T91 and HT9 at $376\text{--}377^\circ\text{C}$, the density decreases while the mean size grows. The loop size distributions evolve from a spike of sub-3 nm “black-dot” defects at low temperature toward right-skewed log-normal distributions centered at

10–16 nm at higher temperatures.

Cavities and void swelling. Cavity microstructures exhibit a qualitatively distinct evolution with dose and temperature. At doses below ~ 20 dpa and temperatures below $\sim 415^\circ\text{C}$, only a unimodal population of He-stabilized sub-critical bubbles is observed (mean diameter 1.0–2.6 nm, density $\sim 10^{21} \text{ m}^{-3}$), with swelling well below 0.02% [4, 6]. Beyond ~ 35 dpa and in the temperature window $415\text{--}510^\circ\text{C}$, a *bimodal* size distribution emerges in T91 and HT9 under BOR-60 irradiation: a high-density population of He-stabilized sub-critical bubbles ($d < 2$ nm, $\sim 10^{21} \text{ m}^{-3}$) coexists with a lower-density population of growing supercritical voids ($d > 2$ nm, $\sim 10^{20} \text{ m}^{-3}$), separated by a valley near the critical radius $r_c \approx 1$ nm [6, 7]. Swelling in this regime grows rapidly, reaching 0.07% at 35 dpa in HT9 [7] and $\sim 0.2\%/ \text{dpa}$ steady-state swelling rate under self-ion irradiation of HT9 at 460°C and high dose [8]. The He/dpa ratio plays a controlling role: dual-ion irradiation experiments with simultaneous He co-injection demonstrate that high He production lowers the critical cavity radius and nucleates the bimodal distribution at substantially lower doses [9]. Under mixed-spectrum neutron irradiation at HFR Petten, where the He production rate is higher than in BOR-60, Eurofer97 develops higher void densities relative to fast-spectrum irradiation at equivalent dose and temperature [10].

Radiation-induced solute redistribution and precipitation. Beyond dislocation loops and cavities, APT and SANS studies reveal a secondary class of radiation-induced nano-features that contribute significantly to hardening. At 32 dpa and 332°C , APT measurements on Eurofer97 irradiated in BOR-60 show a high density ($\sim 10^{24} \text{ m}^{-3}$) of 3–5 nm clusters enriched in Cr, Mn, and Si [11]. These solute-rich objects—encompassing Cr-rich α' precipitates, Mn–Ni–Si G-phase-like clusters, and loop-decorating “Mn clouds” with CrMn-enriched satellite clusters—are associated with radiation-induced segregation (RIS) at dislocation loops, grain boundaries, and lath boundaries. Cr enrichment and Fe depletion have been quantified at prior-austenite grain boundaries and lath boundaries under higher-dose irradiation (≥ 72 dpa), where phase instability and enhanced segregation become significant [12]. These irradiation-enhanced precipitation phenomena, operating in parallel with dislocation and cavity evolution, contribute to dispersed-barrier hardening and DBTT elevation independently of loop and void microstructure.

Ion vs. neutron irradiation and dose-rate effects. A persistent challenge in building a comprehensive experimental database is the systematic difference between neutron-irradiated microstructures—experimentally accessible

only up to moderate doses in dedicated fast reactors—and those produced by self-ion or dual-ion irradiation, which permit rapid access to high doses at laboratory scale. Self-ion irradiation of Fe-9Cr at 2 dpa/300 °C produces loop densities 2–3 orders of magnitude higher than the matrix value under neutron irradiation, resulting in a spatially homogeneous rather than heterogeneous loop field [13]. The higher dose rate of ion irradiation suppresses defect diffusion relative to production, requiring a +60–70 °C temperature shift to reproduce the neutron-irradiated microstructure [14, 15]. Recent in-situ S/TEM investigations of neutron-irradiated Eurofer97 (15 dpa, 330 °C) further reveal that mobile line dislocations actively absorb irradiation-induced loops and form dislocation networks, a dynamic mechanism not captured by static PIE [16].

The above experimental database, while extensive, has been developed almost exclusively under fission-neutron and ion irradiation conditions that differ fundamentally in neutron energy spectrum and transmutation production ratios from the projected service environment of a fusion demonstration reactor (DEMO) or a Tokamak first wall. In fusion blankets, the 14 MeV neutron spectrum produces helium at rates of 10–15 appm/dpa and hydrogen at rates of 40–50 appm/dpa—roughly one to two orders of magnitude above the fission case—conditions that have been shown to dramatically alter swelling kinetics, bubble nucleation, and loop–void coupling [2, 17]. Experimental data at these conditions do not yet exist and will be prohibitively expensive to generate: IFMIF-DONES, the most advanced planned materials irradiation facility for fusion, will not reach full operation until the mid-2030s and will provide fusion-relevant spectra only up to ~ 50 dpa with a small irradiation volume [18, 19]. Predictive modeling is therefore not merely supplementary to the experimental effort but is an indispensable tool for bridging the current fission/ion database toward fusion-relevant conditions.

The objective of this work is to establish a high-fidelity, quantitatively validated predictive capability for microstructural evolution in Eurofer97 and related F/M steels by systematically comparing the RADCLUSTER cluster dynamics (CD) code against the full available experimental database of defect densities, mean sizes, and size distributions. RADCLUSTER is a generalized, modular CD framework that self-consistently tracks the hierarchical evolution of multi-species defect clusters (SIA clusters, vacancy clusters, He bubbles, and He–vacancy complexes), accounting for mixed 1D/3D transport, solute-trapped SIA migration, and generalized dissociation kinetics [20].

A fundamental challenge facing all CD and rate-theory models is the in-

herent uncertainty in their input parameters: formation, binding, and migration energies of point defects and small clusters; cascade production fractions and survival efficiencies; and reaction rate constants. These quantities are derived from atomistic simulations (DFT, MD) whose accuracy in complex alloy matrices is imperfect, and they have historically been tuned manually or against a very limited subset of experiments. To overcome this limitation, we employ a suite of complementary optimization strategies to navigate the high-dimensional parameter space of RADCLUSTER in a principled, data-driven manner. These include: (i) *Bayesian optimization*, which constructs a probabilistic surrogate of the objective function and intelligently selects parameter candidates to minimize the discrepancy between model and experiment while naturally quantifying parametric uncertainty; (ii) *surrogate-model-assisted optimization* using Gaussian process regression or polynomial chaos expansions trained on a Latin Hypercube Sampling of the parameter space; and (iii) *gradient-free global search* methods (genetic algorithms, differential evolution) to locate global optima in the presence of non-convex, multi-modal objective surfaces.

The importance of rigorous model-experiment comparison extends well beyond the calibration exercise itself. Quantitative agreement between CD predictions and the full experimental database simultaneously provides three forms of scientific value that manual or partial fitting cannot deliver. First, it tests the *physical completeness* of the model: a model that correctly reproduces loop density and mean size at one temperature but fails at another, or that matches loops but not voids, reveals missing physics—unaccounted mechanisms. Second, the inverse-calibration procedure yields a *probability distribution over the parameter space* rather than a single best-fit point, providing quantitative uncertainty bounds on all model predictions. Third, and most consequentially, a model that has been rigorously validated against diverse irradiation conditions—varying temperature, dose, dose rate, particle type, and He/dpa ratio—carries demonstrably higher predictive fidelity when *extrapolated* to conditions outside the calibration database. This last point is the central motivation for the present work. Fusion-relevant irradiation conditions—14 MeV neutron spectra, He/dpa ratios above 10 appm/dpa, and fluence exceeding 100 dpa at 300–550 °C—are not accessible by any currently operating or near-term fission facility. Moreover, the construction and operation of a dedicated fusion neutron source such as IFMIF-DONES will require billions of dollars and a decade. We therefore posit that validated predictive models represent the only near-term pathway to a quantitative

assessment of F/M steel performance under DEMO operating conditions. A RADCLUSTER code whose parameters have been constrained against the largest available fission and ion irradiation databases can extrapolate, with quantified uncertainty, to the high He/dpa ratios and displacement rates of fusion reactors. This predictive leverage—transforming an expensive experimental database into a physics-informed extrapolation tool—is the ultimate goal of the model-experiment integration described in this paper.

The remainder of the paper is organized as follows. Section 2 presents the RADCLUSTER cluster dynamics framework in detail. Subsection 2.1 sets out the coupled master equations governing the size- and composition-resolved cluster distributions, together with the treatment of defect production, energetics, diffusion, dissociation, sink interactions, and the loop-character conversion that couples the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ and $\langle 100 \rangle$ populations. The subsequent subsections formalize which cluster reactions are physically permitted—first defining the admissible vertex set and then encoding the allowed transitions as a Reaction Admissibility Graph (RAG)—and Subsection 2.4 develops the uncertainty-quantification and calibration methodology, in which a multi-strategy pipeline (space-filling design and Sobol sensitivity screening, multi-fidelity Gaussian-process emulation, Bayesian and ensemble-Kalman inversion, and Wasserstein-based comparison of size distributions) is used to infer a posterior distribution over the model parameters and to elevate the calibrated model to a predictive digital twin with quantified uncertainty. Section 3 compares the calibrated model against the experimental database, benchmarking predicted loop and cavity number densities, mean sizes, size distributions, and dislocation-loop character against *in situ* and post-irradiation TEM measurements of Eurofer97 and related F/M steels across a range of doses and temperatures, and applies the validated model to extrapolate microstructural evolution toward fusion-relevant irradiation conditions. Section 4 summarizes the principal findings and their implications for fusion materials development.

2. RADCLUSTER Simulation Methodology

2.1. Model Equations and Parameters

The cluster dynamics framework employed in this work is RADCLUSTER, a spatially-averaged mean-field rate-theory code developed for the quantitative prediction of irradiation-induced microstructure evolution in chemically and structurally complex alloys [21]. RADCLUSTER integrates the

coupled master equations governing the full size- and composition-resolved cluster distributions, simultaneously evolving vacancy clusters, multiple self-interstitial loop populations of distinct Burgers-vector character, and gas-defect complexes, with defect production, energetics, diffusion, dissociation, and sink interactions treated on a common physical footing. Several features distinguish RADCLUSTER from conventional cluster dynamics solvers. The decomposition of each population into 3D-mobile, 1D-glissile, and sessile species with size-dependent rate kernels, together with the explicit treatment of loop-character conversion and helium trapping, allows the code to resolve the competing microstructural pathways that govern swelling and hardening in multi-component steels. The adaptive grouping and moment-based binning of the master equations render the computation tractable across the enormous range of cluster sizes that separates nascent defects from the micron-scale loops and voids that are accessible to electron microscopy. This is what makes RADCLUSTER uniquely suited to the central challenge addressed here: bridging, within a single self-consistent model, the gap between the atomistic scale at which defects are produced and the experimentally observable microstructure, so that the code can be rigorously calibrated against, and validated by, the full database of measured loop and void densities and size distributions. Crucially, because its parameters are physically grounded rather than fitted to a single condition, a validated RADCLUSTER model retains predictive fidelity when extrapolated beyond the reach of current experiments—to the high He/dpa ratios and the design-relevant displacement-damage levels of a fusion power plant—thereby providing a physics-informed description of the microstructure under DEMO-relevant conditions that no presently operating irradiation facility can reproduce. For mathematical and formulation details, the reader is referred to our recent publication [20].

For EUROFER-97 under neutron irradiation, the only resolved trapped solute is helium: $N_g = 1$, $g_1 = \text{He}$, $\ell = (\ell)$, so the gas reservoir $c_1^g(t) \equiv c_h(t)$ and the composition vector reduce to the scalar helium occupancy $\ell \in \mathbb{Z}_{\geq 0}$. EUROFER-97 carries two self-interstitial (SIA) loop populations of distinct Burgers-vector character on the positive polarity, together with a single vacancy population on the negative polarity:

$$\mathcal{P}_-^{\text{EUR}} = \{ \text{bulk} \}, \quad N_P^V = 1, \quad (1)$$

$$\mathcal{P}_+^{\text{EUR}} = \{ \text{bulk-111}, \text{bulk-100} \}, \quad N_P^I = 2. \quad (2)$$

The positive polarity resolves two distinct SIA loop characters as separate

populations: the glissile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops (bulk-111), which are 3D-mobile clusters for $n < 4$ and 1D-glissile prismatic loops for $n \geq 4$, and the sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops (bulk-100), which form during microstructural evolution and act as essentially immobile sinks. Within each loop population the 3D/1D mobility distinction is encoded in size-dependent rate kernels; the two characters, by contrast, are tracked as separate population labels and are coupled by the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ conversion edges introduced below. Grain boundaries, the dislocation network, and MX/M₂₃C₆ precipitates are treated as fixed unresolved sinks. On the negative polarity a single vacancy population is retained and its label is suppressed, while on the positive polarity the loop-character label is kept explicit:

$$c_{n,\alpha}^I(t) \rightarrow c_n^{(111)}(t), c_n^{(100)}(t), \quad c_{m,(\ell),\beta}^V(t) \rightarrow c_{m,\ell}(t), \quad c_1^g(t) \rightarrow c_h(t). \quad (3)$$

Admissible vertex set.

$$\mathcal{V}_-^{\text{EUR}} = \{ (-1, m, \text{bulk}, (\ell)) : 1 \leq m \leq N_V, 0 \leq \ell \leq \ell_{\max}(m) \}, \quad (4)$$

$$\mathcal{V}_+^{\text{EUR}} = \{ (+1, n, p, \mathbf{0}) : p \in \{\text{bulk-111}, \text{bulk-100}\}, 1 \leq n \leq N_I \}, \quad (5)$$

$$\mathcal{V}_0^{\text{EUR}} = \{ g_1 = \text{He} \}, \quad (6)$$

comprising the size-resolved glissile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ and sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ SIA loop populations, size-resolved voids ($\ell = 0$) and helium bubbles ($\ell \geq 1$), and the single matrix He reservoir. The sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ vertices are admissible only for $n \geq n_{\text{conv}}$ (the conversion onset size, Eq. (32)).

Equations (4)–(6) yield three defect classes evolved by the master equations, with the SIA class resolved into two coupled loop-character populations: (1a) $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ SIA loops $c_n^{(111)}(t)$, $n = 1, \dots, N_I$: glissile prismatic loops for $n \geq 4$ and 3D-mobile clusters for $n = 1, 2, 3$, fed by the cascade source and carrying no helium; (1b) $\langle 100 \rangle$ SIA loops $c_n^{(100)}(t)$, $n \geq n_{\text{conv}}$: sessile prismatic loops generated *only* by $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ conversion (no cascade source, no self-coalescence), carrying no helium; (2) vacancy clusters / cavities $c_{m,\ell}(t)$, $m = 1, \dots, N_V$, $\ell = 0, \dots, \ell_{\max}(m)$: spherical cavities, pure voids when $\ell = 0$ and helium bubbles when $\ell \geq 1$; (3) free helium $c_h(t)$, the single gas-reservoir variable. The signed lattice-defect contents of both SIA characters are positive,

$$q(I_n^{(111)}) = +n, \quad q(I_n^{(100)}) = +n, \quad q(V_m \text{He}_\ell) = -m, \quad q(\text{He}) = 0, \quad (7)$$

as required by the conservation law; the conversion edges relabel SIA content between the two positive populations and therefore leave the total interstitial inventory unchanged.

All pairwise reaction rate constants are obtained from the Smoluchowski capture model in atomic-fraction units. For a mobile point defect α absorbed by an immobile spherical cluster of m defects, the diffusion-limited form reduces to

$$\mathcal{K}_{\alpha,m}^{3D} = 8\pi \xi(m) \omega_{\alpha} [\text{s}^{-1}], \quad (8)$$

with the void, dislocation-loop, recombination, and mixed 1D/3D-glide capture constants ($\mathcal{K}^{\text{void}}$, $\mathcal{K}_{i,n}^{\text{loop}}$, $\mathcal{K}_{iv}$, $\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{\text{mixed}}$), the 1D-glide reaction frequencies ω_n^{1D} , and the correlated 1D versus 3D. Thermal emission of species α from a size- n cluster is fixed by detailed balance against the capture rate,

$$\mathcal{E}_{\alpha}(n) = \mathcal{K}_{\alpha}(n-1) \frac{1}{\Omega} \exp\left(-\frac{E_b^{\alpha}(n)}{k_B T}\right), \quad (9)$$

with the corresponding loop-emission, vacancy/helium bubble-emission, and trap-mutation expressions also collected in Section ??, where Table E.23 lists the rate-constant prefactors, sink parameters, and state-space controls used throughout.

2.2. Reaction Admissibility Graph (RAG) & Master Equations

The dislocation network is a microstructural feature of irradiated F/M steels. Beyond serving as a static point-defect sink (process class P4), the network also captures glissile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ and sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops that grow large enough to overlap or intersect a dislocation line—two additional processes that we designate P10 ($\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loop absorbed by network) and P11 ($\langle 100 \rangle$ loop absorbed by network). Incorporating these edges into the $\mathcal{G}$ requires a dynamic network model in which the dislocation density ρ_{net} responds to the evolving loop population; the remainder of this paragraph develops that model, after which the full $\mathcal{G}$ for EUROFER-97 is assembled.

For a circular prismatic loop of n SIAs of character $c \in \{111, 100\}$ with Burgers-vector magnitude b_c , the platelet area is $n\Omega/b_c$, so the loop diameter is

$$d_n^{(c)} = 2 \left(\frac{n\Omega}{\pi b_c} \right)^{1/2}. \quad (10)$$

The mean loop-network spacing is

$$L_{\ell d} = \rho_{\text{net}}^{-1/2}, \quad s_{\ell d}(n) = \max[b_c, L_{\ell d} - \frac{1}{2}d_n^{(c)}], \quad (11)$$

the edge-to-edge gap between a loop and the nearest network line, clamped from below to prevent nonphysical negative gaps.

The elastic interaction range of a loop of size n is $R_{\text{int}}(n) = \chi d_n^{(c)}$, with $\chi = \mathcal{O}(1)$ as the dimensionless geometric range parameter, μ as the shear modulus, and T as the temperature. A smooth threshold gates the transfer based on the geometric proximity of the loop to the network.

$$P_{\ell d}(n) = \frac{1}{2} \left[1 + \tanh \left(\frac{R_{\text{int}}(n) - s_{\ell d}(n)}{\Delta_{\ell d}} \right) \right], \quad \Delta_{\ell d} \sim b_c, \quad (12)$$

so $P_{\ell d} \rightarrow 0$ in the dilute limit ($L_{\ell d} \gg R_{\text{int}}$) and $P_{\ell d} \rightarrow 1$ once the loop's elastic zone reaches the mean network spacing.

Loop incorporation proceeds by the network sweeping or climbing past a stationary loop, so the relevant kinetics are set by the *network*, not the loop. We write

$$\Lambda_n^{\text{net}} = \nu^{\text{net}} P_{\ell d}(n), \quad \nu^{\text{net}} = v_{\text{net}} \rho_{\text{net}} w_c, \quad (13)$$

where v_{net} is the effective network climb/glide velocity, ρ_{net} the network line density, and $w_c = \mathcal{O}(b_c)$ a capture width. The product $v_{\text{net}} \rho_{\text{net}}$ is the area swept by the network per unit volume per unit time; w_c converts it to a capture probability per loop. The climb velocity is itself irradiation-driven,

$$v_{\text{net}} = \frac{\Omega}{b} (Z_i \omega_i^{\text{eff}} c_i - Z_v \omega_v^{\text{eff}} c_v), \quad (14)$$

i.e. proportional to the net biased point-defect flux already computed for the P4 sink—so no new transport physics is introduced. Because Eq. (13) contains *no* factor of D_n^{eff} , the channel is active for sessile loops, as required. A glissile-loop enhancement may be added later as a separate, clearly labeled term; it is not needed for the saturation behavior and is omitted here to keep the parameter set minimal.

The loop population loses members to the network at

$$\left. \frac{dc_n}{dt} \right|_{\text{net}} = -\Lambda_n^{\text{net}} c_n, \quad (15)$$

applied to both the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ and $\langle 100 \rangle$ populations for $n \geq n_{\text{inc}}$ (an incorporation-onset size; loops below n_{inc} are too small to register on the network and are excluded).

Each absorbed loop injects n SIAs into the network and adds approximately one loop circumference of dislocation line. In atom-fraction variables

(the code’s internal unit), number density is c_n/Ω , so line-length and SIA-content conservation require

$$\left. \frac{dN_I^{\text{net}}}{dt} \right|_{\text{gain}} = \sum_c \sum_{n \geq n_{\text{inc}}} n \Lambda_n^{\text{net}} c_n^{(c)}, \quad (16)$$

$$\frac{d\rho_{\text{net}}}{dt} = \frac{\pi}{\Omega} \sum_c \sum_{n \geq n_{\text{inc}}} d_n^{(c)} \Lambda_n^{\text{net}} c_n^{(c)} - \underbrace{K_{\text{rec}} \rho_{\text{net}}^{3/2}}_{\text{recovery}}. \quad (17)$$

The recovery sink $K_{\text{rec}} \rho_{\text{net}}^{3/2}$ is *mandatory*: with a gain term alone, ρ_{net} grows without bound, and the model merely relocates the non-saturation problem from loops to the network. K_{rec} sets the steady-state network density and is the second of the two primary calibration parameters.

The Frenkel-pair diagnostic subtracts the cumulative SIA content lost to fixed sinks, J_I^{fix} . The network *is* a fixed sink, so the SIAs carried away by absorbed loops, Eq. (16), are routed into the *same* integral:

$$\frac{dJ_I^{\text{fix}}}{dt} += \sum_c \sum_{n \geq n_{\text{inc}}} n \Lambda_n^{\text{net}} c_n^{(c)}. \quad (18)$$

Making ρ_{net} a fully implicit state variable would make the P4 sink diagonal state-dependent and break the banded-plus-low-rank Jacobian structure that the Woodbury preconditioner relies on, forcing a preconditioner/Jacobian rewrite. ρ_{net} evolves on the dose timescale—orders of magnitude slower than the point-defect relaxation that sets solver stiffness—so it is held *piecewise constant within each integration segment* and refreshed *between* segments by operator splitting. First, we integrate the stiff cluster system over a segment with ρ_{net} frozen, accumulating the gain integral $\int \frac{\pi}{\Omega} \sum d_n \Lambda_n c_n dt$ as an ordinary (non-stiff) quadrature. We then advance Eq. (17) explicitly (gain – recovery) to update ρ_{net} between segments. Finally, we rebuild the reaction rates so the P4 sink picks up the new ρ_{net} for the next segment. Within a segment, all kernels remain constant; the Jacobian sparsity, the band structure, and the Woodbury low-rank update are unchanged.

The network channel combines with the existing fixed sinks by the standard additive-sink-strength rule (not the discontinuous min of length scales used in the earlier draft): the total loss diagonal is the sum of the P4 fixed sink rate and Λ_n^{net} . This is smooth in the state and consistent with how P4d/P4gb/P4p are already summed.

The admissible edges of $\mathcal{G}^{\text{EUR}}$ ($\chi_{ab \rightarrow c} = 1$, & $\chi_{a \rightarrow b} = 1$) partition into eleven process classes, each mapped to an abstract edge class. Because the SIA class comprises two loop-character populations, the inter-population transfer edge (P9) is active and carries the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ conversion (Dudarev unary reorientation [22], Marian junction nucleation, and Marian absorption growth [23]); the defect production edge is treated as a source term that feeds the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ population alone. The explicit rate-kernel expressions corresponding to each of the eleven process classes (P1–P11) above — i.e., the actual form of every kernel $\mathcal{K}$, $\mathcal{D}$, ε , and Γ — are collected in Table 1.

Mobile clusters are bounded by size limits from Table E.23: $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ SIA clusters are mobile (3D or 1D) for $1 \leq n \leq i_{\text{mobile}}$; larger $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ clusters are sessile dislocation loops, acting only as fixed sinks. The $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops are sessile at every size ($D_n^{100} \equiv 0$) and grow or shrink only through single-monomer exchange. Vacancy clusters are 3D mobile for $1 \leq m \leq v_{\text{mobile}}$; larger cavities grow or shrink only through single-monomer absorption or emission. Under the mono-defect simplification ($i_{\text{mobile}} = v_{\text{mobile}} = 1$), the coalescence rate constants reduce to

$$\mathcal{K}_{n,1}^{ii} \big|_{n'=1} = \mathcal{K}_{i,n}^{\text{loop}} = A_{\text{loop}} n^{1/2} Z_i^{\text{loop}} \omega_i^{\text{eff}}, \quad (19)$$

$$\mathcal{K}_{m,1}^{vv} \big|_{m'=1} = \mathcal{K}_{v,m}^{\text{cav}} = A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_v^{\text{eff}}, \quad (20)$$

$$\mathcal{K}_{m=1,n=1}^{vi} = \mathcal{K}_{iv} = 4\sqrt{3} \pi (\omega_i^{\text{eff}} + \omega_v^{\text{eff}}). \quad (21)$$

The most complete description allows any two mobile clusters to react. The intra- and cross-polarity channels are $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ SIA–SIA coalescence ($I_n + I_{n'} \rightarrow I_{n+n'}$), vacancy–vacancy coalescence ($V_m + V_{m'} \rightarrow V_{m+m'}$), and V–I annihilation ($V_m + I_n \rightarrow V_{m-n}, I_{n-m}$ or $\emptyset$). All three share the diffusion-limited two-mobile-cluster form

$$\mathcal{K}_{a,b} = 8\pi (\xi_a + \xi_b) (\omega_a^{\text{eff}} + \omega_b^{\text{eff}}), \quad \xi_a = (3a/8\pi)^{1/3}, \quad (22)$$

restricted to mobile sizes ($\leq i_{\text{mobile}}, v_{\text{mobile}}$); the channel-specific constants and size restrictions are given in Section 2.3. He–He coalescence is excluded because the interstitial He–He binding energy in bcc Fe is negligible ($\lesssim 0.05$ eV).

The abstract master equation is assembled algorithmically by looping over every admissible edge $r \in \mathcal{E}^{\text{EUR}}$, computing the flux J_r , and accumulating the signed contribution $S_{ar} J_r$ into each affected population a .

Table 1: Consolidated rate-kernel expressions for the eleven reaction process classes. Each kernel maps a process Pn to its abstract edge class and the explicit rate-constant expression used by RADCLUSTER. All rate constants are in s^{-1} and concentrations in at/at ; $\omega_\alpha^{\text{eff}}$ are effective reaction frequencies and $A_{\text{sph}}, A_{\text{loop}}, A_{1D}, B_{\text{rot}}$ the geometric prefactors of Table E.23.

Process	Abstract edge class	Kernel	Rate-constant expression
P1: V-SIA recombination	cross-polarity (recombination)	$\mathcal{K}_{iv}$	$4\sqrt{3}\pi (\omega_i^{\text{eff}} + \omega_v^{\text{eff}})$
P2: cavity absorption of mono- α	growth / shrinkage	$\mathcal{K}_{\alpha,m}^{\text{cav}}$	$A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_\alpha^{\text{eff}}$
He capture by bubble	growth / shrinkage	$\mathcal{K}_{h,m}$	$A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_h^{\text{eff}}$
P3: loop absorption of mono- α (SIA, biased)	growth / shrinkage	$\mathcal{K}_{i,n}^{\text{loop}}$	$A_{\text{loop}} n^{1/2} Z_i^{\text{loop}} \omega_i^{\text{eff}}$
(vacancy, unbiased)	growth / shrinkage	$\mathcal{K}_{v,n}^{\text{loop}}$	$A_{\text{loop}} n^{1/2} \omega_v^{\text{eff}}$
P4: absorption at fixed sink (dislocation)	sink edge	$\mathcal{D}_\alpha^d$	$Z_\alpha^d \rho_d a^2 \omega_\alpha^{\text{eff}}$
(grain boundary)	sink edge	$\mathcal{D}_\alpha^{gb}$	$(4\pi^2/d_g^2) a^2 \omega_\alpha^{\text{eff}}$
(precipitate)	sink edge	$\mathcal{D}_\alpha^p$	$(8\pi r_p/a) c_p^N \omega_\alpha^{\text{eff}}$
P5: thermal monomer emission (V)	dissociation	$\varepsilon_v(m, \ell)$	$A_{\text{sph}} (m-1)^{1/3} \omega_v^{\text{eff}} e^{-E_b^v(m, \ell)/k_B T}$
(SIA from loop)	dissociation	$\varepsilon_i(n)$	$A_{\text{loop}} (n-1)^{1/2} \omega_i^{\text{eff}} e^{-E_b^i(n)/k_B T}$
(He from bubble)	dissociation	$\varepsilon_h(m, \ell)$	$A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_h^{\text{eff}} e^{-E_B^{\text{He}}(m, \ell)/k_B T}$
P6: 1D-gliding SIA cluster $\rightarrow$ cavity (mixed 1D/3D)	cross-polarity	$\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{\text{eff}}$	$A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_n^{1D} / (1 + B_{\text{rot}} \hat{L}^2 m^{-1/3})$
(pure 1D limit)	cross-polarity	$\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{1D}$	$A_{1D} m^{4/3} \omega_n^{1D}$
P7: trap mutation	gas-pressure-driven	$\Gamma_{\text{TM}}(m, \ell)$	$\nu_0 e^{-E_{\text{TM}}(m, \ell)/k_B T}$
P8: radiation re-solution	solute detrapping	$\Gamma_{\text{res}}(m, \ell)$	$b_0 \ell \dot{\phi}$
P9: $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ conversion	inter-population transfer	$\Gamma_{\text{uni}}, \varphi_{\text{junc}}, K^{\text{abs}}$	unary reorientation + junction nucleation; see Eqs. (26), (30), (36), (40)

Define the total cavity concentration at vacancy size m and the combined fixed-sink rate:

$$\bar{c}_m(t) \equiv \sum_{\ell=0}^{\ell_{\max}(m)} c_{m,\ell}(t), \quad \mathcal{D}_\alpha = \mathcal{D}_\alpha^d + \mathcal{D}_\alpha^{gb} + \mathcal{D}_\alpha^p. \quad (23)$$

Irradiated bcc Fe and F/M steels develop prismatic interstitial loops of two types: glissile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops, which are mobile to large sizes, and sessile square $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops [24, 25]. Elasticity favors the smaller $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ vector, and cascades inject almost exclusively $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ clusters [23], yet $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops dominate at elevated temperatures and must therefore be *generated* in situ. We model this with two additive channels feeding Eqs. (24)–(27): a thermodynamic single-loop transformation (Channel A) carrying the temperature trend [22], and a kinetic junction route (Channel B) carrying the dose- and size-dependence [23, 26]. The glissile population obeys the full SIA master equation, augmented by the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ coupling (P9). Cascades feed this population alone, $G_n \equiv G_n^{(111)}$. The junction reaction of two comparable $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops removes both reactants from this population (ordinary coalescence loss) but *redirects* a size-comparability fraction φ_{junc} of the coalescence *product* into the $\langle 100 \rangle$ population; the surviving fraction $(1 - \varphi_{\text{junc}})$ remains glissile. Hence, the coalescence gain below carries the $(1 - \varphi_{\text{junc}})$ weight, with the complementary product appearing in Eq. (27).

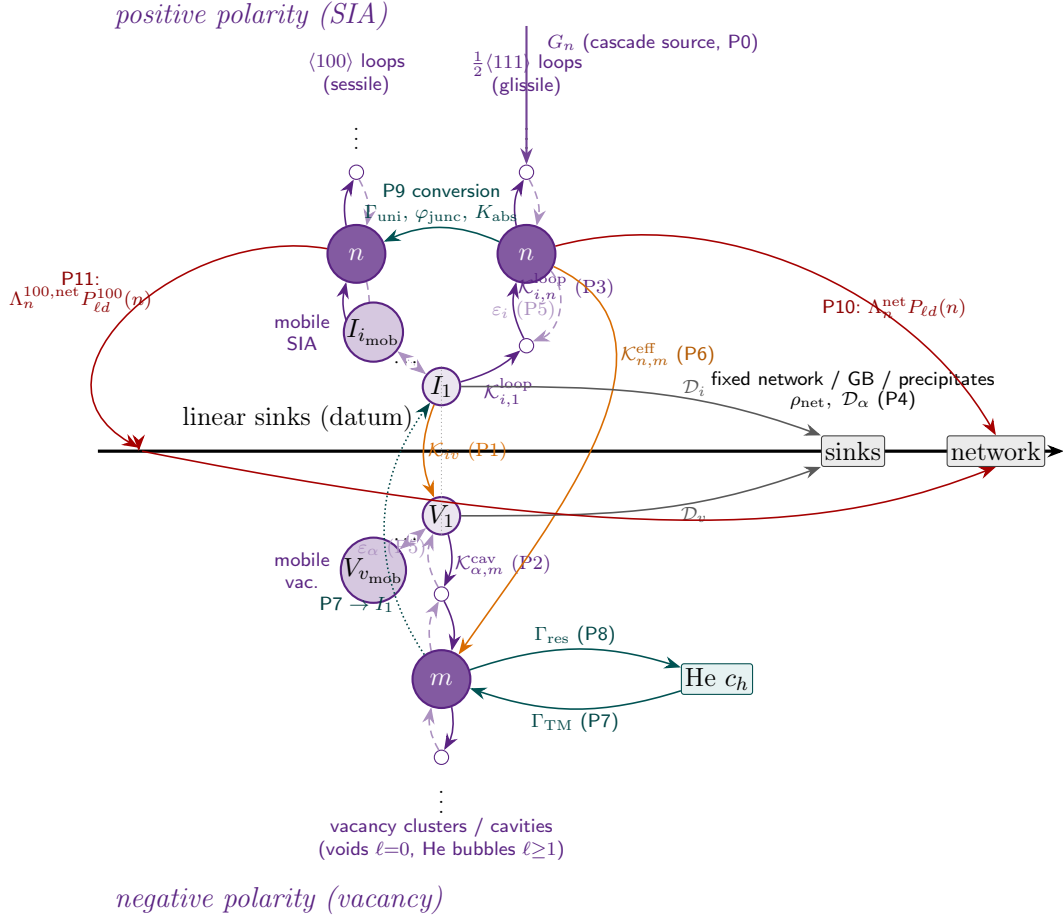


Figure 1: Reaction Admissibility Graph (RAG) for EUROFER-97. Vertices are the size-resolved defect populations: the sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ and glissile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ SIA loop ladders on the positive polarity (above the datum), the vacancy cluster/cavity ladder on the negative polarity (below), and the fixed linear sinks (network, grain boundaries, precipitates) and helium reservoir on or near the datum. Flanking the datum are the *mobile* defect groups: small interstitial clusters $I_1, \dots, I_{i_{\text{mob}}}$ above and vacancy clusters $V_1, \dots, V_{v_{\text{mob}}}$ below, which are the migrating species feeding every reaction edge (the single monomers I_1, V_1 are recovered when $i_{\text{mob}}=v_{\text{mob}}=1$). A generic size n (SIA) and m (vacancy) is drawn per population. Directed edges are the admissible processes, each annotated with its reaction kernel: intra-ladder growth (P2, P3) and thermal emission (P5); cross-polarity recombination $\mathcal{K}_{iv}$ (P1) and 1D-glide capture $\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{\text{eff}}$ (P6); fixed-sink absorption $\mathcal{D}_\alpha$ (P4); trap mutation Γ_{TM} (P7) and radiation re-solution Γ_{res} (P8); the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ conversion (P9); and network incorporation of $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ (P10) and $\langle 100 \rangle$ (P11) loops. The cascade source G_n feeds the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ population alone. These edges are exactly the terms accumulated by the master equations below.

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{dc_n^{(111)}}{dt} = & \underbrace{G_n}_{\text{production}} + \underbrace{\frac{1}{2} \sum_{n'=1}^{\min(n-1, i_{\text{mobile}})} [1 - \varphi_{\text{junc}}(n', n-n')] \mathcal{K}_{n', n-n'}^{ii} c_{n'}^{(111)} c_{n-n'}^{(111)}}_{\text{SIA-SIA coalescence gain, glissile product}} \\
& - \underbrace{c_n^{(111)} \sum_{n'=1}^{i_{\text{mobile}}} \mathcal{K}_{n, n'}^{ii} c_{n'}^{(111)}}_{\text{SIA-SIA coalescence loss } (I_n + I_{n'} \rightarrow I_{n+n'})} + \underbrace{\varepsilon_i(n+1) c_{n+1}^{(111)} - \varepsilon_i(n) c_n^{(111)} \delta_{n \geq 2}}_{\text{thermal emission (SIA from loops, P5)}} \\
& + \underbrace{\sum_{m'=1}^{v_{\text{mobile}}} \mathcal{K}_{m', n+m'}^{vi} c_{m',0} c_{n+m'}^{(111)}}_{\text{V-I annihilation gain } (V_{m'} + I_{n+m'} \rightarrow I_n)} - \underbrace{\sum_{m'=1}^{v_{\text{mobile}}} \mathcal{K}_{m', n}^{vi} c_{m',0} c_n^{(111)}}_{\text{V-I annihilation loss } (V_{m'} + I_n \rightarrow I_{n-m'})} \\
& - \underbrace{\sum_{m=1}^{N_V} \mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{(\text{cav})} c_n^{(111)} \bar{c}_m}_{\text{SIA cluster} \rightarrow \text{cavity absorption (P2/P6)}} - \underbrace{\mathcal{D}_i(n) c_n^{(111)}}_{\text{fixed-sink loss (mobile clusters only, P4)}} \\
& + \underbrace{\delta_{n=1} \sum_{m=1}^{N_V} \sum_{\ell=1}^{\ell_{\text{max}}(m)} \Gamma_{\text{TM}}(m, \ell) c_{m,\ell}}_{\text{trap-mutation SIA source at } n=1 \text{ (P7)}} + \left. \frac{dc_n^{(111)}}{dt} \right|_{\text{conv}}^{(\text{P9})}, - \underbrace{\Lambda_n^{\text{net}} P_{\ell d}(n) c_n^{(111)}}_{\text{network capture (P10)}}
\end{aligned} \tag{24}$$

where the cavity rate constant $\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{(\text{cav})}$ is

$$\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{(\text{cav})} = \begin{cases} A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_i^{\text{eff}}, & 1 \leq n \leq 3 \text{ (3D, P2)}, \\ \frac{A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_n^{1D}}{1 + B_{\text{rot}} \hat{L}^2 m^{-1/3}}, & 4 \leq n \leq i_{\text{mobile}} \text{ (1D/3D, P6)}, \\ 0, & n > i_{\text{mobile}} \text{ (sessile)}, \end{cases} \tag{25}$$

and the glissile-side conversion coupling collects the unary depletion, the $\langle 100 \rangle$ absorption capture, and the monomer exchange with the sessile ladders (growth consumes a $\frac{1}{2} \langle 111 \rangle$ monomer; shrink of sub-onset loops and thermal

emission return one):

$$\begin{aligned}
\left. \frac{dc_n^{(111)}}{dt} \right|_{\text{conv}}^{\text{P9}} = & - \underbrace{\Gamma_{\text{uni}}(n) c_n^{(111)}}_{\text{unary reorientation}} - \underbrace{c_n^{(111)} \sum_{m \geq n_{\text{conv}}} K_{m,n}^{\text{abs}} c_m^{(100)}}_{\text{absorbed by sessile } \langle 100 \rangle} \\
& + \delta_{n=1} \sum_{n' \geq n_{\text{conv}}} \left[\varepsilon^{100}(n') c_{n'}^{(100)} - \mathcal{K}_g^{100}(n') c_{n'}^{(100)} c_1^{(111)} \right] \\
& + \underbrace{\mathcal{K}_s^{100}(n_{\text{conv}}) c_{n_{\text{conv}}}^{(100)} c_{1,0} \delta_{n=n_{\text{conv}}-1}}_{\text{shrink dissolves to } \frac{1}{2} \langle 111 \rangle}.
\end{aligned} \tag{26}$$

The $\langle 100 \rangle$ population has no cascade source and no self-coalescence (its loops are immobile, $D_n^{100} \equiv 0$). It is created by the three conversion channels (P9) and subsequently grows or shrinks only by exchanging single point defects with the matrix — absorbing $\frac{1}{2} \langle 111 \rangle$ SIA monomers ($\mathcal{K}_g^{100}$), absorbing vacancy monomers ($\mathcal{K}_s^{100}$, an SIA–vacancy annihilation that shrinks the loop), and emitting SIA monomers back into the $\frac{1}{2} \langle 111 \rangle$ pool (ε^{100}):

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{dc_n^{(100)}}{dt} = & \underbrace{\Gamma_{\text{uni}}(n) c_n^{(111)}}_{\text{unary } \frac{1}{2} \langle 111 \rangle_n \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle_n \text{ (A)}} + \underbrace{\frac{1}{2} \sum_{n'+n''=n} \varphi_{\text{junc}}(n', n'') \mathcal{K}_{n',n''}^{ii} c_{n'}^{(111)} c_{n''}^{(111)}}_{\text{junction nucleation (B)}} \\
& + \underbrace{\sum_{n'=1}^{i_{\text{mobile}}} K_{n-n',n'}^{\text{abs}} c_{n-n'}^{(100)} c_{n'}^{(111)}}_{\text{absorption growth gain } (\langle 100 \rangle_{n-n'} + I_{n'}^{(111)} \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle_n)} - \underbrace{c_n^{(100)} \sum_{n'=1}^{i_{\text{mobile}}} K_{n,n'}^{\text{abs}} c_{n'}^{(111)}}_{\text{absorption growth loss}} \\
& + \underbrace{\mathcal{K}_g^{100}(n-1) c_{n-1}^{(100)} c_1^{(111)} - \mathcal{K}_g^{100}(n) c_n^{(100)} c_1^{(111)}}_{\text{SIA-monomer capture growth } (\langle 100 \rangle_n + I_1^{(111)} \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle_{n+1})} \\
& + \underbrace{\mathcal{K}_s^{100}(n+1) c_{n+1}^{(100)} c_{1,0} - \mathcal{K}_s^{100}(n) c_n^{(100)} c_{1,0}}_{\text{vacancy-monomer capture shrinkage } (\langle 100 \rangle_n + V_1 \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle_{n-1})} \\
& + \underbrace{\varepsilon^{100}(n+1) c_{n+1}^{(100)} - \varepsilon^{100}(n) c_n^{(100)}}_{\text{thermal SIA emission (P5)}}, \quad n \geq n_{\text{conv}}. - \underbrace{\Lambda_n^{100,\text{net}} P_{\ell d}^{100}(n) c_n^{(100)}}_{\text{network capture (P11)}}
\end{aligned} \tag{27}$$

The boundary fluxes are handled so that SIA content is conserved across the onset: an SIA monomer emitted or a vacancy captured at $n = n_{\text{conv}}$ returns the loop to the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ population [the δ -terms in Eq. (26)], and the corresponding vacancy monomer consumed by shrinkage is debited from $\dot{c}_{1,0}$ in Eq. (41). Because $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops are immobile, they contribute no $\mathcal{D}_i$ fixed-sink loss and act *as* biased sinks for the mobile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ flux.

2.3. Dislocation Loop Mechanisms

The conversion reactions of glissile-to-sessile dislocation loops are based on two established mechanisms.

1. Dudarev Channel: unary elastic instability conversion[22]: The free energy of a loop of n SIAs and character $X \in \{111, 100\}$ follows the anisotropic-elasticity form of [22],

$$E_l^X(n, T) = P_X(n) \left[\hat{F}_X(T) \ln \frac{4R_X^*(n)}{e\delta} + F_\delta^X(T) + F_c^X \right], \quad (28)$$

with P_X the perimeter, R_X^* the equivalent-circle radius, δ the core cut-off, $\hat{F}_X$ the prelogarithmic energy factor, and core constants in Table 2. The geometry follows from the platelet area $A = n\Omega/b_X$,

$$R_X^*(n) = \sqrt{A/\pi}, \quad P_{111}(n) = 6\sqrt{\frac{2A}{3\sqrt{3}}} \text{ (hexagon)}, \quad P_{100}(n) = 4\sqrt{A} \text{ (square)}, \quad (29)$$

and the pure-edge $\langle 100 \rangle [100]$ prelogarithmic factor is analytic and *vanishes* as the shear constant $c' = \frac{1}{2}(c_{11} - c_{12})$ softens:

$$\hat{F}_{001}([100]) = \frac{a^2}{4\pi}(c_{11}+c_{12}) \left[\frac{c_{44}(c_{11}-c_{12})}{c_{11}(c_{11}+c_{12}+2c_{44})} \right]^{1/2} \xrightarrow{c' \rightarrow 0} 0. \quad (30)$$

The softening is driven by spin fluctuations approaching the α - γ transition,

$$c'(T) \simeq 56.8 (1 - T/T_c)^{1/2} \text{ GPa}, \quad T_c = 1185 \text{ K}, \quad (31)$$

so the $\langle 100 \rangle$ elastic self-energy collapses at high T while the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ energy does not.

A loop of size n reorients once $\langle 100 \rangle$ is lower in energy, providing a per-loop driving force

$$\Delta F(n, T) = E_l^{111}(n, T) - E_l^{100}(n, T) = P(n) \Delta f(T), \quad (32)$$

parametrized through a per-length difference in which only the $\langle 100 \rangle$ prelogarithmic part softens, with the exponent fixed at $1/4$ by $\hat{F}_{001} \propto (1 - T/T_c)^{1/4}$ from Eq. (30):

$$f_{100}(T) = f_{100}^{\text{core}} + f_{100}^{\text{pre}} (1 - T/T_c)^{1/4}, \quad \Delta f(T) = f_{111} - f_{100}(T) \quad (33)$$

The single fit quantity is the crossover temperature T^* (where $\Delta f = 0$), chosen so that conversion turns on near 350°C and is strongly favored by 550°C , reproducing the three stability regions of [22]; conversion is admissible for $T > T^*$, and the onset size n_{conv} is the smallest n with $\Delta F(n, T) > 0$. The transformation is thermally activated and one-way; propagating segment-by-segment [23], its barrier scales with the perimeter,

$$\begin{aligned} \Gamma_{\text{uni}}(n, T) &= \nu_0 \exp\left[-\frac{E_a^{\text{uni}}(n)}{k_B T}\right] \max\left[0, 1 - \exp\left(-\frac{\Delta F(n, T)}{k_B T}\right)\right] \\ E_a^{\text{uni}}(n) &= E_a^0 + \gamma_a \frac{P(n)}{b_{111}} \end{aligned} \quad (34)$$

so the gating factor favors large loops, while the size-dependent barrier suppresses them, giving a preferred conversion-size window that reproduces the spontaneous transformation of *small* loops upon heating [26] and leaves large loops to convert via Channel B.

2. Marian Channel: junction nucleation and absorption growth.[23]: Two comparable mobile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops that collide can react through the junction [23, 27]

$$\frac{1}{2}[111] + \frac{1}{2}[\bar{1}\bar{1}\bar{1}] \rightarrow [100], \quad (36)$$

forming a single $\langle 100 \rangle$ loop; this occurs only for similarly sized partners (otherwise, the smaller simply rotates into the larger, i.e., ordinary coalescence). We branch the same-polarity kernel $\mathcal{K}^{ii}$ (Eq. 38) with a size-comparability fraction

$$\varphi_{\text{junc}}(n, n') = \varphi_{\text{max}} P_s(T) \exp\left[-\frac{(\ln(n/n'))^2}{2\sigma_s^2}\right] \Theta(\min(n, n') \geq n_{j,\text{min}}) \quad (37)$$

so that the product fraction φ_{junc} enters the $\langle 100 \rangle$ population [Eq. (27)] and the complement $(1 - \varphi_{\text{junc}})$ remains glissile [Eq. (24)], with $P_s(T)$

the Marian two-step success probability and

$$\mathcal{K}_{n,n'}^{ii} = \frac{8\pi}{\Omega^{2/3}} (\xi_n + \xi_{n'}) (D_n^{111} + D_{n'}^{111}), \quad \xi_n = \left(\frac{3n}{8\pi}\right)^{1/3}. \quad (38)$$

Once formed, $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops are stationary and act as biased sinks for mobile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ clusters [23],

$$[100]_m + \frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle_n \rightarrow [100]_{m+n}, \quad (39)$$

the dominant route to TEM-visible $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops, with cross-character capture kernel driven by the mobile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ partner ($D_m^{100} \approx 0$),

$$K_{m,n}^{\text{abs}} = \frac{8\pi}{\Omega^{2/3}} (\xi_m + \xi_n) (D_m^{100} + D_n^{111}) \approx \frac{8\pi}{\Omega^{2/3}} (\xi_m + \xi_n) D_n^{111}. \quad (40)$$

The sessile point-defect kernels of Eq. (27) are the loop-absorption forms specialized for a $\langle 100 \rangle$ target: $\mathcal{K}_g^{100}(n) = A_{\text{loop}} n^{1/2} Z_i^{\text{loop}} \omega_i^{\text{eff}}$ (SIA-monomer capture) $\mathcal{K}_s^{100}(n) = A_{\text{loop}} n^{1/2} \omega_v^{\text{eff}}$ (vacancy-monomer capture), and $\varepsilon^{100}(n)$ the detailed-balance emission rate against $\mathcal{K}_g^{100}$ with $\langle 100 \rangle$ binding energy $E_b^{100}(n) = A_{100} n^{-B_{100}}$.

Every term in Eqs. (26)–(27) conserves the total SIA inventory $\sum_n n (c_n^{(111)} + c_n^{(100)})$: the unary and junction channels relabel content at fixed (or summed) sizes, the absorption channel carries the summed size into the product, and the growth/emission ladders only exchange single SIA monomers between the two populations. The only net SIA loss from the $\langle 100 \rangle$ population is the vacancy-capture shrinkage, which is a Frenkel-pair annihilation accounted for symmetrically in $\dot{c}_{1,0}$. The Frenkel-pair diagnostic is therefore unaffected by the split, provided S_I sums over both characters [Eq. (46)].

The numerical inputs to this two-population description are collected in two tables: Table 2 lists the zero-temperature core constants of the loop free energy, and Table 3 gives the conversion-model parameters—the softening temperature, shear-softening law, and related quantities—that are calibrated against the measured $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ fraction.

Table 2: Zero-temperature core constants for the loop free energy (28), after [22] (eV/Å).

term	111[11 $\bar{2}$]	111[$\bar{1}$ 10]	001[100]	001[110]
F_c (nonlinear core)	0.46	0.47	0.33	—
F_δ (core-traction)	0.345	0.349	0.387	0.390

Table 3: Conversion-model parameters. Values marked “cal.” are calibrated against the measured $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ fraction $f_{111}(T, \text{dose})$.

symbol	meaning	first-cut value	source
T_c	α - γ softening temperature	1185 K	[22]
$c'(T)$	shear softening law	$56.8(1-T/T_c)^{1/2}$ GPa	[22]
δ	dislocation core cutoff	0.4 nm	[22]
f_{111}, f_{100}^0	per-length loop energies	0.3–0.5 eV/Å	Tab. 2
softening exp.	exponent in $\Delta f(T)$	1/4 (fixed)	[22], Eq. (30)
T^*	crossover temperature	cal. ($\in [350, 550]$ °C)	[22]
ν_0	attempt frequency	10^{13} s^{-1}	Debye
E_a^0	unary barrier offset	0.5–2.0 eV	[23]
γ_a	unary barrier size slope	cal.	[26]
$\varphi_{\max}$	peak junction yield ($n=n'$)	0.5–1.0	[23]
σ_s	log-size tolerance	0.3–0.5	[23]
$n_{j,\min}$	minimum junction size	$\mathcal{O}(10)$ SIAs	[23]
A_{100}, B_{100}	$\langle 100 \rangle$ binding-energy fit	0.716, 0.358	(DFT)
n_{conv}	$\langle 100 \rangle$ onset size	<i>derived</i> ($\Delta F > 0$)	Eq. (32)

Voids ($\ell = 0$) and bubbles ($\ell \geq 1$) share a unified (m, ℓ) grid. Spherical cavities are unbiased ($Z_i^{\text{cav}} = Z_v^{\text{cav}} = 1$). The v-v coalescence terms are active only for $m \leq v_{\text{mobile}}$; SIA-induced shrinkage spans all mobile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ SIA sizes through $\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{(\text{cav})}$. The vacancy monomer additionally feeds the sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ shrinkage ladder of Eq. (27); that loss is the last term below.

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{dc_{m,\ell}}{dt} = & \underbrace{G_{m,\ell}}_{\text{production}} + \underbrace{\frac{1}{2} \sum_{m'=1}^{\min(m-1, v_{\text{mobile}})} \mathcal{K}_{m',m-m'}^{vv} c_{m',0} c_{m-m',\ell} \delta_{m \leq 2 v_{\text{mobile}}}}_{\text{V-V coalescence gain } (V_{m'}+V_{m-m'} \rightarrow V_m)} \\
& - \underbrace{c_{m,\ell} \sum_{m'=1}^{v_{\text{mobile}}} \mathcal{K}_{m,m'}^{vv} c_{m',0}}_{\text{V-V coalescence loss } (V_m+V_{m'} \rightarrow V_{m+m'})} + \underbrace{\varepsilon_v(m+1, \ell) c_{m+1,\ell} - \varepsilon_v(m, \ell) c_{m,\ell}}_{\text{thermal emission (vacancy from cavities, P5)}} \\
& + \underbrace{\sum_{n=1}^{\min(i_{\text{mobile}}, N_V - m)} \mathcal{K}_{n,m+n}^{(\text{cav})} c_n^{(111)} c_{m+n,\ell}}_{\text{SIA-induced shrinkage gain } (I_n+V_{m+n} \rightarrow V_m)} - \underbrace{\sum_{n=1}^{i_{\text{mobile}}} \mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{(\text{cav})} c_n^{(111)} c_{m,\ell}}_{\text{SIA-induced shrinkage loss } (I_n+V_m \rightarrow V_{m-n})} \\
& + \underbrace{A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_h^{\text{eff}} c_h c_{m,\ell-1} \delta_{\ell \geq 1} - A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_h^{\text{eff}} c_h c_{m,\ell} \delta_{\ell < \ell_{\text{max}}}}_{\text{He absorption by cavities (P2, He-side)}} \\
& + \underbrace{\varepsilon_h(m, \ell+1) c_{m,\ell+1} - \varepsilon_h(m, \ell) c_{m,\ell} \delta_{\ell \geq 1}}_{\text{He emission from cavities (P5, He-side)}} + \underbrace{\Gamma_{\text{TM}}(m-1, \ell) c_{m-1,\ell} - \Gamma_{\text{TM}}(m, \ell) c_{m,\ell}}_{\text{trap mutation (P7)}} \\
& + \underbrace{b_0 \dot{\phi}(\ell+1) c_{m,\ell+1} - b_0 \dot{\phi} \ell c_{m,\ell}}_{\text{radiation re-solution (P8)}} - \underbrace{\mathcal{D}_v c_{m,\ell} \delta_{m \leq v_{\text{mobile}}}}_{\text{fixed-sink loss (mobile cavities only, P4)}} \\
& - \underbrace{\delta_{m=1} \delta_{\ell=0} c_{1,0} \sum_{n \geq n_{\text{conv}}} \mathcal{K}_s^{100}(n) c_n^{(100)}}_{\text{vacancy monomer consumed by } \langle 100 \rangle \text{ shrinkage (P9)}}.
\end{aligned} \tag{41}$$

He-He coalescence is excluded, and helium interacts with the vacancy-cluster grid only through mono-He trapping and emission; the $\langle 100 \rangle$ popula-

tion carries no helium and does not appear here.

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{dc_h}{dt} = & \underbrace{G_{\text{He}}}_{\text{production}} - \underbrace{\sum_{m=1}^{N_V} A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_h^{\text{eff}} c_h \sum_{\ell=0}^{\ell_{\text{max}}(m)-1} c_{m,\ell}}_{\text{He absorption by cavities (P2)}} \\
& - \underbrace{\mathcal{D}_h c_h}_{\text{fixed-sink loss (P4)}} + \underbrace{\sum_{m=1}^{N_V} \sum_{\ell=1}^{\ell_{\text{max}}(m)} \varepsilon_h(m, \ell) c_{m,\ell}}_{\text{He emission (P5)}} + \underbrace{\sum_{m=1}^{N_V} \sum_{\ell=1}^{\ell_{\text{max}}(m)} b_0 \dot{\phi} \ell c_{m,\ell}}_{\text{radiation re-solution (P8)}}.
\end{aligned} \tag{42}$$

The master equations (24)–(42) satisfy two exact conservation identities. Their derivation rests on three facts built into the RADCLUSTER code:

- (i) cascade production deposits SIA and vacancy atoms in a balanced Frenkel-pair ratio (and feeds only the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ character), $\sum_{n=1}^{N_I} n P_n^{(i)} = \sum_{m=1}^{N_V} m P_m^{(v)} = \eta G$;
- (ii) every mutual reaction destroys $\min(n, m)$ SIA atoms *and* $\min(n, m)$ vacancy atoms with the residual fragment surviving in its population; this holds for the mobile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ –vacancy annihilations *and* for the sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ vacancy-capture shrinkage (each event removes one SIA from $c^{(100)}$ and one vacancy from $c_{1,0}$), so the two destruction sums cancel identically in $d(S_I - S)/dt$; the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \leftrightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ conversion edges only relabel SIA content and drop out;
- (iii) only mobile clusters with $n \leq i_{\text{mobile}}$ (glissile SIAs) or $m \leq v_{\text{mobile}}$ (vacancies) reach fixed sinks. The sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops are sinks, not sink-bound species, and carry no $\mathcal{D}_i$ term; the rate-equation losses are summed over the full mobile range, not the monomer alone.

Table 4 lists every edge class, its reaction, its flux, and its non-zero stoichiometric contributions to the four EUROFER-97 population equations $\dot{c}_n^{(111)}$, $\dot{c}_n^{(100)}$, $\dot{c}_{m,\ell}$, and $\dot{c}_h$. Where a process connects adjacent nodes on a ladder (e.g. cavity or sessile-loop growth/shrinkage), the gain term at a and the loss term at a appear on separate rows; the net effect is the tridiagonal ladder operator visible in the equations. Whereas Table 4 lists the abstract edge classes and their signed contributions, the graph walker requires the *concrete*

Table 4: Graph-walker contribution table for EUROFER-97 (mono-defect, $i_{\text{mobile}} = v_{\text{mobile}} = 1$). Each row shows one edge class, its reaction, the corresponding flux J_r , and the sign of the contribution $S_{ar}J_r$ to each population. The symbol $\Delta_m^\pm$ denotes a ladder step: $\Delta_m^+ f_m \equiv f_{m-1} - f_m$ (gain from smaller cavity minus loss at m) and $\Delta_m^- f_m \equiv f_{m+1} - f_m$ (gain from larger cavity minus loss at m). Sums over repeated size indices are implied

P	Reaction	Flux J_r	$\Delta \dot{c}_n$	$\Delta \dot{c}_{m,\ell}$	$\Delta \dot{c}_h$
P1	$I_1 + V_1 \rightarrow 0$	$\mathcal{K}_{iv} c_1 c_{1,0}$	$-J$ at $n=1$	$-J$ at $(1,0)$	0
P2v (growth)	$V_1 + V_m \rightarrow V_{m+1}$	$\mathcal{K}_{v,m}^{\text{cav}} c_{1,0} c_{m,\ell}$	0	$\Delta_m^+ J$ ladder	0
P2i (shrinkage)	$I_n + V_m \rightarrow V_{m-n}$	$\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{(\text{cav})} c_n c_{m,\ell}$	$-\sum_m J$ at n	SIA-shrinkage ladder	0
P2h (He trapping)	$\text{He} + V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m,\ell+1}$	$\mathcal{K}_{h,m}^{\text{cav}} c_h c_{m,\ell}$	0	He-occ. ladder in ℓ	$-\sum_{m,\ell < \ell_{\text{max}}} J$
P3 (loop growth)	$I_1 + I_n \rightarrow I_{n+1}$	$\mathcal{K}_{i,n}^{\text{loop}} c_1 c_n$	i-i ladder in n	0	0
P3 (loop shrink)	$V_1 + I_n \rightarrow I_{n-1}$	$\mathcal{K}_{v,n}^{\text{loop}} c_{1,0} c_n$	v-i ladder in n	0	0
P4 (sink loss)	$X_\alpha \rightarrow \emptyset$	$\mathcal{D}_\alpha c_\alpha$	$-\mathcal{D}_i(n) c_n$	$-\mathcal{D}_v c_{m,\ell} \delta_{m \leq v_{\text{mob}}}$	$-\mathcal{D}_h c_h$
P5v (emission)	$V_m \rightarrow V_{m-1} + V_1$	$\varepsilon_v(m, \ell) c_{m,\ell}$	0	ε_v ladder in m	0
P5i (emission)	$I_n \rightarrow I_{n-1} + I_1$	$\varepsilon_i(n) c_n$	ε_i ladder in n	0	0
P5h (emission)	$V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m,\ell-1} + \text{He}$	$\varepsilon_h(m, \ell) c_{m,\ell}$	0	He-occ. ladder in ℓ	$+\sum_{m,\ell \geq 1} \varepsilon_h c_{m,\ell}$
P6 (1D glide)	$I_n^{1D} + V_m \rightarrow V_{m-n}$	$\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{\text{eff}} c_n c_{m,\ell}$	$-\sum_m J$ at $n \geq 4$	1D-shrinkage ladder	0
P7 (trap mutation)	$\text{He}_\ell V_m \rightarrow \text{He}_\ell V_{m+1} + I_1$	$\Gamma_{\text{TM}}(m, \ell) c_{m,\ell}$	$+\sum_{m,\ell} \Gamma_{\text{TM}} c_{m,\ell}$ at $n=1$	TM ladder in m	0
P8 (re-solution)	$\text{He}_\ell V_m \rightarrow \text{He}_{\ell-1} V_m + \text{He}$	$b_0 \dot{\phi} \ell c_{m,\ell}$	0	re-sol. ladder in ℓ	$+\sum_{m,\ell \geq 1} b_0 \dot{\phi} \ell c_{m,\ell}$
P10 (network capture, $\frac{1}{2}(111)$)	$I_n \rightarrow \text{dislocation network}$	$\Lambda_n^{\text{net}} P_{d(n)} c_n^{(111)}$	$-\Lambda_n^{\text{net}} P_{d(n)} c_n^{(111)}$ (P10 loss)	0	0
P11 (network capture, (100))	$[100]_n \rightarrow \text{dislocation network}$	$\Lambda_n^{100,\text{net}} P_{d(n)}^{100} c_n^{(100)}$	$-\Lambda_n^{100,\text{net}} P_{d(n)}^{100} c_n^{(100)}$ (P11 loss)	0	0
G_a	cascade sources	$G_n, G_{m,\ell}, G_{\text{He}}$	$+G_n$	$+G_{m,\ell}$	$+G_{\text{He}}$

vertices (population nodes) and directed edges that instantiate each master equation. Table 5 enumerates, for each of the four EUROFER-97 master equations, its graph vertices and the incident reaction edges, each tagged with the originating process P_n of Table 1.

The total fixed-sink rate for species $\alpha \in \{i, v, h\}$ collects all three sink channels, $\mathcal{D}_\alpha(n) = \mathcal{D}_\alpha^d(n) + \mathcal{D}_\alpha^{gb}(n) + \mathcal{D}_\alpha^p(n)$, and vanishes outside the mobile range. Define the cumulative atomic content delivered to fixed sinks (only the glissile SIAs are mobile):

$$\Delta J_i^{\text{fix}}(t) \equiv \int_0^t \sum_{n=1}^{i_{\text{mobile}}} n \mathcal{D}_i(n) c_n^{(111)}(t') dt' \geq 0, \quad (43)$$

$$\Delta J_v^{\text{fix}}(t) \equiv \int_0^t \sum_{m=1}^{v_{\text{mobile}}} m \mathcal{D}_v \bar{c}_m(t') dt' \geq 0, \quad (44)$$

$$\Delta J_h^{\text{fix}}(t) \equiv \int_0^t \left[\mathcal{D}_h c_h + \mathcal{D}_v \sum_{m=1}^{v_{\text{mobile}}} \sum_{\ell} \ell c_{m,\ell} \right] dt' \geq 0. \quad (45)$$

These three integrals are appended to the state vector and evolved as aux-

Table 5: Graph vertices and directed edges instantiating each EUROFER-97 master equation, consistent with the abstract processes/edges of Table 1 (A.14) and the contribution table 4. Vertices are population nodes; an edge $u \rightarrow w$ is a directed reaction from source node u to target node w , driven by the mobile reactant shown. Mobile monomers are I_1 ($\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ SIA), V_1 (vacancy), and He; $\emptyset$ denotes the vacuum/sink node and G the external cascade source. Process tags Pn refer to Table 1.

Master equation (population)	Graph vertices (nodes)	Incident directed edges (reaction)	Process
$\dot{c}_n^{(111)}$ ($\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ glissile loops, size n)	$\{I_n^{(111)}\}_{n \geq 1}$; mobile I_1 , V_1 ; source G	$I_n^{(111)} + I_1 \rightarrow I_{n+1}^{(111)}$ (growth); $I_n^{(111)} + V_1 \rightarrow I_{n-1}^{(111)}$ (shrink); $I_n^{(111)} + V_m \rightarrow V_{m-n}$ (cavity capture); $I_n^{(111)} \rightarrow I_{n-1}^{(111)} + I_1$ (emission); $I_n^{(111)} \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ (reorient/junction); $I_n^{(111)} \rightarrow \emptyset$ (sink); $G \rightarrow I_n^{(111)}$	P3, P5i, P2i, P9, P4
$\dot{c}_n^{(100)}$ ($\langle 100 \rangle$ sessile loops, size n)	$\{I_n^{(100)}\}_{n \geq 1}$; mobile I_1 , V_1	$\frac{1}{2}[111] + \frac{1}{2}[\bar{1}\bar{1}1] \rightarrow [100]$ (junction nucleation); $[100]_m + \frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow [100]_{m+n}$ (absorption growth); $I_n^{(100)} + V_1 \rightarrow I_{n-1}^{(100)}$ (shrink)	P9, P3, P5i
$\dot{c}_{m,\ell}$ (cavities, vacancy size m , He content ℓ)	$\{V_{m,\ell}\}_{m \geq 1, 0 \leq \ell \leq \ell_{\max}}$; mobile V_1 , I_1 , He	$V_1 + V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m+1,\ell}$ (growth); $I_n + V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m-n,\ell}$ (shrink); $\text{He} + V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m,\ell+1}$ (He trapping); $V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m-1,\ell} + V_1$ (V emission); $V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m,\ell-1} + \text{He}$ (He emission/re-solution); $\text{He}_\ell V_m \rightarrow \text{He}_\ell V_{m+1} + I_1$ (trap mutation); $I_n^{1D} + V_m \rightarrow V_{m-n}$ (1D capture); $G \rightarrow V_{m,\ell}$	P2v, P2i, P2h, P5v, P5h/P8, P7, P6
$\dot{c}_h$ (mobile He monomer)	$\{\text{He}\}$; couples to cavity nodes $V_{m,\ell}$	$\text{He} + V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m,\ell+1}$ (capture, loss of He); $V_{m,\ell} \rightarrow V_{m,\ell-1} + \text{He}$ (emission, gain of He); $\text{He}_\ell V_m \rightarrow \text{He}_{\ell-1} V_m + \text{He}$ (re-solution); $G \rightarrow \text{He}$ (source)	P2h, P5h, P8

iliary ODEs so that they share the integrator's local error control with the physical concentrations.

With total inventories summed over *both* SIA characters,

$$S_I(t) \equiv \sum_{n=1}^{N_I} n [c_n^{(111)}(t) + c_n^{(100)}(t)], \quad S(t) \equiv \sum_{m=1}^{N_V} m \bar{c}_m(t), \quad (46)$$

facts (i)–(iii) combine into the exact Frenkel-pair conservation law

$$S(t) - S_I(t) - \Delta J_i^{\text{fix}}(t) + \Delta J_v^{\text{fix}}(t) = S(0) - S_I(0) = \text{const.} \quad (47)$$

For a defect-free initial condition, this is the *swelling identity*

$$S(t) = S_I(t) + \Delta J_i^{\text{fix}}(t) - \Delta J_v^{\text{fix}}(t), \quad (48)$$

i.e. the total vacancy content of all cavities equals the SIA inventory in loops (both characters) plus the *net* atomic flux delivered to fixed sinks. Differentiating gives the rate form

$$\frac{dS}{dt} = \frac{dS_I}{dt} + \sum_{n=1}^{i_{\text{mobile}}} n \mathcal{D}_i(n) c_n^{(111)} - \sum_{m=1}^{v_{\text{mobile}}} m \mathcal{D}_v \bar{c}_m. \quad (49)$$

Once loops saturate ($dS_I/dt \approx 0$), swelling grows at the rate at which the biased dislocation channel ($Z_i^d \neq Z_v^d$) drains the surplus SIA inventory faster than the vacancy inventory; the unbiased grain-boundary and precipitate channels contribute equally to both sums and cancel in $dS/dt - dS_I/dt$ only insofar as the mobile SIA and vacancy populations are equal.

The total helium inventory is the sum of free and trapped helium,

$$S_{\text{He}}(t) \equiv c_h(t) + \sum_{m=1}^{N_V} \sum_{\ell=1}^{\ell_{\text{max}}(m)} \ell c_{m,\ell}(t). \quad (50)$$

Trap mutation (P7), radiation re-resolution (P8), and thermal He emission (P5h) only redistribute helium between c_h and the trapped pool, so their contributions to dS_{He}/dt cancel pairwise. The only net helium sinks are free helium captured at fixed sinks ($\mathcal{D}_h c_h$) and helium carried to fixed sinks by mobile cavities ($m \leq v_{\text{mobile}}$); immobile bubbles retain their helium. Hence

$$\frac{dS_{\text{He}}}{dt} = G_{\text{He}} - \mathcal{D}_h c_h - \mathcal{D}_v \sum_{m=1}^{v_{\text{mobile}}} \sum_{\ell} \ell c_{m,\ell}, \quad (51)$$

i.e. $dS_{\text{He}}/dt = G_{\text{He}} - d\Delta J_h^{\text{fix}}/dt$. In particular, S_{He} is *not* conserved against $\int G_{\text{He}} dt'$ alone — the fixed-sink loss must be tracked explicitly. Both loss terms are typically small (mobile clusters carry little He) but they are non-zero and must appear in the diagnostic below for it to converge to zero.

The swelling identity (48) and the helium balance (51) provide two inexpensive a-posteriori checks, neither of which requires post-processing because the auxiliary integrals (43)–(45) are already state variables:

$$\delta_{\text{FP}}(t) = \frac{|S(t) - S_I(t) - \Delta J_i^{\text{fix}}(t) + \Delta J_v^{\text{fix}}(t)|}{S(t) + S_I(t) + \Delta J_i^{\text{fix}}(t) + \Delta J_v^{\text{fix}}(t)}, \quad (52)$$

$$\delta_{\text{He}}(t) = \frac{|S_{\text{He}}(t) + \Delta J_h^{\text{fix}}(t) - \int_0^t G_{\text{He}} dt' - S_{\text{He}}(0)|}{S_{\text{He}}(t) + \Delta J_h^{\text{fix}}(t) + \int_0^t G_{\text{He}} dt'}. \quad (53)$$

Both should remain below $\sim 10^{-6}$ in a correctly implemented code; values above 10^{-3} almost always signal a coding error, missing or incorrect reactions, or an overly loose integrator tolerance. We have verified that the two-population split preserves these bounds: with the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ conversion active, δ_{FP} remains at the 10^{-7} level in the bin-moment representation (and at the round-off level $\sim 10^{-14}$ in the fully discrete representation), confirming that the conversion edges and the sessile $\langle 100 \rangle$ ladders are SIA-content conserving by construction. Despite the importance of these conservation identities, they have seldom been discussed or tested in the cluster dynamics literature.

2.4. Uncertainty Quantification

The parameters that enter the RADCLUSTER rate equations —migration and binding energies, capture efficiencies, loop and cavity bias factors, helium–vacancy association parameters, sink strengths, and coalescence coefficients—are known only to within physically motivated bounds, while the experimental targets (loop and cavity number densities, mean sizes, and full size distributions at selected doses and temperatures) carry their own measurement uncertainty. Quantifying how these two sources of uncertainty propagate to the predicted microstructure is therefore not an optional post-processing step but an intrinsic part of using the model predictability.

A range of established methodologies addresses this problem. The canonical framework for confronting an expensive mechanistic simulator with noisy

data is the Bayesian calibration of computer models, in which a prior over the uncertain parameters is updated into a posterior through a likelihood that accounts for both measurement noise and model discrepancy [28, 29]. Because each RADCLUSTER evaluation is costly, the posterior is rarely explored on the simulator directly; instead, a statistical surrogate—most commonly a Gaussian-process emulator—is trained on a designed set of runs and substituted for the forward model [30, 31]. The informativeness of the data is assessed through variance-based global sensitivity analysis, whose Sobol indices reveal which parameters and parameter combinations actually control the observables [32, 33]; this is also the natural language for diagnosing the parameter “sloppiness” and partial non-identifiability that are endemic to multi-parameter mechanistic models [34]. When data are available sequentially along a dose or temperature trajectory, ensemble Kalman inversion offers a derivative-free, gradient-free route to approximate posteriors that scales gracefully to the ten-to-twelve parameters of interest here [35]. Finally, because densities span several orders of magnitude and because full size distributions are available, distributional discrepancy is most faithfully measured by an optimal-transport (Wasserstein) distance rather than by moments alone [36].

Workflow. Rather than applying these techniques as an undifferentiated toolbox, we adopt a single reasoned pipeline whose guiding principle is that *physical inference must never be contaminated by numerical approximation*. We therefore fix verified integrator tolerances throughout the calibration and treat uncertainty quantification as a four-stage sequence, each stage feeding into the next. (i) *Design and screening*: a small set of uncertain parameters $\boldsymbol{\theta} \in \mathbb{R}^p$ ($p \approx 10$ – 12), each given a physically bounded prior $p_i(\theta_i)$, is sampled by a space-filling Sobol design and screened with global sensitivity analysis so that sloppy or regime-inactive parameters are demoted before they can absorb spurious degrees of freedom. (ii) *Emulation*: the retained parameters are mapped to the observables $\mathbf{y}_{\text{sim}} = \mathcal{M}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, T, d)$ by a *multi-fidelity* Gaussian-process surrogate $\widehat{\mathcal{M}}$ that reports its own predictive variance. Because a single fidelity forces an unfavorable trade-off between the number of training runs needed to map the $p \approx 10$ – 12 -dimensional parameter response and the cost of integrating each run to fusion-relevant dose, we train the emulator on two fidelities. A large, space-filling ensemble of *low-fidelity* runs—coarse bin-moment resolution and integration truncated at $d_{\text{LF}} \approx 0.1$ dpa—cheaply charts the shape of the response surface and the early-time, identifiable ob-

servables (incipient loop number density, He-stabilized bubble population). A sparse set of *high-fidelity* runs—full bin resolution integrated to $d \sim 100$ dpa, capturing the cavity bifurcation and the onset of supercritical void swelling—anchors the absolute level. The two levels are fused in an auto-regressive multi-fidelity GP [37, 38], $\widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{HF}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \rho \widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{LF}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) + \delta(\boldsymbol{\theta})$, so that the inexpensive runs ensure parameter-space coverage while the few expensive runs correct the dose-extrapolation bias rather than a polynomial doing so blindly. All runs, at both fidelities, use verified integrator tolerances, preserving the principle that physical inference is never contaminated by numerical approximation. (iii) *Calibration*: the posterior

$$p(\boldsymbol{\theta} \mid \mathbf{y}_{\text{exp}}) \propto p(\mathbf{y}_{\text{exp}} \mid \boldsymbol{\theta}) p(\boldsymbol{\theta}) \quad (54)$$

is obtained on the surrogate, with a log-space likelihood for the densities and a Wasserstein term for the size distributions.

$$-\log p(\mathbf{y}_{\text{exp}} \mid \boldsymbol{\theta}) = \sum_j w_j [\log y_{j,\text{sim}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) - \log y_{j,\text{exp}}]^2 + w_{\text{dist}} W_1(p_{\text{sim}}(R), p_{\text{exp}}(R)). \quad (55)$$

(iv) *Active refinement*: new RADCLUSTER runs are requested only where they most reduce posterior uncertainty per unit of predicted CPU cost, closing the loop back to stage (ii). The end product is not a single “best fit” but the calibrated posterior $p(\boldsymbol{\theta} \mid \mathbf{y}_{\text{exp}})$ together with its propagated predictive uncertainty on loop and cavity densities, sizes, and distributions.

The workflow is summarized in Fig. 2.

From calibrated model to digital twin. Once the posterior in Eq. (54) is available, RADCLUSTER ceases to be a one-shot forward model and becomes a *digital twin* of the evolving irradiated microstructure: a living, uncertainty-aware representation whose state $\mathbf{x}(d, T)$ —the SIA, vacancy, and helium–vacancy cluster populations and their derived loop and cavity descriptors—is kept consistent with the experimental record as it accumulates. The key point is that the twin is defined not by a single tuned parameter set but by the calibrated distribution $p(\boldsymbol{\theta} \mid \mathbf{y}_{\text{exp}})$ and the predictive uncertainty it induces. When measurements arrive at successive doses, $\mathbf{z}_k = H(\mathbf{x}_k) + \boldsymbol{\epsilon}_k$, the same Bayesian machinery is run sequentially—naturally as an ensemble Kalman or smoother update [35]—so that the twin assimilates the full 0.1–100 dpa trajectory rather than isolated endpoints. In this view, uncertainty quantification is not an appendage to the digital twin but its defining

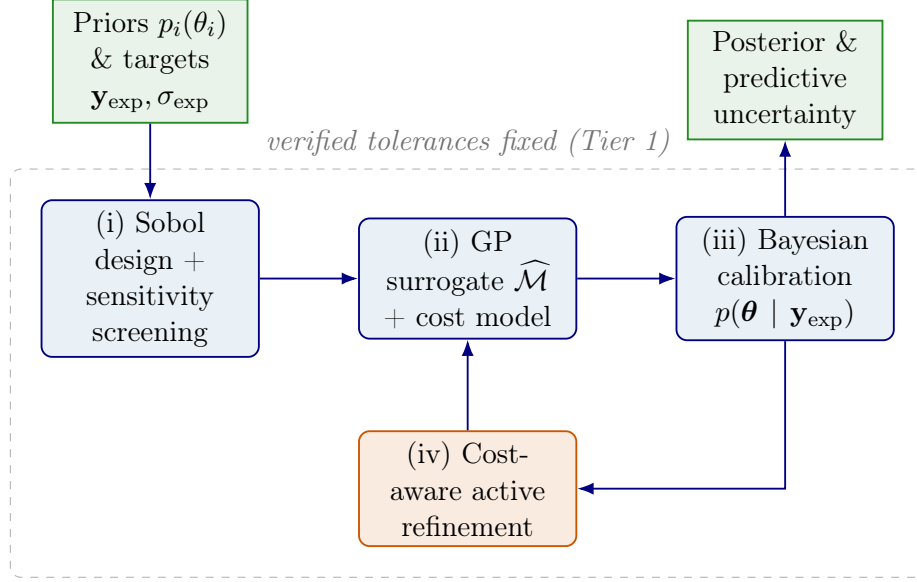


Figure 2: Uncertainty-quantification workflow for RADCLUSTER. Physical inference (stages i–iv) is carried out at verified integrator tolerances so that numerical error cannot masquerade as physics; the cost-aware active loop returns new simulations to the emulator where they are most informative per unit of CPU time.

mechanism: it is what lets the twin state which predictions are trustworthy, where the data are silent, and which additional irradiation experiments would most sharpen the picture. A description of the computational algorithm is given in Appendix F.

3. Comparison Between Modeling and Experiment

In situ TEM observations provide a complementary view of the defect evolution that the present model aims to capture. Zheng et al. [39] irradiated HT9 to 20 dpa with 1 MeV Kr ions at 420, 440, and 470°C and tracked loop formation dynamically. Both $a/2\langle 111 \rangle$ and $a\langle 100 \rangle$ loops were resolved, and at all three temperatures, the loop number density first rose with dose (up to ~ 4 dpa) and then fell at higher doses. The dislocation line density followed the opposite trend: pre-existing lines were initially lost by climb to the foil surfaces, while beyond ~ 4 dpa a new dislocation network built up as loops were absorbed into it, with the $a/2\langle 111 \rangle$ population most affected by this decline. Notably, the resulting $a\langle 100 \rangle$ to $a/2\langle 111 \rangle$ loop ratio was consistent with bulk 5 MeV Fe^{2+} irradiation of the same alloy to comparable doses and temperatures, supporting the use of these data as a benchmark for the simulated loop populations.

The quantity of interest is the content-weighted $\langle 100 \rangle$ fraction

$$f_{\langle 100 \rangle}(t) = \frac{\sum_n n c_n^{\langle 100 \rangle}}{\sum_n n c_n^{\langle 100 \rangle} + \sum_n n c_n^{\langle 111 \rangle}}, \quad (56)$$

reported by post-processing as `1 - f_111_loop`. The model (see `loop_111_to_100_conversion.t`) provides three additive conversion routes grouped into two mechanisms.

Mechanism A — Dudarev unary (thermodynamic).. A single loop reorients at

$$\Gamma_{\text{uni}}(n, T) = \nu_0 \exp\left[-\frac{E_a^{\text{uni}}(n)}{k_B T}\right] \max[0, 1 - e^{-\Delta F(n, T)/k_B T}], \quad E_a^{\text{uni}}(n) = E_a^0 + \gamma_a \frac{P(n)}{b_{111}}, \quad (57)$$

where $P(n) \propto \sqrt{n}$ is the loop perimeter and ΔF is the thermodynamic driving force, positive only above the crossover temperature T^* (`T_star_conv_C`).

Mechanism B — Marian junction + absorption (kinetic).. Two comparable $\langle 111 \rangle$ loops may condense into a $\langle 100 \rangle$ loop, and an existing $\langle 100 \rangle$ loop may absorb mobile $\langle 111 \rangle$ clusters. Both are gated by the two-step success probability through the metastable $\frac{1}{2}\langle 110 \rangle$ intermediate,

$$P_{\text{succ}}(T) = \frac{e^{-\Delta H_2/k_B T}}{e^{-\Delta H_2/k_B T} + e^{-\Delta H_{\text{rev}}/k_B T}} = \frac{1}{1 + \exp[(\Delta H_2 - \Delta H_{\text{rev}})/k_B T]}. \quad (58)$$

Critically, P_{succ} multiplies *both* the junction yield φ_{junc} and the absorption rate; it is the *only* explicit temperature dependence of Mechanism B.

Calibration campaign: what was varied and what happened

All runs use the C++ solver, fission spectrum, $G = 10^{-6}$ dpa/s, `full_CD_fission` on a reduced grid ($I = 200$, $i_{\text{mobile}} = 10$), loop conversion ON and the network-loss channel OFF, driven through `run_adaptive`. Driver: `codes/Python_Testing/sweep_`

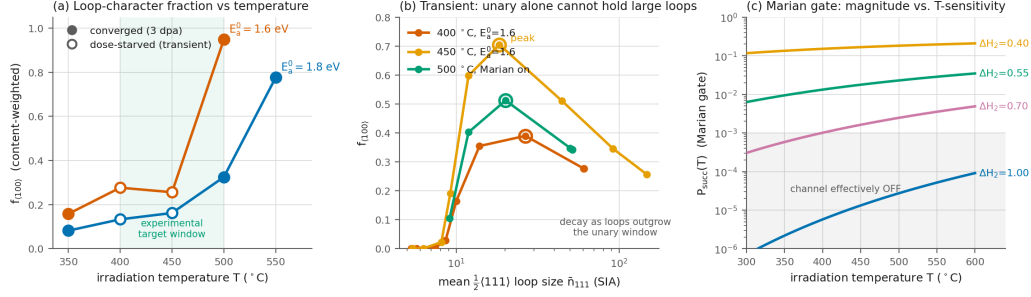


Figure 3: Summary of the measured campaign. (a) $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}(T)$ for the two unary calibrations; filled markers are converged (full 3 dpa), open markers are dose-starved transients (see §3.2). (b) The peak-then-decay signature, plotted against the growing mean $\langle 111 \rangle$ loop size: $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ rises while loops are small, then falls once they outgrow the unary window (open rings mark the peak). (c) The Marian gate $P_{\text{succ}}(T)$, Eq. (58): at the shipped $\Delta H_2 = 1.0$ eV the channel sits in the “effectively off” band, and raising its magnitude flattens its temperature slope.

The complete numerical output of this campaign is tabulated in Table 6, which lists every measured $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}(T)$ value together with the loop and cavity densities, mean sizes, and convergence status of each run. Table 7 then summarizes how the target $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}(500 \text{ °C})$ responds to each candidate calibration lever, isolating the effect of dose, gate temperature, and stiffness.

3.1. Failure mode I — the unary channel is small-loop biased

Because E_a^{uni} grows as $\sqrt{n}$ via Eq. (57), the unary rate collapses for large loops. The per-size conversion fraction measured in-run tracks the unary timescale exactly (Table 8), confirming the implementation is correct and the limitation is physical, not numerical.

The dynamical consequence is a **peak-then-decay** of $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$: early in the irradiation the loops are small and convert efficiently, but as they grow past the unary window the un-converted $\langle 111 \rangle$ content accumulates and $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ falls back. This is observed directly in the per-segment traces:

Table 6: **Master result table** — every $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}(T)$ measurement obtained. “conv.” marks runs that reached the full 3 dpa and whose trace had gone flat; the remainder stopped at the quoted dose on the solver time limit and are transient snapshots. All runs: $T^* = 250^\circ\text{C}$, $\gamma_a = 0.02$, $I = 200$, conversion ON, network OFF.

Calibration	T ($^\circ\text{C}$)	$f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$	dose (dpa)	$\bar{n}_{111}$	$\bar{n}_{100}$	status
baseline $T^* = 450$	450	0.0002	10.0	206.3	7.9	conv. (no conversion)
$E_a^0 = 1.8$	350	0.0820	3.00	38.0	11.4	conv.
$E_a^0 = 1.8$	400	0.1332	0.50	50.3	11.8	dose-starved
$E_a^0 = 1.8$	450	0.1620	0.05	60.0	11.2	dose-starved
$E_a^0 = 1.8$	500	0.3249	3.00	52.0	9.3	conv.
$E_a^0 = 1.8$	500	0.3249	30.0	52.0	9.3	conv. (dose test)
$E_a^0 = 1.8$	550	0.7762	3.00	23.9	8.5	conv.
$E_a^0 = 1.6$	350	0.1579	3.00	55.0	10.9	conv.
$E_a^0 = 1.6$	400	0.2767	0.01	60.8	9.1	dose-starved
$E_a^0 = 1.6$	450	0.2562	0.00	148.4	8.4	dose-starved (still falling)
$E_a^0 = 1.6$	500	0.9483	0.50	13.5	8.1	flat/converged
$E_a^0 = 1.4$	500	0.9973	0.01	10.0	7.9	dose-starved
$E_a^0 = 1.8, \Delta H_2 = 0.55$	500	0.3421	10.0	51.6	9.3	conv. (282 s)

The last row of Table 9 is the exception that proves the mechanism: at 500°C with $E_a^0 = 1.6\text{ eV}$ the unary is fast enough that loops convert *while still small* ($\bar{n}_{111}$ saturates at 13.5), so they never enter the declining regime and $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ is stable. The decay appears precisely when loop growth outruns conversion.

Attempting to defeat this by lowering E_a^0 or γ_a pushes the system into a numerically stiff, actively-converting state in which the integration dose-starves — the crossover region (400–450 $^\circ\text{C}$) is by far the most expensive part of the parameter space.

3.2. Failure mode II — the Marian gate cannot generate a crossover

Equation (58) contains an intrinsic trade-off: the same parameter combination $\Delta = \Delta H_2 - \Delta H_{\text{rev}}$ sets *both* the magnitude and the temperature sensitivity of P_{succ} . Raising the magnitude to a useful level necessarily flattens the temperature response (Table 10).

At the shipped value $\Delta H_2 = 1.0\text{ eV}$ the Marian channels are effectively *switched off* ($P_{\text{succ}} \sim 10^{-5}$), which is why the unary has been performing

Table 7: Response of $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}(500^\circ\text{C})$ to each candidate lever.

Lever	Result	Interpretation
Dose $3 \rightarrow 30$ dpa	$0.3249 \rightarrow 0.3249$	Bit-identical. $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ is <i>efficiency</i> -limited, not dose-limited.
$T^* : 250 \rightarrow 180^\circ\text{C}$	0.3249 (unchanged)	The $\Delta F > 0$ cutoff rises $255 \rightarrow 493$, but the loops live at $\bar{n} \approx 52$ and never reach it, so the thermodynamic cutoff is irrelevant at this temperature.
$\gamma_a : 0.02 \rightarrow 0.015$	stiffness wall	γ_a scales with $P(n)$ and so only alters large- n rates where no population exists; it drags the actively-converting (stiff) regime onto 500°C , and the run dose-starves at 0.27 dpa.
$E_a^0 : 1.8 \rightarrow 1.6$ eV	$0.325 \rightarrow 0.948$	The effective lever. Size-independent, so it acts at $n \approx 10$ –50 where the loops actually are. $\bar{n}_{111}$ collapses $52 \rightarrow 13.5$.
$\Delta H_2 : 1.0 \rightarrow 0.55$ eV	$0.325 \rightarrow 0.342$	Marian engaged but weak ($P_{\text{succ}} \approx 2 \times 10^{-2}$); +5% only. Converged and fast (282 s to 10 dpa).

all of the conversion. Conversely, at $\Delta H_2 \lesssim 0.40$ eV the channels become strong but nearly temperature-independent, so they raise $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ almost *uniformly* at all temperatures rather than producing a crossover. Mechanism B therefore cannot, by construction, be the origin of the observed temperature dependence.

Why both mechanisms are necessary

The experimental observation imposes *two logically independent* requirements, and each mechanism satisfies exactly one of them.

1. **A steep temperature grading.** $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ must rise from $\lesssim 0.1$ at 350°C to ≈ 1 at 500°C . Only an Arrhenius rate competing against loop growth can produce this. The unary channel supplies it through $\exp[-E_a^{\text{uni}}/k_B T]$ together with the ΔF gate; the measured response ($f_{\langle 100 \rangle} = 0.16$ at 350°C versus 0.95 at 500°C for $E_a^0 = 1.6$ eV) is precisely this competition. Mechanism B cannot supply it (Table 10).
2. **Dose stability of the converted fraction.** The observed $\langle 100 \rangle$

Table 8: In-run conversion fraction per size at 500 °C ($E_a^0 = 1.8$, $\gamma_a = 0.02$). The C++ unary drains precisely as its rate predicts.

n	τ_{uni}	$c^{\langle 100 \rangle} / (c^{\langle 100 \rangle} + c^{\langle 111 \rangle})$
4	0.4 s	0.95
15	2.4 s	0.73
30	12 s	0.36
67	166 s	0.05
149	8600 s	0.001

Table 9: Measured peak-then-decay. $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ overshoots while the loops are still small, then relaxes as $\bar{n}_{111}$ grows past the unary window. Plotted in Fig. 3(b).

T	calibration	peak $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$	at $\bar{n}_{111}$	final $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$	final $\bar{n}_{111}$
400 °C	$E_a^0 = 1.6$	0.390	26.6	0.277	60.8
450 °C	$E_a^0 = 1.6$	0.705	18.4	0.256	148.4 (still falling)
500 °C	$E_a^0 = 1.8$, $\Delta H_2 = 0.55$	0.512	20.1	0.342	51.6 (flat to 10 dpa)
500 °C	$E_a^0 = 1.6$	0.949	13.3	0.948	13.5 (no decay)

dominance is a *steady* feature of the irradiated microstructure, not a transient. Because the unary barrier grows as $\sqrt{n}$, Mechanism A alone *cannot* hold loops that have grown past its window, and $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ decays after an early peak (450 °C: $0.705 \rightarrow 0.256$). Sustaining $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ requires a channel whose rate does *not* carry the $\sqrt{n}$ penalty and which acts on the escaping population: the Marian junction (which requires $\min(n, n') \geq n_{j,\text{min}} = 30$, i.e. it targets exactly the large loops) and the absorption route (which continuously drains mobile $\langle 111 \rangle$ into $\langle 100 \rangle$). Mechanism A cannot supply this.

Stated compactly: **Mechanism A sets *where* (in temperature) the conversion turns on; Mechanism B sets *whether it survives* to technologically relevant dose.** A model containing only the unary channel reproduces the crossover but predicts a spurious decay of $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ with dose; a model containing only the Marian channels reproduces a dose-stable $\langle 100 \rangle$ population but with essentially no temperature dependence, contradicting the observed low-temperature $\langle 111 \rangle$ dominance. Only the combination is consistent with both the temperature trend and the dose behavior reported

Table 10: The magnitude–sensitivity trade-off of the Marian gate, Eq. (58), with $\Delta H_{\text{rev}} = 0.30 \text{ eV}$.

$\Delta H_2 \text{ (eV)}$	$P_{\text{succ}}(400^\circ\text{C})$	$P_{\text{succ}}(500^\circ\text{C})$	ratio 500/400
1.00 (shipped)	5.7×10^{-6}	2.7×10^{-5}	$4.76\times$
0.70	1.0×10^{-3}	2.5×10^{-3}	$2.44\times$
0.55	1.3×10^{-2}	2.3×10^{-2}	$1.73\times$
0.40	1.5×10^{-1}	1.8×10^{-1}	$1.20\times$
0.35	2.97×10^{-1}	3.21×10^{-1}	$1.08\times$

experimentally.

This also rationalizes the historical finding recorded in `loop_conversion_calibration.md` that the model “over-converted at all temperatures” before P_{succ} was introduced: without the gate, the kinetic channels were both strong *and* temperature-blind, so they masked the unary temperature trend entirely.

Recommended parameter set and status Table 11 lists the current recommended calibration, giving each parameter’s adopted value and its role, with the $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ entries content-weighted at the stated dose.

Table 11: Current calibration. $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ values are content-weighted at the stated dose.

Parameter	Value	Role
T_star_conv_C	250 °C	ΔF gate; must lie below the desired crossover
E_a0_conv	1.6 eV	sets the crossover temperature
gamma_a_conv	0.02	size penalty; leave at the physical value
dH2_conv	0.55 $\rightarrow$ 0.40 eV (under test)	engages Mechanism B for dose stability

Measured response at $E_a^0 = 1.6 \text{ eV}$: 350 °C: 0.158 (3.0 dpa, converged); 400 °C: 0.277; 450 °C: 0.256; 500 °C: 0.948 (flat, $\bar{n}_{111} = 13.5$).

Numerical caveat. The 400–450 °C points are *dose-starved*: they reached only 0.014 and 0.001 dpa, respectively, before the solver time limit, and their traces were still evolving. They are transient snapshots, *not* converged values, and the apparent non-monotonicity ($450 < 400$) is an artifact of this. The 350 °C and 500 °C anchors are converged and trustworthy. A full-dose crossover curve remains a cluster-scale computation.

Outstanding work.. (i) Complete the strong-Marian test ($\Delta H_2 = 0.40$, $\varphi_{\max} = 1$) at 450 and 500 °C to confirm that Mechanism B removes the peak-then-decay; (ii) with Mechanism B active, re-fit E_a^0 (it will need to *rise* again since Marian now contributes to conversion); (iii) run the converged $f_{\langle 100 \rangle}(T)$ curve at experimental dose offline.

Companion result: the loop $\rightarrow$ network channel (ρ_{net})

The same campaign commissioned the dislocation-evolution channel (`LOOP_NETWORK_LOSS`, see `loop_network_loss.tex`), which was previously dormant. Two prerequisites had to be met before ρ_{net} would move at all, and both are recorded here because they are easy to re-trip:

1. The driver must call `sim.run_adaptive()`, *not* `sim.run()` — the operator-split update of ρ_{net} executes only *between* integration segments, so a single-shot run leaves it exactly constant even with the flag enabled.
2. The geometric capture switch $P_{\ell d}$ only opens when $\chi d_{\text{loop}} \gtrsim L_{\ell d} = \rho_{\text{net}}^{-1/2}$. With few-nm loops against a ~ 100 nm network spacing, this requires $\chi \gtrsim 30$; at the physical $\chi \sim 1$, the gain is *identically zero*. Equivalently, reduced- I test grids (whose loops stay small) silently disable the channel.

Table 12 records the resulting network-density response at 450 °C and 10 dpa, showing how the dislocation-network density ρ_{net} evolves from its initial to its final value as the capture width w_c is varied.

Table 12: Network-density response at 450 °C, 10 dpa, $I = 1000$ (bin-moment, conversion off), $\chi = 50$, $K_{\text{rec}} = 0$, $\rho_{\text{max}} = 5 \times 10^{14} \text{ m}^{-2}$. $\dot{\rho} \propto w_c$ was verified linear.

capture width w_c	ρ_{net} initial	ρ_{net} final	note
b_{111} (physical)	5×10^{13}	—	$\sim 0.1\%$ /dpa; would saturate at ~ 160 dpa
$50 b_{111}$	5.00×10^{13}	1.85×10^{14}	$\times 3.7$
$150 b_{111}$	5.00×10^{13}	4.56×10^{14}	$\times 9.1$, reaches the plateau

The physical capture width gives a real but negligible drift because the net climb velocity is small ($v_{\text{net}} \approx 5.5 \times 10^{-13} \text{ m/s}$: the SIA and vacancy fluxes to the climbing network very nearly cancel). w_c is therefore used as the designated amplification knob, exactly as in `check_loop_network_loss.py`. At $w_c = 150 b_{111}$, the network density rises by an order of magnitude and saturates at the experimental EUROFER plateau — the intended “loop density

saturates with dose” behavior. The precise physical (w_c, K_{rec}) pair remains an offline calibration.

4. Conclusions

Supplementary Material

Appendix A. Production

Let G denote the *actual* (survival-corrected) defect production rate per unit volume, i.e.

$$G = \eta G_{\text{NRT}}, \quad (\text{A.1})$$

where $\eta = N_d/N_{\text{NRT}}$ is the survival efficiency, and G_{NRT} is the NRT displacement rate. The production rate of interstitial clusters of size m is $P_m^{(i)} = \epsilon_m^{(i)} G$, and the mono-interstitial production rate is

$$P_1^{(i)} = G \left(1 - \sum_{m=2}^{m_{\text{cascade}}} m \epsilon_m^{(i)} \right). \quad (\text{A.2})$$

Analogous expressions hold for vacancies with superscript (v) , cluster size index n , and upper cutoff v_{cascade} . The total fraction of surviving SIAs born in clusters is $f_i^{\text{cl}} = \sum_{m=2}^{m_{\text{cascade}}} m \epsilon_m^{(i)}$, with the corresponding vacancy quantity f_v^{cl} . Note that the mono-defect fraction is simply $1 - f^{\text{cl}}$. The fraction of NRT-predicted Frenkel pairs that survive in-cascade recombination is well characterized by MD simulations [40–42]. For α -Fe at reactor-relevant temperatures, the survival efficiency is approximately

$$\eta(E_{\text{PKA}}) \approx 0.84 \left(\frac{E_{\text{PKA}}}{1 \text{ keV}} \right)^{-0.20}, \quad E_{\text{PKA}} \gtrsim 1 \text{ keV}, \quad (\text{A.3})$$

saturating near $\eta \approx 0.30$ above ~ 10 keV. MD cascade simulations in α -Fe consistently show that the *number* of in-cascade clusters of size m follows an approximate power law [40, 43–45]: $N_{\text{cl}}(m) \propto m^{-s}$, with distinct exponents for SIA clusters (s_i) and vacancy clusters (s_v). The steeper vacancy exponent reflects the well-known inhibition of true vacancy clustering in bcc Fe, where vacancy “clusters” are often loose, correlated arrangements rather than compact loops [43, 46]. The production fraction is therefore modeled as $\epsilon_m^{(i)} = C_i m^{-s_i}$, $m = 2, \dots, i_{\text{cascade}}$, where the normalization constant C_i is fixed by the constraint

$$C_i = \frac{f_i^{\text{cl}}}{\sum_{m=2}^{m_{\text{cascade}}} m^{1-s_i}}. \quad (\text{A.4})$$

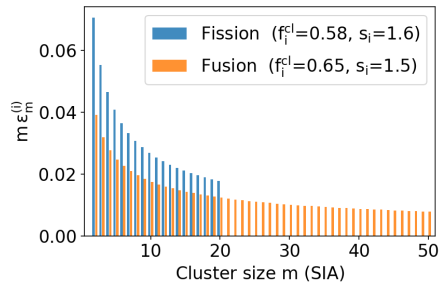
An identical prescription applies to vacancies with parameters $(C_v, s_v, v_{\text{cascade}}, f_v^{\text{cl}})$.

The parameters that distinguish fission and fusion spectra in terms of cascade damage are summarized in Table A.13. Fission-spectrum neutrons produce a PKA distribution weighted toward lower energies ($\langle E_{\text{PKA}} \rangle \approx 10\text{--}15\text{ keV}$), whereas 14 MeV fusion neutrons shift the average to $\sim 30\text{--}50\text{ keV}$, leading to subcascade fragmentation [44, 47]. Higher PKA energies produce larger in-cascade clusters, so the maximum cluster sizes i_{cascade} and v_{cascade} and the power-law exponents all shift [40, 45]. Helium generation is 0.5–1 appm He/dpa for fission spectra and ~ 10 appm He/dpa for fusion, affecting vacancy cluster (bubble) nucleation at longer times but not the primary cascade spectrum itself.

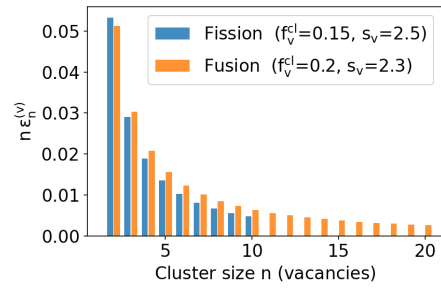
Table A.13: Cascade-damage parameters for α -Fe under fission and fusion neutron spectra, synthesized from [40], [41], [44], and [48].

Parameter	Fission	Fusion
$\langle E_{\text{PKA}} \rangle$ (keV)	~ 15	~ 40
η (spectrum-averaged)	0.30	0.28
f_i^{cl} (SIA clustering fraction)	0.58	0.65
f_v^{cl} (vacancy clustering fraction)	0.15	0.20
s_i (SIA power-law exponent)	1.6	1.5
s_v (vacancy power-law exponent)	2.5	2.3
i_{cascade} (max SIA cluster size)	20	50
v_{cascade} (max vacancy cluster size)	10	20
He production (appm He/dpa)	0.5–1	~ 10

Figure A.4a shows the size distribution of SIA clusters produced in cascades in typical fission and fusion neutron spectra, while Figure A.4b displays similar information for vacancy clusters.



(a)



(b)

Figure A.4: (A.4a): Interstitial cluster production spectrum under fission and fusion conditions, (A.4b): Vacancy cluster production spectrum under fission and fusion conditions

Appendix B. Energetics

Appendix B.1. Formation and Migration

In bcc α -iron (lattice constant $a = 2.87 \text{ \AA}$) defects migrate by thermally activated jumps between lattice sites. Within harmonic transition-state theory [49] the jump rate is $\nu = \nu_0 \exp(-E_m/k_B T)$, where E_m is the migration energy, ν_0 the attempt frequency, k_B Boltzmann’s constant, and T the temperature; the resulting diffusion coefficients are derived in Section Appendix C. Table E.25 summarizes the key energetic parameters for the three defect species.

The attempt frequency of a monovacancy spans a wide range in the literature. The Debye-based estimate $\nu_0^v \approx 6 \times 10^{12} \text{ s}^{-1}$ is used in rate-theory models [50, 51]. Full DFT calculations give $\sim 5 \times 10^{13} \text{ s}^{-1}$ [52], while values as large as $5 \times 10^{15} \text{ s}^{-1}$ are obtained from fitting self-diffusion data [53] because the experimental pre-exponential D_0 folds in the vacancy formation entropy $\Delta S_f^v \approx 4 k_B$ [54].

The ground-state SIA in ferromagnetic bcc Fe is the $\langle 110 \rangle$ dumbbell (unique among bcc metals owing to magnetism) [55]. Its translation-rotation migration has $E_m = 0.34 \text{ eV}$ and $\nu_0 \approx 4 \times 10^{12} \text{ s}^{-1}$ from DFT [52, 56]. The $\langle 111 \rangle$ crowdion has a negligible barrier ($\sim 0.013 \text{ eV}$) and migrates nearly athermally [55]. The $\langle 110 \rangle$ dumbbell creates a *high-frequency localized mode*: the two dumbbell atoms oscillate against each other along the $\langle 110 \rangle$ bond direction, giving a stretch frequency of $\approx 60\text{--}80 \text{ meV}$ (14–19 THz) [56, 57].

Interstitial He occupies the tetrahedral site in bcc Fe, which is more stable than the octahedral site by 0.2 eV (DFT) [58]. He migrates via tetrahedral-to-tetrahedral hops through the octahedral saddle with a very low barrier of $E_m^{He} = 0.06 \text{ eV}$ [58] (0.078–0.086 eV from MD and other DFT methods [59, 60]), making He diffusion essentially athermal above room temperature. Because $m_{He}/m_{Fe} \approx 0.07$, He rattles inside the tetrahedral cage at a frequency far above the host phonon band. This localized optical mode has been confirmed by DFT phonon calculations [58, 61]. The ordering of attempt frequencies mirrors the Debye frequency: $\nu_0^{He} \lesssim \nu_0^{SIA} \lesssim \nu_0^V \sim \nu_D$. All lie within roughly an order of magnitude of $6 \times 10^{12} \text{ s}^{-1}$, and the Debye frequency is an adequate approximation when full Vineyard calculations are unavailable. The strongly differing migration energies — He ($< 0.1 \text{ eV}$) $\ll$ SIA (0.34 eV) $\ll$ V (0.55–0.62 eV) — dominate the diffusivity hierarchy over many orders of magnitude.

Appendix B.2. Binding Energies

The equilibrium thermal vacancy concentration in the bulk is approximated by

$$C_v^0 = \exp\left(-\frac{E_v^f}{k_B T}\right), \quad (\text{B.1})$$

where E_v^f is the vacancy formation free energy, or, in the usual approximation, the vacancy formation energy. At the surface of a vacancy cluster containing α vacancies, the local equilibrium vacancy concentration is elevated above C_v^0 according to

$$C_v^e(\alpha) = C_v^0 \exp\left(\frac{\mu(\alpha)}{k_B T}\right) = \exp\left[-\frac{E_v^f - \mu(\alpha)}{k_B T}\right] \quad (\text{B.2})$$

where $\mu(\alpha)$ is the vacancy chemical potential of the cluster. For an interstitial cluster containing β interstitials, the equilibrium vacancy concentration at the surface is lowered below C_v^0 :

$$C_v^e(\beta) = C_v^0 \exp\left(-\frac{\mu(\beta)}{k_B T}\right) = \exp\left[-\frac{E_v^f + \mu(\beta)}{k_B T}\right]. \quad (\text{B.3})$$

We can have a unified expression for both types of clusters by defining the binding energy of a vacancy to a vacancy cluster as

$$E_b^{(v)}(\alpha) = E_v^f - \mu(\alpha) \quad (\text{B.4})$$

and the binding energy of a vacancy to an interstitial cluster of size β is

$$E_b^{(i)}(\beta) = E_v^f + \mu(\beta) \quad (\text{B.5})$$

Then, the equilibrium vacancy concentration at the surface of a vacancy or interstitial cluster can be written as

$$C_v^e = \exp\left[-\frac{E_b}{k_B T}\right] \quad (\text{B.6})$$

The binding energy can be found from atomistic calculations (e.g., DFT or MD), from experiments, or by using continuum theory for large clusters.

Appendix B.2.1. Bubbles

For a spherical cavity of radius

$$R(\alpha) = a \left(\frac{3\alpha}{8\pi} \right)^{1/3}, \quad (\text{B.7})$$

the defect chemical potential for vacancy exchange may be written as

$$\mu(\alpha) = \Omega \left(\frac{2\gamma}{R(\alpha)} - P_g - \sigma_h \right), \quad (\text{B.8})$$

where γ is the surface energy, Ω is the atomic volume, σ_h is the hydrostatic *tension* component of the stress, and P_g is the internal gas pressure. The gas pressure inside a helium bubble may be represented more accurately by a virial equation of state rather than by a hard-core Van der Waals approximation. Writing the helium number density in the bubble as

$$n_{\text{He}} = \frac{m}{V_b} = \frac{m}{\alpha\Omega}, \quad (\text{B.9})$$

where m is the number of helium atoms in the bubble, α is the number of vacancies, Ω is the atomic volume, and $V_b = \alpha\Omega$ is the bubble volume, the pressure may be written as

$$P_g = n_{\text{He}} k_B T \left[1 + B_2(T) n_{\text{He}} + B_3(T) n_{\text{He}}^2 + \dots \right]. \quad (\text{B.10})$$

Equivalently,

$$P_g = \frac{mk_B T}{\alpha\Omega} \left[1 + B_2(T) \frac{m}{\alpha\Omega} + B_3(T) \left(\frac{m}{\alpha\Omega} \right)^2 + \dots \right]. \quad (\text{B.11})$$

Here $B_2(T)$, $B_3(T)$, $\dots$ are the second, third, and higher virial coefficients of helium, which are functions of temperature. At temperatures in the range 600–1000 K, representative average virial coefficients for ^4He are

$$B_2 \approx 1.67 \times 10^{-29} \text{ m}^3/\text{atom}, \quad (\text{B.12})$$

$$B_3 \approx 1.84 \times 10^{-58} \text{ m}^6/\text{atom}^2, \quad (\text{B.13})$$

where these units are to be interpreted consistently with n_{He} in atoms m^{-3} . These values correspond to $\bar{B}_2 \approx 10.06 \text{ cm}^3 \text{ mol}^{-1}$ and $\bar{B}_3 \approx 66.72 \text{ cm}^6 \text{ mol}^{-2}$ for ^4He over 600–1000 K [62, 63].

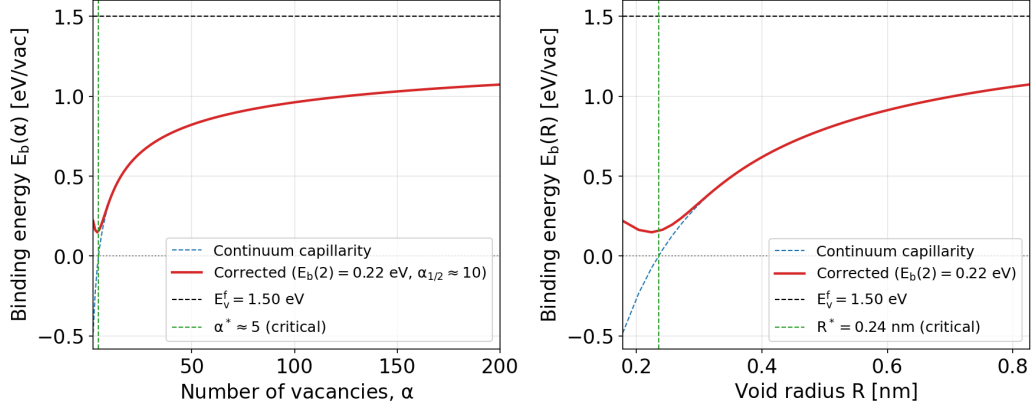


Figure B.5: Binding energy of a vacancy to a void as a function of the number of vacancies in the void, as a function of the number of vacancies (left), and the radius (right).

The binding energy of a vacancy to a void is expressed as

$$E_b^{\text{mod}}(\alpha) = E_b^{\text{cont}}(\alpha) + [E_b^{(v)}(2) - E_b^{\text{cont}}(2)] \exp(-\lambda(\alpha - 2)) \quad (\text{B.14})$$

With $E_b^{(v)}(2)$ the divacancy binding energy from DFT, and without external stress, the continuum capillary term is

$$E_b^{\text{cont}}(\alpha) = E_v^f - \Omega \frac{2\gamma}{R(\alpha)}, \quad R(\alpha) = a \left(\frac{3\alpha}{8\pi} \right)^{1/3} \quad (\text{B.15})$$

The decay constant is chosen so that the correction is 1% at $\alpha = 10$: $\lambda = \frac{\ln 100}{8} \approx 0.575 \text{ vac}^{-1}$. The binding energy of a vacancy to a void as a function of the void size is shown in Fig. B.5, using the capillary approximation for large sizes and transitioning to atomistic data for small sizes using Eq. B.14.

The defining feature of helium in irradiated metals is its extremely strong binding to vacancies. DFT calculations give a binding energy of $E_b^{h-V} \approx 2.0$ – 2.4 eV for the first He atom entering a monovacancy [64–66]. The binding remains strong as additional He atoms are added: up to 4–6 He atoms can be accommodated in a single vacancy with cumulative binding energies exceeding 4 eV [64]. These He_nV_m complexes are essentially immobile (substitutional He migration requires the vacancy mechanism with a barrier of ~ 1.1 eV) and serve as the nucleation sites for helium bubbles.

The consequence for transport is that the *free* interstitial helium concentration c_h available for long-range diffusion is not the total implanted He

content but rather the small fraction that has not yet been trapped by vacancies, vacancy clusters, or other deep traps. In a vacancy-rich irradiation environment, the free He concentration can be orders of magnitude below the total He inventory. A helium–vacancy cluster $\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha$ is characterized by two integers: α (the number of vacancies) and m (the number of trapped helium atoms). Cluster dynamics requires the binding energy of both a vacancy and a helium atom to such a cluster, since these two binding energies govern, respectively, the vacancy emission rate (cavity growth/shrinkage) and the helium emission rate (gas release). We treat each in turn.

Table B.14 collects representative DFT/MD binding energies for $\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha$ clusters in α -Fe. The values are recast from the dissociation energies tabulated by Fu and Willaime [67] and Caturla et al. [68], using the definitions:

$$E_B^V(\alpha, m) = E_f(\text{He}_m\text{V}_{\alpha-1}) + E_f(V) - E_f(\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha), \quad (\text{B.16})$$

$$E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m) = E_f(\text{He}_{m-1}\text{V}_\alpha) + E_f(\text{He}) - E_f(\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha). \quad (\text{B.17})$$

Table B.14: Binding energies for vacancy and helium addition to $\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha$ clusters in α -Fe. Data from [67] and [68].

α	m	$E_B^V(\alpha, m)$ (eV)	$E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m)$ (eV)
1	1	2.30	—
2	1	0.78	2.85
3	1	0.83	3.30
4	1	1.16	3.84
1	2	3.71	1.84
2	2	1.61	2.75
3	2	1.04	2.96
4	2	1.32	3.12
1	3	4.59	1.83
2	3	1.85	2.07
4	3	1.57	3.16
1	4	5.52	1.91
2	4	2.30	2.36
3	4	2.03	2.57
4	4	1.97	3.05

Two important trends are visible in Table B.14:

1. $E_B^V(\alpha, m)$ **increases** with m at fixed α : more helium inside a cavity raises its internal pressure, making it harder for the cavity to emit a vacancy. This is the mechanism by which helium stabilizes bubbles against thermal dissolution.
2. $E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m)$ **decreases** with m at fixed α : as the cavity fills with helium, the incremental binding of each additional He atom decreases because the available trapping volume shrinks and the He–He repulsion increases.

For the vacancy binding energy, we use the same atomistic–continuum transitional model developed for voids, extended to include the internal gas pressure:

$$E_B^v(\alpha, m) = \underbrace{E_f^v - \Omega \left[\frac{2\gamma}{R(\alpha)} - P_g(\alpha, m) \right]}_{E_B^{v, \text{cont}}(\alpha, m)} + A(m) e^{-\lambda(\alpha-1)}, \quad (\text{B.18})$$

with subsidiary expressions:

$$R(\alpha) = a \left(\frac{3\alpha}{8\pi} \right)^{1/3}, \quad (\text{B.19})$$

$$P_g(\alpha, m) = \frac{m}{\alpha \Omega} k_B T \left[1 + B_2 \frac{m}{\alpha \Omega} + B_3 \left(\frac{m}{\alpha \Omega} \right)^2 \right], \quad (\text{B.20})$$

$$\lambda = \frac{\ln 100}{8} \approx 0.5756 \text{ vac}^{-1}. \quad (\text{B.21})$$

The continuum term $E_B^{v, \text{cont}}$ captures the competition between surface tension ($2\gamma/R$, which favors vacancy emission) and gas pressure (P_g , which opposes it). The exponential correction $A(m) \exp[-\lambda(\alpha - 1)]$ bridges the atomistic small-cluster binding energies to the continuum limit, decaying to less than 1% by $\alpha = 10$.

The fitted amplitudes $A(m)$, obtained by least-squares regression of Eq. (B.18) against the atomistic data of [69] ($m = 0$) and [68] ($m \geq 1$), are:

The amplitude at each integer m_k is determined by:

$$A(m_k) = \frac{\sum_{i \in \mathcal{D}_k} \delta_i e^{-\lambda(\alpha_i-1)}}{\sum_{i \in \mathcal{D}_k} e^{-2\lambda(\alpha_i-1)}}, \quad \delta_i = E_B^{v, \text{atom}}(\alpha_i, m_k) - E_B^{v, \text{cont}}(\alpha_i, m_k), \quad (\text{B.22})$$

Table B.15: Least-squares fitting amplitudes for the vacancy binding energy to bubbles (Eq. B.18).

m	$A(m)$ [eV]
0	1.2353
1	2.9064
2	3.4147
3	2.1504
4	-0.1590

where $\mathcal{D}_k$ is the subset of atomistic data at fixed m_k . The Binding energy of a vacancy to a bubble as a function of the number of vacancies for several He-to-vacancy ratios is shown in Figure B.6.

Contour maps of vacancy binding energy are shown in Figure B.7. The dashed lines $E_B^v = E_f^v$ separate over-pressurized bubbles (above, which grow by absorbing thermal vacancies) from under-pressurized cavities (below, which tend to shrink)

The helium binding energy $E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m)$ —the energy required to remove one He atom from a $\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha$ cluster and place it at a tetrahedral interstitial site in the bulk—is needed for the helium thermal emission (detrapping) rate and for determining the maximum stable He loading $\ell_{\text{max}}(\alpha)$.

When a He atom is removed from a bubble of α vacancies containing m helium atoms, two energy contributions change: (i) the He–cavity binding interaction (governed by the attractive potential well of the vacant volume) is lost, and (ii) the internal gas pressure drops, slightly reducing the He–He repulsion among the remaining $m - 1$ atoms. For small clusters ($\alpha \leq 4$, $m \leq 4$), both contributions are highly configuration-dependent; for large bubbles, they are captured by continuum thermodynamics.

For a spherical bubble of radius $R(\alpha)$ containing m He atoms, the chemical potential of a helium atom inside the bubble is:

$$\mu_{\text{He}}^{\text{bubble}} = k_B T \ln\left(\frac{m}{\alpha\Omega} \Lambda_h^3\right) + k_B T \left[2B_2 \frac{m}{\alpha\Omega} + 3B_3 \left(\frac{m}{\alpha\Omega}\right)^2 \right], \quad (\text{B.23})$$

where $\Lambda_h = h/\sqrt{2\pi m_{\text{He}} k_B T}$ is the thermal de Broglie wavelength of ^4He . The helium binding energy in the continuum limit is the energy difference between this chemical potential and the energy of an interstitial He atom in

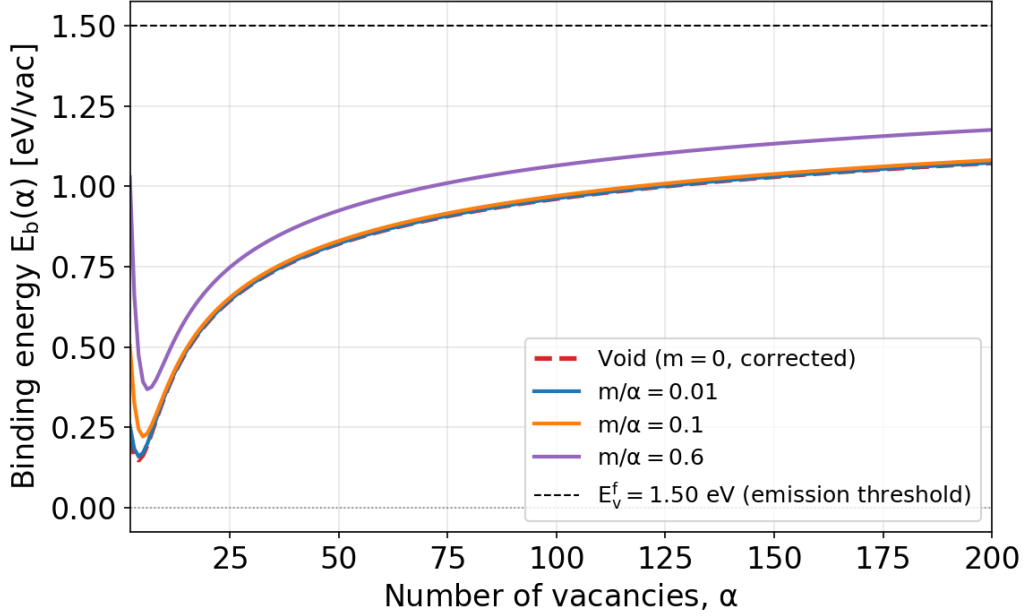


Figure B.6: Binding energy of a vacancy to a bubble as a function of the number of vacancies α , for several He-to-vacancy ratios m/α . The binding energy increases with helium content because the internal gas pressure opposes vacancy emission.

the bulk:

$$E_B^{\text{He,cont}}(\alpha, m) = E_s^{\text{He}} - k_B T \ln\left(\frac{m}{\alpha\Omega} \Lambda_h^3\right) - k_B T \left[2B_2 \frac{m}{\alpha\Omega} + 3B_3 \left(\frac{m}{\alpha\Omega}\right)^2 \right], \quad (\text{B.24})$$

where $E_s^{\text{He}} \approx 2.3\text{--}2.4$ eV is the solution energy of interstitial He in bulk bcc Fe (the energy cost of inserting a He atom at a tetrahedral site). The first correction term is the ideal-gas entropy contribution, and the second accounts for the non-ideal (hard-core repulsive) He–He interactions through the virial coefficients.

Equation (B.24) predicts two important limits:

- **Low He density** ($m/\alpha \ll 1/\Omega B_2$): the binding energy is large ($\sim E_s^{\text{He}}$), since the He atom gains the full solution-energy benefit of entering the open volume.
- **High He density** (m/α approaching the close-packing limit): the binding energy decreases toward zero and eventually becomes nega-

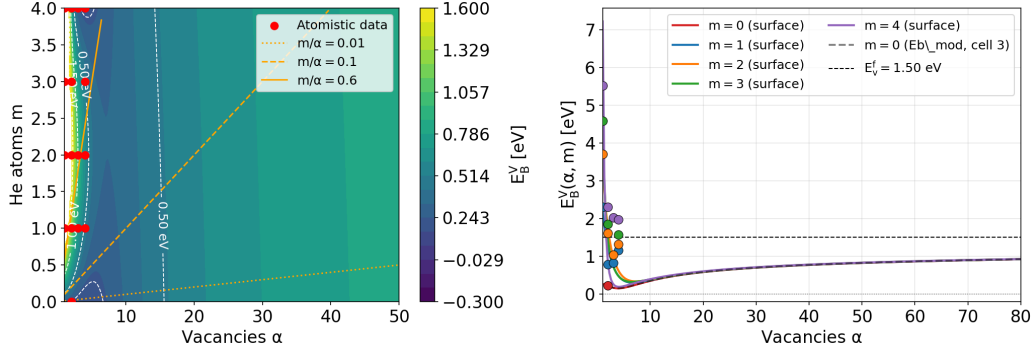


Figure B.7: Contour maps of vacancy binding energy $E_B^v(\alpha, m)$. Left: surface plot as a function of α and m . Right: cuts at fixed m showing the atomistic-continuum transition.

tive, meaning it is energetically favorable for the He atom to leave the overpressurized bubble. This defines the maximum stable He loading.

By direct analogy with the vacancy binding energy model (Eq. B.18), we write:

$$E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m) = E_B^{\text{He,cont}}(\alpha, m) + A^{\text{He}}(\alpha) e^{-\mu(m-1)}, \quad (\text{B.25})$$

where $A^{\text{He}}(\alpha)$ is a fitted amplitude at each vacancy count α , and μ is a decay constant governing how quickly the atomistic correction vanishes as m increases. The exponential correction ensures that the blended expression reproduces the DFT data at small m and converges to the continuum model for large m .

The decay constant is chosen by the same criterion as for the vacancy case (correction $< 1\%$ at $m = 8$):

$$\mu = \frac{\ln 100}{7} \approx 0.658 \text{ He}^{-1}. \quad (\text{B.26})$$

The amplitudes $A^{\text{He}}(\alpha)$ are obtained by least-squares regression against the atomistic data of Table B.14:

$$A^{\text{He}}(\alpha_k) = \frac{\sum_{j \in \mathcal{E}_k} \delta_j^{\text{He}} e^{-\mu(m_j-1)}}{\sum_{j \in \mathcal{E}_k} e^{-2\mu(m_j-1)}}, \quad \delta_j^{\text{He}} = E_B^{\text{He,atom}}(\alpha_k, m_j) - E_B^{\text{He,cont}}(\alpha_k, m_j), \quad (\text{B.27})$$

where $\mathcal{E}_k$ is the subset of the atomistic data at fixed α_k .

Table B.14 and Eq. (B.24) reveal the following trends:

Table B.16: Least-squares fitting amplitudes for the helium binding energy to bubbles (Eq. B.25), obtained from the data of [67] and [68].

α	$A^{\text{He}}(\alpha)$ [eV]
1	~ 0 (He_1V_1 is the anchor; E_B^{He} undefined)
2	0.55
3	0.40
4	0.75

1. At fixed α , E_B^{He} **decreases** as m increases (the cavity fills up and the marginal binding drops). For example, at $\alpha = 2$: $E_B^{\text{He}} = 2.85$ eV ($m = 1$), 2.75 eV ($m = 2$), 2.07 eV ($m = 3$), 2.36 eV ($m = 4$). The non-monotonic behavior at $m = 4$ reflects configuration-dependent effects in the small DFT clusters.
2. At fixed m , E_B^{He} **increases** as α increases (larger cavities have more open volume, so each He atom is more strongly bound). For example, at $m = 1$: $E_B^{\text{He}} = 2.85$ eV ($\alpha = 2$), 3.30 eV ($\alpha = 3$), 3.84 eV ($\alpha = 4$).
3. The He binding energy at $\alpha = 1$ (substitutional He) is ~ 1.8 – 1.9 eV for $m \geq 2$, significantly lower than at $\alpha \geq 2$. This reflects the small trapping volume of a single vacancy.

An over-pressurized $\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha$ cluster—one whose He content exceeds the equilibrium loading—can relieve its excess energy by two physically distinct mechanisms. These must be distinguished in the rate equations because they produce different products and obey different kinetics.

The results are shown in Fig. B.6 for the binding energy as a function of both m and α . Contours of constant binding energy in bubbles containing m helium atoms and α vacancies are shown in Fig. B.8. The line $E_v^f = E_b^{(v)}(m, \alpha)$ defines the combination of m and α for bubbles in mechanical equilibrium. Those above the line (over-pressurized) tend to grow by absorbing thermal vacancies, while those below the line tend to shrink.

Appendix B.2.2. Dislocation Loops

For dislocation loops, the vacancy exchange chemical potential should be obtained from the loop free energy.

$$\mu = \frac{\partial G_{\text{loop}}}{\partial n}, \quad (\text{B.28})$$

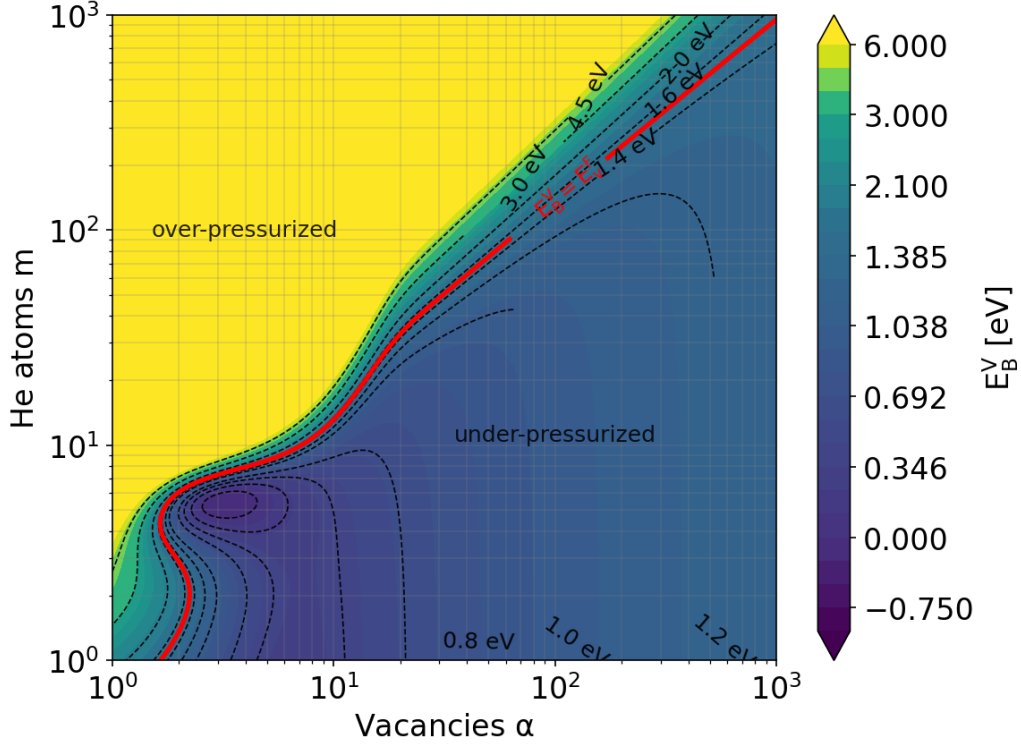


Figure B.8: Vacancy binding energy contours to bubbles containing m helium atoms and α vacancies

where n is the number of point defects contained in the loop. For a faulted circular loop, G_{loop} generally contains both line-energy and fault-energy contributions. For a circular prismatic loop containing n point defects,

$$n\Omega = \pi R^2 b, \quad (\text{B.29})$$

For a loop in an external stress field σ_{ij}^{ext} , the loop free energy should include the mechanical work term,

$$G_{\text{loop}}^{\text{tot}} = G_{\text{self}} + G_{\text{fault}} + G_{\sigma}, \quad (\text{B.30})$$

with

$$G_{\sigma} = -\sigma_{ij}^{\text{ext}} \Omega_{ij}^{\text{loop}}. \quad (\text{B.31})$$

For a circular prismatic loop of radius R , plane normal n_i , and Burgers vector $b_i = b n_i$, the loop relaxation-volume tensor is

$$\Omega_{ij}^{\text{loop}} = s n \Omega n_i n_j = s \pi R^2 b n_i n_j, \quad (\text{B.32})$$

where

$$s = \begin{cases} -1, & \text{vacancy loop,} \\ +1, & \text{interstitial loop.} \end{cases} \quad (\text{B.33})$$

Hence

$$G_\sigma = -s n \Omega \sigma_{ij}^{\text{ext}} n_i n_j = -s \pi R^2 b \sigma_{ij}^{\text{ext}} n_i n_j. \quad (\text{B.34})$$

The point-defect exchange chemical potential is therefore

$$\mu = \frac{\partial G_{\text{loop}}^{\text{tot}}}{\partial n} = \frac{\partial G_{\text{self}}}{\partial n} + \frac{\partial G_{\text{fault}}}{\partial n} - s \Omega \sigma_{ij}^{\text{ext}} n_i n_j. \quad (\text{B.35})$$

For a faulted circular vacancy loop ($s = -1$),

$$\mu_{\text{loop}}^{(v)} = \frac{Gb\Omega}{4\pi(1-\nu)R} \left[\ln\left(\frac{R}{r_c}\right) + 1 \right] + \frac{\gamma_{sf}\Omega}{b} + \Omega \sigma_{ij}^{\text{ext}} n_i n_j. \quad (\text{B.36})$$

For a faulted circular interstitial loop ($s = +1$),

$$\mu_{\text{loop}}^{(i)} = \frac{Gb\Omega}{4\pi(1-\nu)R} \left[\ln\left(\frac{R}{r_c}\right) + 1 \right] + \frac{\gamma_{sf}\Omega}{b} - \Omega \sigma_{ij}^{\text{ext}} n_i n_j. \quad (\text{B.37})$$

r_c is the core radius of a dislocation. Utilizing Eqs. B.5 and B.4, we obtain the binding energy of a vacancy to an interstitial or to a vacancy loop, respectively.

Vacancy Loops

Osetsky et al. [69] studied the stability of vacancy loops in iron using atomistic simulations. Applying the continuum equations B.5 and B.4, together with Eq. B.36 for the chemical potential of a vacancy loop without external stress, we compare the results of atomistic simulations to the continuum equations with $r_c = b/3$ and $\gamma_{sf} = 0.6 \text{ J/m}^2$ in Fig. B.9. A transition correction anchors the continuum to the atomistic divacancy binding energy $E_b(2) = 0.22 \text{ eV}$ via an exponential decay:

$$E_b(\alpha) = E_b^{\text{cont}}(\alpha) + [E_b(2) - E_b^{\text{cont}}(2)] e^{-\lambda(\alpha-2)} \quad (\text{B.38})$$

$$\lambda = \frac{\ln 100}{8} \approx 0.575 \text{ vac}^{-1} \quad (\text{B.39})$$

Interstitial Loops Small- n Power-Law Fit ($n \leq 25$)

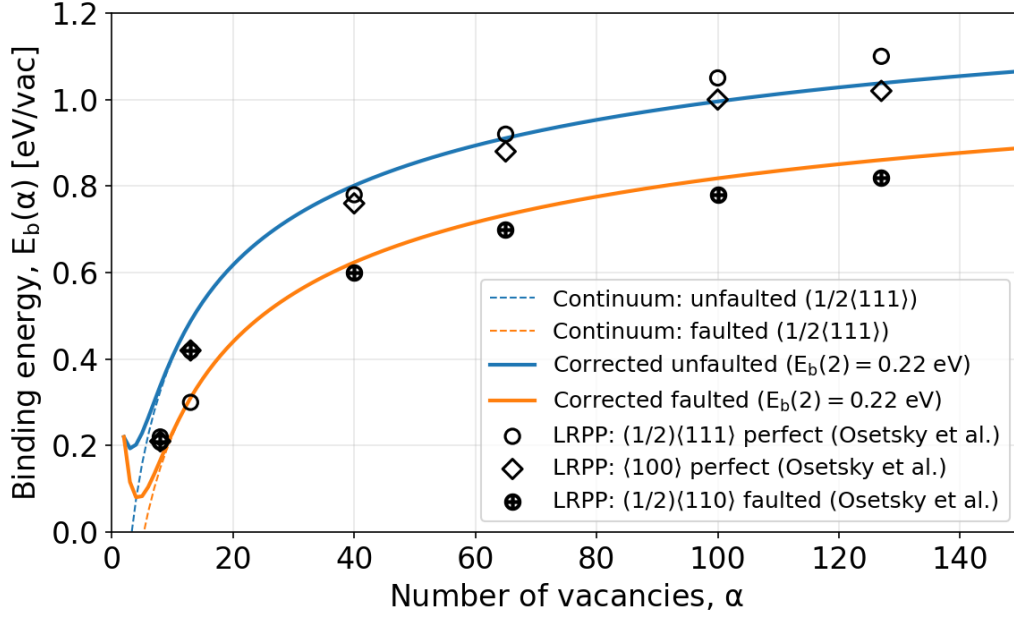


Figure B.9: Binding energy of a vacancy to a vacancy loop in iron using continuum equations (solid lines) and atomistic data from Osetsky et al. [69]

The small-cluster binding energy is fitted by least squares to the atomistic data for $n = 2$ (DFT) and $n = 7, 19$ (Osetsky MD, hexagonal and square loop configurations). The fit is written as

$$E_b^{i,\text{fit}}(n) = An^B. \quad (\text{B.40})$$

The fitted parameters are listed in Table B.17.

Table B.17: Power-law fit parameters for small interstitial loops.

Loop type	A (eV)	B
$\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$	0.7501	0.3873
$\langle 100 \rangle$	0.7160	0.3581

The atomistic training data used in the fit is summarized in Table B.18.

Table B.18: Atomistic training data used for the small- n binding-energy fit.

n	$E_b^i - \frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ (eV)	$E_b^i - \langle 100 \rangle$ (eV)	Source
2	0.90	0.90	DFT (Domain & Becquart [56]; Marinica et al.[70])
7 (hex)	1.65	1.30	Osetsky LRPP MD
7 (sq)	1.65	1.60	Osetsky LRPP MD
19 (hex)	2.35	2.05	Osetsky LRPP MD
19 (sq)	2.30	2.05	Osetsky LRPP MD

Blended Model with tanh Transition

To connect the small- n fit to the continuum expression, we use a smooth transition function

$$w(n) = \frac{1}{2} \left[1 + \tanh \left(\frac{n_{\text{tr}} - n}{\sigma_{\text{tr}}} \right) \right]. \quad (\text{B.41})$$

The blended binding energy is then written as:

$$E_b^i(n) = w(n) E_b^{i,\text{fit}}(n) + [1 - w(n)] E_b^{i,\text{cont}}(n). \quad (\text{B.42})$$

The transition parameters are listed in Table B.19.

Table B.19: Parameters of the smooth blending function.

Parameter	Value
n_{tr} (transition center)	25 SIAs
σ_{tr} (transition half-width)	5 SIAs

Selected values of the weight function are given in Table B.20.

The binding energy of a single self-interstitial atom to the two competing loop habits is compared in Fig. B.10. Both the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ and the $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops show a binding energy that rises steeply for small clusters and then flattens as the loop grows, asymptotically approaching the SIA emission threshold $E_i^f = 3.6$ eV from below. The atomistic data of Osetsky et al. (hexagonal and square configurations) are reproduced by the small- n power-law fit for $n \leq n_{\text{tr}} = 25$ and by the continuum expression at large sizes, blended smoothly through the tanh transition. The di-SIA anchor $E_b^i(2) = 0.90$ eV fixes the low- n end of both curves. Across the entire size range the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$

Table B.20: Weight function $w(n)$ at selected cluster sizes.

n	$w(n)$
15	0.982
20	0.881
25	0.500
30	0.119
35	0.018

loop consistently binds an SIA more strongly than the $\langle 100 \rangle$ loop, with the gap being largest for small clusters ($n \lesssim 40$) and narrowing gradually as both curves converge toward the emission threshold at large n . The higher per-SIA binding energy of the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ habit indicates that it is the more stable, lower-energy configuration and therefore the thermodynamically favored loop, especially in the small-loop regime that controls nucleation; the $\langle 100 \rangle$ loop, being more weakly bound, is comparatively easier to dissolve by interstitial emission. This energetic ordering underlies the observed dominance of $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops and the requirement of a kinetic pathway to generate the $\langle 100 \rangle$ population.

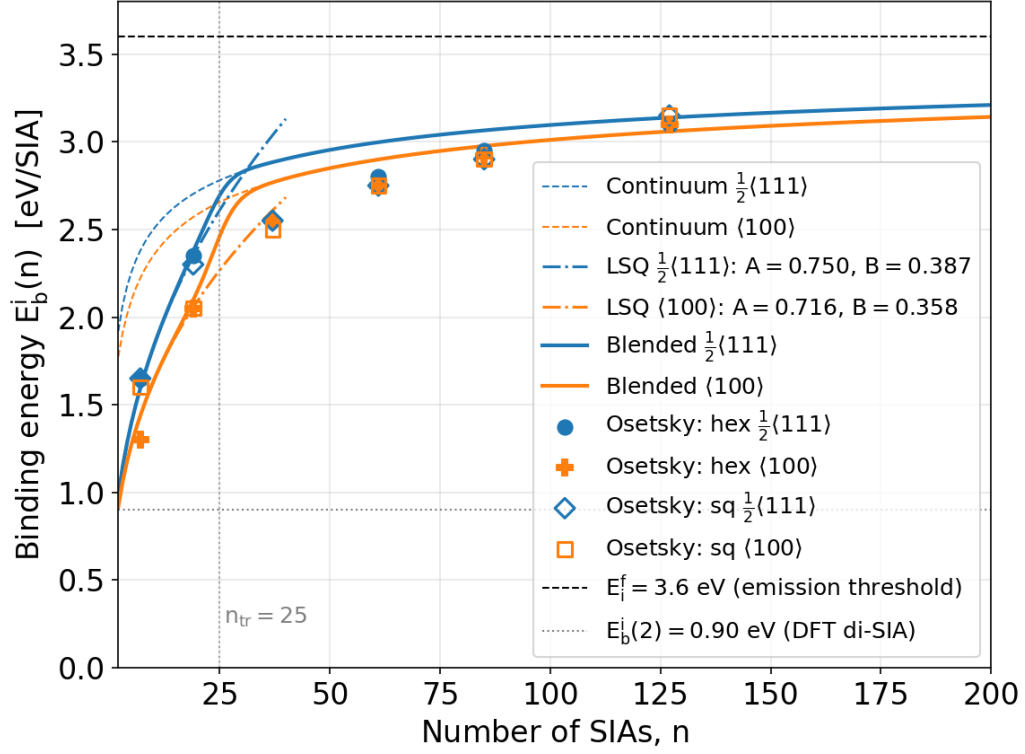


Figure B.10: Binding energy of a self-interstitial atom to a dislocation loop in iron as a function of the number of SIAs, n , for the two loop habits $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ (blue) and $\langle 100 \rangle$ (orange). The upper horizontal dashed line marks the SIA emission threshold $E_i^f = 3.6$ eV and the lower dotted line the DFT di-SIA anchor $E_b^i(2) = 0.90$ eV. The $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loop is more strongly bound than the $\langle 100 \rangle$ loop at every size, confirming its greater relative stability.

Appendix C. Diffusion

The diffusion coefficient for a random walk in 3D is:

$$D = \frac{1}{6} z \lambda^2 \nu_0 \exp(-E_m/k_B T) \quad (\text{C.1})$$

where z is the number of equivalent jump directions, λ is the jump distance, and the factor $\frac{1}{6}$ comes from the 3D random walk. For a bcc lattice with $\langle 111 \rangle$ nearest-neighbor jumps, $z = 8$, and $\lambda = a\sqrt{3}/2$. If the lattice constant is (a), then the diffusion coefficients of interstitials, vacancies, and helium can be written as $D = a^2 \nu \exp(-E_m/k_B T)$. We introduce here 3 basic frequencies in the defect clustering system: ω_i is the frequency of the self-interstitial reaction, ω_h is the frequency of the helium gas reaction, and ω_v is the frequency of the vacancy reaction. For SIAs (and similarly for vacancies and helium atoms), this is given by:

$$\omega_i = \nu_i \exp(-E_m^i/k_B T) = D_i/a^2, \text{s}^{-1}, \quad (\text{C.2})$$

In bcc iron, vacancy migration proceeds by nearest-neighbor jumps along $\langle 111 \rangle$ directions, with $z = 8$ equivalent sites and the saddle point midway between adjacent lattice sites, so the vacancy executes a 3D random walk at all temperatures of interest. Using the migration energy of Table E.25, the activation energy for self-diffusion follows as $Q_{SD} = E_f^v + E_m^v$, consistent with tracer diffusion experiments.

As summarized in the Energetics section (Table E.25), the most stable SIA in ferromagnetic bcc iron is the $\langle 110 \rangle$ dumbbell, which migrates by a low-barrier translation-rotation mechanism. Because the dumbbell can reorient into any of its six equivalent orientations upon each jump, single-SIA migration is inherently three-dimensional—in contrast to the quasi-1D athermal crowdion glide found in non-magnetic bcc metals [71, 72].

The elementary $\langle 110 \rangle$ dumbbell mechanism carries over to the ferritic matrix of EUROFER97, but the effective SIA mobility is reduced by interactions with the alloy's solute population. EUROFER is a reduced-activation 9Cr ferritic/martensitic steel whose principal alloying additions include Cr, W, Mn, V, Ta, C, and N [3, 73]. After heat treatment, part of the C, N, V, and Ta partitions into MX carbonitrides and $M_{23}C_6$ carbides, so the relevant quantity is the *dissolved* matrix solute content rather than the nominal composition. Two classes of solute–SIA interactions are important. (1) Substitutional solutes (Cr, Mn, W, V, Ta). These form mixed solute–Fe

dumbbells and bound interstitial complexes that create a fluctuating migration landscape of local binding, detrapping, and solute-biased reorientation events [74–77]. (2) Interstitial solutes (C, N). Carbon and nitrogen occupy octahedral sites and bind strongly to SIA and small SIA clusters, acting as efficient traps that shorten the free-flight length and raise the apparent migration energy [78–81]. Both effects are captured by writing the effective SIA diffusivity in the trap-limited form:

$$D_i^{\text{eff}} = \frac{D_i^{\text{Fe}}}{1 + \sum_s K_s(T) c_s} \quad (\text{C.3})$$

where D_i^{Fe} is the pure-iron value, c_s is the atomic fraction of solute or trap class s , and $K_s(T)$ is an effective trapping coefficient related to the SIA–solute binding free energy. The dominant trap classes in EUROFER are dissolved C and N, Cr-rich local environments, and carbide/carbonitride interfaces. No single Arrhenius pair (D_0 , E_m) adequately represents SIA diffusion in EUROFER across all conditions. The physically sound approach is to use the pure-Fe mobility as the reference and to introduce alloy-specific corrections through Eq. (C.3).

The migration mechanism of interstitial clusters in bcc iron evolves with cluster size, transitioning from 3D to 1D as the cluster grows:

For $n \geq 4$, clusters adopt the form of prismatic dislocation loops with a Burgers vector $\mathbf{b} = \frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ and migrate by thermally activated 1D glide along their Burgers vector direction [82–84]. The 1D migration energy is essentially independent of cluster size for $n \gtrsim 4$ [82], with $E_m^{1D} \lesssim 0.05$ eV, so that $E_m^{1D} \leq k_B T$ is above room temperature and the Arrhenius factor is close to unity. The di-interstitial ($n = 2$), consisting of two parallel $\langle 110 \rangle$ dumbbells, is *less* mobile than the single SIA ($E_m = 0.42$ vs. 0.34 eV) [52], while clusters with $n = 3$ –4 lie in the crossover regime [85].

The 1D diffusion coefficient for a cluster of n SIAs gliding along $\langle 111 \rangle$ is:

$$D_n^{1D} = \frac{1}{2} \lambda_{\langle 111 \rangle}^2 \nu_n \exp\left(-\frac{E_m^{1D}}{k_B T}\right), \quad (\text{C.4})$$

where $\lambda_{\langle 111 \rangle} = a\sqrt{3}$ is the jump distance and the factor $\frac{1}{2}$ reflects the two-directional 1D random walk. MD simulations show that the attempt frequency scales inversely with size [82, 86]:

$$\nu_n = \frac{\nu_0}{n^s}, \quad \nu_0 \sim 6 \times 10^{12} \text{ s}^{-1}, \quad s \approx 0.5\text{--}1.0, \quad (\text{C.5})$$

giving the expression:

$$D_n^{1D} = \frac{3a^2\nu_0}{2n^s} \exp\left(-\frac{E_m^{1D}}{k_B T}\right) \quad \text{m}^2 \text{s}^{-1} \quad (\text{C.6})$$

Gliding SIA clusters periodically change their Burgers-vector direction—by thermal activation, by interaction with solutes, or by encounters with other defects [87]. The mean one-dimensional diffusion length L between direction changes controls the effective dimensionality of the transport. If L is finite, the transport may be represented phenomenologically by an effective 3D diffusion coefficient [88, 89]

$$D_n^{3D,\text{eff}} = \frac{D_n^{1D}}{3} \frac{L}{\lambda_{\langle 111 \rangle}}, \quad (\text{C.7})$$

where the factor $1/3$ accounts for the orientational projection of one-dimensional motion onto three spatial dimensions, and $\lambda_{\langle 111 \rangle}$ is the characteristic distance associated with a Burgers-vector reorientation event. Equivalently, if ν_R is the Burgers-vector rotation frequency, then the mean time between rotations is $\tau_R = 1/\nu_R$, and the mean one-dimensional diffusion length between rotations is

$$L = \sqrt{2D_n^{1D}\tau_R} = \sqrt{\frac{2D_n^{1D}}{\nu_R}}. \quad (\text{C.8})$$

Substitution into Eq. (C.7) gives

$$D_n^{3D,\text{eff}} = \frac{D_n^{1D}}{3\lambda_{\langle 111 \rangle}} \sqrt{\frac{2D_n^{1D}}{\nu_R}}. \quad (\text{C.9})$$

The effective 3D reaction rate with spherical sinks of radius R and density C_s is

$$k_n^{3D} = 4\pi R D_n^{3D,\text{eff}} C_s. \quad (\text{C.10})$$

In the pure 1D limit, the 1D sink-strength formalism gives [88, 89]

$$k_n^{1D} = 2(\pi R^2 C_s)^2 D_n^{1D}. \quad (\text{C.11})$$

The critical physical distinction is that the 1D absorption rate scales as $R^4 C_s^2$, i.e., as the square of the geometric cross-section and second order in sink density, whereas the 3D absorption rate scales as $R C_s$, i.e., first order in

both capture radius and sink density. This asymmetry between SIA-cluster and point-defect absorption by sinks is the physical origin of the production bias that drives void swelling under cascade-producing irradiation.

In EUROFER, the elementary 1D glide barrier remains small, but solute interactions modify cluster transport in two coupled ways:

1. **Reduced 1D mobility.** Dissolved C, N, and their vacancy complexes trap and pin glissile $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops, lowering the effective 1D diffusivity [90, 91]:

$$D_{n,\text{eff}}^{1D} = \frac{D_n^{1D,\text{Fe}}}{1 + \sum_s K_{n,s}(T) c_s}, \quad (\text{C.12})$$

where $K_{n,s}(T)$ is the trapping factor for cluster size n with solute class s .

2. **Shortened mean free path.** Substitutional solutes (Cr, W, Mn, V, Ta) promote Burgers-vector changes through local pinning and drag, increasing ν_R and thereby reducing L :

$$L_{\text{eff}} = \sqrt{\frac{2D_{n,\text{eff}}^{1D}}{\nu_{R,\text{eff}}}}. \quad (\text{C.13})$$

Solute effects, therefore, compound: they lower D_n^{1D} and shorten L , pushing cluster transport further from the ideal long-range 1D limit toward 3D-like behavior. The effective 3D coefficient in the alloy is obtained by substituting the alloy quantities into the mixed 1D/3D expression:

$$D_n^{3D,\text{eff},\text{alloy}} = \frac{D_{n,\text{eff}}^{1D}}{3} \cdot \frac{L_{\text{eff}}}{\lambda_{\langle 111 \rangle}}. \quad (\text{C.14})$$

The nominal composition of EUROFER97 is approximately 8.9 Cr–1.1 W–0.47 Mn–0.20 V–0.14 Ta–0.11 C–0.03 N (wt%) [3, 73]. After the standard heat treatment (980°C/30 min normalization + 760°C/90 min tempering), a substantial fraction of C, N, V, and Ta is consumed by $M_{23}C_6$ and MX-type precipitates. Atom-probe and TEM studies indicate that the dissolved matrix concentrations relevant for defect trapping are approximately shown in Table C.21 [92, 93]: The dissolved C and N values are rough estimates; most of the nominal carbon is tied up in precipitates. These concentrations

Table C.21: Dissolved matrix concentrations of main alloying elements in EUROFER.

Species	Nominal (wt%)	Est. dissolved (at. fraction)
Cr (substitutional)	8.9	$c_{\text{Cr}} \approx 0.094$
W (substitutional)	1.1	$c_{\text{W}} \approx 0.0033$
Mn (substitutional)	0.47	$c_{\text{Mn}} \approx 0.0047$
C (interstitial, dissolved)	$\lesssim 0.02$	$c_{\text{C}} \approx 5 \times 10^{-4}$
N (interstitial, dissolved)	$\lesssim 0.01$	$c_{\text{N}} \approx 2 \times 10^{-4}$

are used in the trapping factors below. Table C.22 summarizes the DFT-calculated binding energies of solute atoms to single SIAs ($\langle 110 \rangle$ dumbbells) and to small $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ interstitial loops in bcc Fe. These govern the trapping factors $K_s(T)$ in Eqs. (C.3) and (C.12).

C and N are the strongest traps for both single SIAs and small loops. The C–SIA binding (~ 0.45 eV) is comparable to the SIA migration energy itself (0.34 eV), meaning that C trapping qualitatively alters the effective migration barrier. Cr binds weakly via the mixed-dumbbell mechanism. At 9 at.% Cr, the cumulative effect is significant despite the small per-atom binding. Mn binds more strongly than Cr to the dumbbell and dominates dumbbell-mediated solute transport [77]. W is repulsive with SIAs and does not contribute to trapping. The trapping coefficient $K_s(T)$ in the effective diffusivity (Eq. C.3) is related to the binding energy by [22]:

$$K_s(T) = z_s \exp\left(\frac{E_b^s}{k_B T}\right), \quad (\text{C.15})$$

where z_s is a coordination factor (number of trapping configurations per solute site; $z_s \approx 4\text{--}8$ for substitutional solutes in bcc, $z_s \approx 2\text{--}4$ for interstitial solutes). With this, the effective SIA diffusivity becomes:

$$D_i^{\text{eff}} = \frac{D_i^{\text{Fe}}}{1 + \sum_s z_s c_s \exp(E_b^s/k_B T)}. \quad (\text{C.16})$$

At low temperatures ($T \lesssim 300$ °C), the C and N trapping terms dominate the denominator, and the effective SIA migration energy becomes $E_m^{i,\text{eff}} \approx$

$E_m^i + E_b^C \approx 0.34 + 0.45 = 0.79 \text{ eV}$. At high temperatures ($T \gtrsim 500^\circ\text{C}$), thermal detrapping reduces the effect, and D_i^{eff} approaches the pure-Fe value.

The coordination numbers z_s and binding energies E_b^s used above are rounded values chosen to represent the central range of DFT data from Table C.22. The W contribution is omitted (repulsive binding; $K_W \approx 0$). V and Ta are present at low dissolved concentrations and are omitted for simplicity.

For SIA clusters in the mixed 1D/3D framework (Eq. C.14), the effective rotation frequency and mean free path are:

$$\nu_{R,\text{eff}} = \nu_R^{\text{therm}} + \sum_s \sigma_s^{\text{rot}} c_s \omega_n^{1D}, \quad (\text{C.17})$$

$$L_{\text{eff}} = \sqrt{2D_{n,\text{eff}}^{1D} / \nu_{R,\text{eff}}}, \quad (\text{C.18})$$

where ν_R^{therm} is the thermal rotation frequency in pure Fe (small; often negligible below 500°C for large loops) and σ_s^{rot} is the effective rotation cross-section per solute atom. For Cr at 9 at.%, atomistic estimates give $L_{\text{eff}} \sim 10\text{--}100 a$ ($\sim 3\text{--}30 \text{ nm}$), which is much shorter than the typical sink spacing in irradiated EUROFER ($\sim 100\text{--}1000 \text{ nm}$). This places EUROFER cluster transport firmly in the mixed 1D/3D regime rather than the pure 1D limit applicable to high-purity iron.

Vacancy clusters in bcc iron migrate by a qualitatively different mechanism from interstitial clusters. Whereas SIA clusters glide collectively as dislocation loops, vacancy clusters move only by sequential single-vacancy jumps within or at the surface of the cluster. The motion is always three-dimensional, and the effective migration energy generally increases with cluster size because larger clusters require increasingly coordinated sequences of atomic rearrangements to translate the center of mass by one lattice spacing [66, 94, 95].

For clusters larger than $\sim 5\text{--}6$ vacancies, the dominant transport mechanism transitions from bulk-like nearest-neighbor vacancy hopping to surface (ledge) diffusion of adatom vacancies around the void facets. This mechanism underlies the classical Gruber model for void migration, in which the void diffusion coefficient scales as a high inverse power of the void radius [96, 97].

The anomalously mobile trivacancy. The compact trivacancy (V_3) in the bcc lattice—with all three vacancies at mutual second-nearest-neighbor positions forming an equilateral triangle on a $\{110\}$ plane—has a migration energy

(0.35–0.50 eV) that is *lower* than that of either the monovacancy or the divacancy. This was first reported from DFT-parameterized kinetic Monte Carlo calculations and has been confirmed by k-ART [94] and by independent first-principles studies of vacancy–solute cluster mobility [98]. The mechanism is a concerted three-atom ring rotation in which three Fe atoms adjacent to the cluster simultaneously exchange positions with the three vacancies, translating the cluster center of mass by one lattice vector. Because of this low barrier, V_3 clusters are the most mobile vacancy-type species in α -Fe after isolated monovacancies. [98] further showed that V_3X complexes (with $X = \text{C, N, or O}$) retain much of this mobility—with global migration energies of 0.59 eV (C), 0.86 eV (N), and 0.58 eV (O)—which means that vacancy-mediated interstitial-solute transport via trivacancy dragging is an important mechanism in irradiated ferritic steels.

Divacancy pathway multiplicity. The divacancy in bcc Fe has its ground state at the second-nearest-neighbor (2NN) separation [56]. Its migration involves a two-step process: first, one vacancy jumps to a first-nearest-neighbor position (metastable), then the second vacancy follows to re-establish the 2NN ground state at a translated position. The effective barrier depends on which of several pathways is taken, giving a range of 0.62–0.75 eV [94, 95]. k-ART simulations reveal additional complex pathways involving transient higher-order configurations, with effective barriers as high as 0.84 eV for some routes through the energy landscape [94].

For larger voids containing m vacancies ($m \gtrsim 10$), vacancy cluster migration proceeds by surface self-diffusion of adatom vacancies on the void wall. The classical result due to [96] and [97] gives the void diffusion coefficient as:

$$D_{\text{void}}(m) = \frac{D_s \Omega^{4/3}}{r_m^4} = D_s \Omega^{4/3} \left(\frac{4\pi}{3m\Omega} \right)^{4/3} \propto \frac{D_s}{m^{4/3}}, \quad (\text{C.19})$$

where D_s is the surface self-diffusion coefficient on the void wall, $\Omega = a^3/2$ is the atomic volume, and $r_m = (3m\Omega/4\pi)^{1/3}$ is the void radius. The strong inverse scaling $D_{\text{void}} \propto m^{-4/3}$ means that void mobility drops extremely rapidly with size. Numerical estimates give $D_{\text{void}} \sim 10^{-30} \text{ m}^2/\text{s}$ or less for voids of $m \geq 50$ at temperatures below 500°C, which is effectively zero on any experimentally accessible timescale.

Alternative derivations based on volume diffusion, rather than surface diffusion, give an even steeper size dependence ($D_{\text{void}} \propto m^{-5/3}$), but surface

diffusion is generally accepted as the dominant mechanism for faceted voids in bcc metals [97].

The general size-dependent diffusion coefficient for vacancy clusters used in the rate equations is:

$$D_{(-m,0)} = D_v \cdot m^{-s_v}, \quad s_v \approx 1.0 \quad (m \leq v_{\text{mobile}}), \quad (\text{C.20})$$

where v_{mobile} is a mobility cutoff (typically 3–5). Clusters with $m > v_{\text{mobile}}$ are set to $D = 0$.

For He-containing vacancy clusters (bubbles), the diffusion coefficient is further reduced:

$$D_{(-m,\ell)} = D_{(-m,0)} \cdot f(\ell/m), \quad (\text{C.21})$$

where $f(\ell/m)$ is a reduction factor reflecting the additional pinning by trapped helium. A simple choice is $f = \exp(-E_b^{\text{He}}\ell/k_B T)$, but for practical purposes, He-containing clusters with $m \geq 2$ are treated as immobile.

Vacancy migration in pure α -Fe proceeds by nearest-neighbor jumps along $\langle 111 \rangle$ with a barrier of $E_m^v = 0.67$ eV. In the EUROFER matrix, dissolved solutes modify this mobility through two mechanisms: (i) vacancy-solute binding, which traps vacancies near solute sites and raises the effective migration energy; and (ii) modification of the local saddle-point energy, which can either raise or lower the elementary jump barrier depending on the neighboring chemical environment. Both effects are governed by the vacancy-solute binding energy E_b^{v-s} , which has been computed by DFT for all the principal solutes in EUROFER.

Vacancy-Solute Binding Energies. Table C.22 collects DFT-calculated vacancy-solute binding energies at 1NN and 2NN separations in bcc Fe. Positive values denote attraction (trapping). C and N are the dominant vacancy traps, with binding energies (~ 0.4 – 0.5 eV at 1NN) comparable to the vacancy migration energy itself. Carbon-vacancy (VC) and nitrogen-vacancy (VN) complexes are therefore strongly bound and act as deep traps that immobilize vacancies at low temperatures. This is the primary mechanism by which interstitial solutes suppress vacancy-mediated processes (self-diffusion, void nucleation) in ferritic steels. W is a moderate vacancy trap ($E_b \sim 0.25$ – 0.35 eV at 1NN). At the 0.33 at.% level present in EUROFER, W makes a non-negligible contribution to vacancy trapping, particularly in the intermediate temperature range (300–500°C) where the C/N trapping terms are starting to deactivate. Cr binds very weakly to vacancies ($E_b \sim 0.05$ eV at 1NN) and

Table C.22: RADCLUSTER solute-trapping input parameters for EUROFER. Trapping coefficients are $K_s = z_s \exp(E_b^s/k_B T)$; positive E_b denotes attraction. Adopted values are the rounded central estimates used in the code; DFT ranges and dissolved (after-tempering) concentrations c_s are listed for reference.

Solute	Trap type	z_s	E_b (adopted, eV)	DFT range (eV)	c_s (at/at)	Source
C	SIA dumbbell	4	0.45	0.40–0.50	5×10^{-4}	[74, 99]
N	SIA dumbbell	4	0.40	0.35–0.45	2×10^{-4}	[74, 99]
Cr	SIA dumbbell	8	0.10	0.09–0.12	0.094	[74, 76]
Mn	SIA dumbbell	6	0.20	0.15–0.25	0.0047	[75, 77]
W	SIA dumbbell	—	repulsive	−0.1 to −0.3	0.0033	[99]
C	vacancy	3	0.45	0.41–0.47	5×10^{-4}	[78, 79]
N	vacancy	3	0.40	0.35–0.43	2×10^{-4}	[78, 79]
W	vacancy	8	0.27	0.20–0.35	0.0033	[75, 100]
Mn	vacancy	8	0.10	0.06–0.12	0.0047	[101]
Cr	vacancy	8	0.05	0.03–0.06	0.094	[75]
C	SIA loop	2	0.50	0.42–0.86	5×10^{-4}	[78, 90, 91]
N	SIA loop	2	0.40	~ 0.3 –0.7	2×10^{-4}	[78]
Cr	SIA loop	4	0.10	0.05–0.15	0.094	[74, 99]

is repulsive at 2NN. Despite its high concentration (9.4 at.%), the cumulative trapping effect of Cr on vacancy mobility is modest because $\exp(0.05/k_B T)$ is close to unity at all relevant temperatures. Mn binds slightly more strongly than Cr but still weakly (~ 0.10 eV). Its effect is secondary to C, N, and W.

Effective Vacancy Diffusivity in EUROFER. By analogy with the SIA trap-limited formulation (Eq. C.3), the effective vacancy diffusivity in EUROFER is:

$$D_v^{\text{eff}} = \frac{D_v^{\text{Fe}}}{1 + \sum_s z_s^v c_s \exp(E_b^{v-s}/k_B T)} \quad (\text{C.22})$$

where D_v^{Fe} is the pure-iron value, c_s is the dissolved atomic fraction of solute s , and z_s^v is the coordination number for vacancy trapping configurations near a solute of type s . The dominant trapping species, in decreasing order of importance, are dissolved C, dissolved N, W, Mn, and Cr.

Effect on Vacancy Cluster Mobility. Small vacancy clusters ($m = 2\text{--}5$) are affected by solutes through two mechanisms:

1. **Enhanced binding/pinning:** C and N atoms bind even more strongly to divacancies and trivacancies than to monovacancies, because the larger open volume of the cluster provides a more favorable environment for the interstitial solute [78, 98]. This deepens the trap and raises the effective cluster migration barrier.
2. **Solute decoration:** In EUROFER, small vacancy clusters formed under irradiation rapidly acquire C and N decorations from the dissolved matrix pool, converting bare V_m clusters into $V_m C_p N_q$ complexes. These decorated clusters have substantially reduced mobility relative to bare clusters. The compact trivacancy—anomalously mobile in pure Fe—is particularly affected: $V_3\text{C}$ has a migration energy of 0.59 eV and $V_3\text{N}$ of 0.86 eV [98], compared to 0.35–0.50 eV for bare V_3 .

In RADCLUSTER modeling, the effective vacancy cluster diffusivity in EUROFER is written as:

$$D_{(-m,0)}^{\text{eff}} = \frac{D_{(-m,0)}^{\text{Fe}}}{1 + \sum_s K_{m,s}^v(T) c_s}, \quad (\text{C.23})$$

where $K_{m,s}^v(T) = z_{m,s}^v \exp(E_b^{v_{m-s}}/k_B T)$ and the binding energy $E_b^{v_{m-s}}$ may depend on cluster size.

The solute-modified vacancy diffusivity has three important consequences for cluster dynamics modeling of EUROFER: (1) suppressed void nucleation at low T , (2) delayed thermal emission, and (3) asymmetric SIA–vacancy trapping.

Interstitial helium occupies the tetrahedral site in bcc iron and migrates between nearest-neighbor tetrahedral sites over the very low barrier. This barrier is so small that helium is essentially mobile at all temperatures of interest—it is by far the fastest diffusing species in the defect system. The helium diffusion coefficient and reaction frequency in pure α -Fe are:

$$D_h = a^2 \nu_h \exp\left(-\frac{E_m^h}{k_B T}\right) = 2.5 \times 10^{-8} \exp\left(-\frac{0.06 \text{ eV}}{k_B T}\right) \quad \text{m}^2 \text{ s}^{-1}, \quad (\text{C.24})$$

$$\omega_h = \frac{D_h}{a^2} = 3.0 \times 10^{12} \exp\left(-\frac{0.06 \text{ eV}}{k_B T}\right) \quad \text{s}^{-1}, \quad (\text{C.25})$$

with $\nu_h \approx 3.0 \times 10^{12} \text{ s}^{-1}$ and $a = 2.87 \text{ \AA}$ [66, 102]. Because $E_m^h \ll k_B T$ at all reactor-relevant temperatures, the Arrhenius factor is close to unity, and the helium mobility is nearly temperature-independent. Spin-lattice dynamics simulations confirm strongly non-Arrhenius behavior at elevated temperatures, where phonon-drag effects make the diffusion coefficient increase roughly linearly with T rather than exponentially [103].

In the EUROFER matrix, interstitial He can interact with dissolved solutes before reaching a vacancy trap. The relevant interactions, from DFT calculations, are:

Substitutional solutes (Cr, Mn, W). He–substitutional-solute interactions in bcc Fe are generally weak. [66] and [65] find that He interacts only marginally with substitutional Cr and other transition metal solutes, with binding energies in the range 0.00–0.05 eV at 1NN—insufficient to constitute meaningful traps at reactor temperatures. At 9 at.% Cr, the cumulative effect on He mobility is therefore negligible.

Interstitial solutes (C, N). Carbon and nitrogen occupy octahedral sites and interact with interstitial He at tetrahedral sites. The He–C binding energy has been calculated to be ~ 0.05 – 0.10 eV [66, 104], which is comparable to the He migration barrier itself. This means C can cause transient trapping of He

at low temperatures ($T \lesssim 200^\circ\text{C}$), but at higher temperatures, the trapping is thermally overcome and has little effect on long-range He transport.

Vacancy–solute complexes as He traps. The most important solute effect on He transport in EUROFER is *indirect*: C and N form stable vacancy–solute complexes (VC , VN , VC_2) that compete with bare vacancies as He trapping sites. The He binding energy to a VC complex is ~ 1.5 – 1.8 eV—lower than that to a bare vacancy (~ 2.3 eV) but still a deep trap. Since a fraction of the vacancies in EUROFER are decorated by C and N, the effective trap density and the He–trap binding landscape differ from those of pure Fe.

Effective Helium Diffusivity. Because the He–solute binding energies are much smaller than the He–vacancy binding energy, the dominant control on free He transport is the vacancy trap density, not the solute field. The effective He diffusivity in EUROFER can therefore be written as:

$$D_h^{\text{eff}} = \frac{D_h^{\text{Fe}}}{1 + z_V^h c_V^{\text{free}} \exp(E_b^{h-V}/k_B T) + \sum_s z_s^h c_s \exp(E_b^{h-s}/k_B T)} \quad (\text{C.26})$$

where the first trapping term is due to free vacancies (concentration c_V^{free} , binding energy $E_b^{h-V} \approx 2.3$ eV, coordination $z_V^h = 6$) and the sum is over solute traps. In practice, at all temperatures where vacancies exist in meaningful concentrations, the vacancy trapping term completely dominates the denominator, and the solute terms can be neglected. The helium diffusivity reduction in EUROFER relative to pure Fe is therefore controlled primarily by the irradiation-produced vacancy concentration, not by the alloy composition.

Appendix D. Defect Reactions

Appendix D.1. Diffusion-Limited Reactions:

This section derives the rate constants for all reactions between defect clusters, expressed in atomic-fraction units (s^{-1}) and in terms of the reaction frequencies $\omega_\alpha = D_\alpha/a^2$ and the geometric prefactor $\xi(m) = (3m/8\pi)^{1/3}$ introduced in the diffusion section. The cluster notation (m, ℓ) and concentration units (at/at) follow the conventions established in Section Appendix C.

For a mobile point defect α absorbed by an immobile spherical cluster of m defects, the Smoluchowski volumetric rate constant is $\mathcal{K}^{\text{vol}} = 4\pi r_m (D_A + D_B)$. Converting to atomic-fraction units ($\mathcal{K} = \mathcal{K}^{\text{vol}}/\Omega$) and substituting $D = \omega a^2$, $r_m = \xi(m) a$, and $\Omega = a^3/2$:

$$\mathcal{K}_{\alpha,m}^{3D} = 8\pi \xi(m) \omega_\alpha \quad [\text{s}^{-1}]. \quad (\text{D.1})$$

When both reactants are mobile, the rate constant includes both frequencies:

$$\mathcal{K}_{AB}^{3D} = 8\pi \xi_{\text{rec}} (\omega_A + \omega_B), \quad (\text{D.2})$$

with $\xi_{\text{rec}} = \sqrt{3}/2 \approx 0.866$ for nearest-neighbor capture in bcc.

Vacancy–SIA recombination ($m = n = 1$, both mobile):

$$\mathcal{K}_{iv} = 4\sqrt{3}\pi (\omega_i + \omega_v) \approx 21.8\omega_i, \quad (\text{D.3})$$

since $\omega_i \gg \omega_v$ at all relevant temperatures. Point defect absorption by a spherical cluster (void or bubble) of m vacancies:

$$\mathcal{K}_{\alpha,m}^{\text{void}} = A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_\alpha, \quad A_{\text{sph}} = (48\pi^2)^{1/3} \approx 7.818. \quad (\text{D.4})$$

Point defect absorption by a dislocation loop of n SIAs requires species-specific rate constants because only SIAs experience a non-trivial elastic bias ($Z_i^{\text{loop}} > 1$), while vacancies are unbiased ($Z_v^{\text{loop}} = 1$):

$$\mathcal{K}_{i,n}^{\text{loop}} = A_{\text{loop}} n^{1/2} Z_i^{\text{loop}} \omega_i, \quad (\text{D.5})$$

$$\mathcal{K}_{v,n}^{\text{loop}} = A_{\text{loop}} n^{1/2} \omega_v, \quad (\text{D.6})$$

with $A_{\text{loop}} = 8\sqrt{\pi/\sqrt{3}} \approx 10.78$ and $Z_i^{\text{loop}} \approx 1.02\text{--}1.10$ (Table E.23). SIA absorption grows the loop by one; vacancy absorption shrinks it by one.

Point defect absorption by the dislocation network (first-order sink):

$$\left. \frac{dc_\alpha}{dt} \right|_{\text{disl}} = -Z_\alpha \rho_d a^2 \omega_\alpha c_\alpha, \quad (\text{D.7})$$

where ρ_d (m^{-2}) is the dislocation line density and no n_{at} conversion is needed because this term is first-order in c_α .

Diffusion rates of clusters depend on their size, sink strength, and solute interactions as follows:

1. 1D Diffusion-Limited Reactions (SIA Clusters):

SIA clusters of size $n \geq 4$ migrate by 1D glide along $\langle 111 \rangle$ with a reaction frequency (from Section Appendix C):

$$\omega_n^{1D} = \frac{3}{2} \cdot \frac{\nu_0}{n^s} \exp\left(-\frac{E_m^{1D}}{k_B T}\right), \quad s \approx 0.5-1.0, \quad E_m^{1D} \lesssim 0.05 \text{ eV}. \quad (\text{D.8})$$

2. Mixed 1D/3D regime (finite mean free path):

The effective 3D reaction frequency after Burgers vector rotation is:

$$\omega_n^{3D,\text{eff}} = \frac{\omega_n^{1D} L}{3\sqrt{3} a}. \quad (\text{D.9})$$

The rate constant for an n -SIA cluster reacting with an immobile void of m vacancies is then:

$$\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{\text{mixed}} = A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_n^{3D,\text{eff}} = \frac{A_{\text{sph}}}{3\sqrt{3}} m^{1/3} \hat{L} \omega_n^{1D} \approx 1.505 m^{1/3} \hat{L} \omega_n^{1D}, \quad (\text{D.10})$$

where $\hat{L} = L/a$ is the dimensionless mean free path.

For a 1D-migrating cluster reacting with randomly distributed spherical sinks of size m and atomic fraction $c_{m,0}$, the loss rate is:

$$\left. \frac{dc_n}{dt} \right|_{\text{sink}} = -\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{1D} \bar{c}_m^2 c_n, \quad (\text{D.11})$$

where:

$$\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{1D} = A_{1D} m^{4/3} \omega_n^{1D}, \quad A_{1D} = \frac{9}{8\pi^{2/3}} \approx 2.632. \quad (\text{D.12})$$

The critical difference from 3D is that the rate constant scales as $m^{4/3}$ (not $m^{1/3}$) and is second-order in sink concentration (not first-order). This stronger sensitivity to sink geometry is the physical origin of the production bias.

For intermediate L , the Trinkaus–Singh–Golubov interpolation gives:

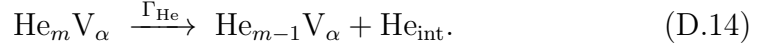
$$\mathcal{K}_{n,m}^{\text{eff}} = \frac{A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_n^{1D}}{1 + B_{\text{rot}} \hat{L}^2 m^{-1/3}}, \quad B_{\text{rot}} = \frac{4}{\pi} \left(\frac{8\pi}{3} \right)^{1/3} \approx 2.627. \quad (\text{D.13})$$

In the limits: $\hat{L} \rightarrow 0$ recovers the 3D rate constant $A_{\text{sph}} m^{1/3} \omega_n^{1D}$; $\hat{L} \rightarrow \infty$ gives a rate proportional to $m^{2/3} \hat{L}^{-2}$, scaling as r^2 as expected for 1D kinetics.

Appendix D.2. Cluster Dissociation Reactions

Appendix D.2.1. Helium thermal emission

The cluster releases a He atom into an interstitial (tetrahedral) site:



The vacancy content is unchanged; one He atom is lost. The emission rate is governed by the helium binding energy:

$$\Gamma_{\text{He}}(\alpha, m) = \mathcal{K}_{h,\alpha} \exp \left[-\frac{E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m)}{k_B T} \right], \quad (\text{D.15})$$

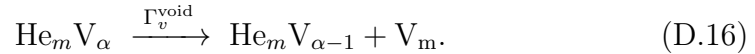
where $\mathcal{K}_{h,\alpha}$ is the He capture rate constant of the daughter cluster $\text{He}_{m-1} \text{V}_\alpha$. This channel dominates when the He binding energy is smaller than the energy cost of creating a Frenkel pair, i.e., when

$$E_B^{\text{He}} < E_f^i - \Omega P_g,$$

which is typically the case at high temperatures ($T \gtrsim 800$ K) and moderate He/V ratios.

Appendix D.2.2. Vacancy emission from a void

A void containing α vacancies may thermally emit one vacancy into the matrix:



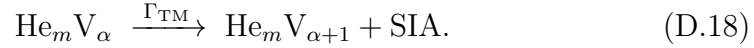
Here V_m denotes a mobile matrix vacancy. The helium content is unchanged, while the void loses one vacancy and therefore shrinks by one atomic volume. The thermal vacancy-emission rate is written in detailed balance form as

$$\Gamma_v^{\text{void}}(\alpha, m) = \mathcal{K}_{v, \alpha-1} \exp \left[-\frac{E_B^{v, \text{void}}(\alpha, m)}{k_B T} \right], \quad (\text{D.17})$$

where $\mathcal{K}_{v, \alpha-1}$ is the vacancy capture rate constant of the daughter void $\text{He}_m V_{\alpha-1}$, and $E_B^{v, \text{void}}(\alpha, m)$ is the vacancy binding energy to the parent void.

Appendix D.2.3. Trap mutation (Frenkel pair emission)

The cluster emits a self-interstitial atom from its periphery, simultaneously creating an additional vacancy within its own volume.



The He content is unchanged; the cluster gains one vacancy and injects one SIA into the lattice. This mechanism was first proposed by [105] as “plastic deformation around an over-pressurized bubble”, and direct experimental evidence for loop punching by helium bubbles was reported by [106] in molybdenum. The atomistic process—sometimes called *self-trapping* when it occurs from a pure interstitial He cluster ($\alpha = 0$)—was characterized in detail by [107] using molecular statics and has been studied by DFT and MD in both bcc Fe [59, 104, 108] and bcc W [109].

The trap-mutation rate can be expressed in Arrhenius form:

$$\Gamma_{\text{TM}}(\alpha, m) = \nu_0 \exp \left(-\frac{E_{\text{TM}}(\alpha, m)}{k_B T} \right), \quad (\text{D.19})$$

where $\nu_0 \sim 10^{12}\text{--}10^{13} \text{ s}^{-1}$ is an attempt frequency and E_{TM} is the activation barrier for Frenkel pair emission. DFT calculations by [109] for W and MD simulations by [59] and [104] for Fe provide the following picture:

- For **pure interstitial He clusters** ($\alpha = 0$): self-trapping (spontaneous Frenkel pair creation) occurs at $m \approx 4\text{--}6$ in bcc Fe at $T > 300 \text{ K}$, with a barrier $E_{\text{TM}} \sim 0\text{--}0.5 \text{ eV}$ that decreases with increasing cluster size [104].
- For **$\text{He}_m V_1$ clusters**: trap mutation occurs at $m \approx 5\text{--}7$, with barriers of $\sim 0.5\text{--}1.5 \text{ eV}$ that decrease steeply with m [59, 108].

- For **larger clusters** ($\alpha \geq 2$): the threshold He content for trap mutation increases roughly as $\alpha^{2/3}$ (reflecting the increased cavity volume), and the emitted SIA is strongly bound to the cluster surface (binding energy $\sim 2\text{--}3$ eV) [109].

For a given $\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha$ cluster, the dominant overpressure relief channel is the one with the lower effective barrier. The competition can be summarized as:

$$\text{If } E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m) < E_{\text{TM}}(\alpha, m) : \quad \text{He emission dominates,} \quad (\text{D.20})$$

$$\text{If } E_{\text{TM}}(\alpha, m) < E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m) : \quad \text{trap mutation dominates.} \quad (\text{D.21})$$

In bcc Fe, DFT data indicate that for small clusters ($\alpha \leq 4$) at He/V ratios above $\sim 1.3\text{--}1.7$, the trap-mutation barrier drops below the He binding energy, making Frenkel pair emission the preferred pathway [59, 67]. This is consistent with the observation that the equilibrium He/V ratio for small clusters is $\sim 1.0\text{--}1.3$ (DFT), while for larger bubbles ($R > 1$ nm) the mechanical equilibrium condition $P_g = 2\gamma/R$ gives He/V ~ 0.5 at moderate temperatures [110].

For practical implementation in cluster dynamics, the maximum He loading per vacancy cluster is:

$$\ell_{\text{max}}(\alpha) = \lfloor \alpha_{\text{He}} \alpha^{2/3} \rfloor, \quad \alpha_{\text{He}} \approx 1.5\text{--}2.0. \quad (\text{D.22})$$

This formula should be understood as the *trap-mutation limit*: beyond ℓ_{max} , the cluster spontaneously emits a Frenkel pair rather than accommodating an additional He atom. The He emission limit (where $E_B^{\text{He}} = 0$) occurs at a somewhat higher He/V ratio, but the trap-mutation channel intervenes first and prevents the cluster from reaching that state.

Appendix D.2.4. Vacancy emission from dislocation loops

An interstitial loop may also emit a vacancy into the matrix. This process is equivalent to adding one self-interstitial atom to the loop, since the emission of a vacancy increases the net interstitial content of the defect:

$$I_n \xrightarrow{\Gamma_v^{I\text{-loop}}} I_{n+1} + \text{V}_m. \quad (\text{D.23})$$

Here I_n denotes an interstitial loop containing n self-interstitial atoms. The vacancy-emission rate is again written using detailed balance:

$$\Gamma_v^{I\text{-loop}}(n) = \mathcal{K}_{v,n+1}^{I\text{-loop}} \exp\left[-\frac{E_B^{v,I\text{-loop}}(n)}{k_B T}\right], \quad (\text{D.24})$$

where $\mathcal{K}_{v,n+1}^{I\text{-loop}}$ is the vacancy capture rate constant of the daughter loop I_{n+1} , and $E_B^{v,I\text{-loop}}(n)$ is the effective binding energy associated with removing a vacancy from the matrix and incorporating the corresponding interstitial content into the loop.

Equations (D.17) and (D.24) emphasize the different physical origins of vacancy emission from the two defect classes. For voids, vacancy emission is controlled by surface energy and internal gas pressure. For interstitial loops, vacancy emission is controlled by the incremental line energy required to increase the loop size. In both cases, the emission rate is exponentially sensitive to the appropriate vacancy binding energy and therefore becomes important only at sufficiently high temperatures or for weakly bound small clusters.

Appendix E. Input Parameters

Table E.23 collects the rate-constant prefactors, sink parameters, and state-space controls used in the reaction-rate expressions. Every rate constant is built from one of the four precomputed geometric constants (A_{sph} , A_{loop} , A_{1D} , B_{rot}), the cluster size raised to a geometry-dependent power, and the appropriate effective reaction frequency $\omega_{\alpha}^{\text{eff}}$ (Eq. D.9). The binding energies $E_b^{\alpha}(m, \ell)$ for voids and loops come from Section Appendix B.2; the bubble binding energies $E_B^v(m, \ell)$ and $E_B^{\text{He}}(m, \ell)$ come from Tables B.15 and B.16. He emission dominates when $E_B^{\text{He}} < E_{\text{TM}}$; trap mutation dominates when $E_{\text{TM}} < E_B^{\text{He}}$, typically at $\text{He}/\text{V} \gtrsim 1.3\text{--}1.7$ for small clusters in bcc Fe.

Table E.24 collects the effective migration barriers for small vacancy clusters in α -Fe from several computational methods. Table E.25 collects the point-defect diffusion and energetics parameters used in RADCLUSTER simulations, including the helium and general diffusion parameters; Pure-Fe baseline values are given first, and EUROFER solute-trapping corrections follow. The effective diffusivity is $D_{\alpha}^{\text{eff}} = D_{\alpha}^{\text{Fe}}/(1 + \sum_s K_s c_s)$ with $K_s = z_s \exp(E_b^s/k_B T)$.

All reaction-rate geometry is captured by four numerical constants:

$$\begin{aligned}
 A_{\text{sph}} &= (48\pi^2)^{1/3} && \approx 7.818 \quad (\text{spherical clusters}), \\
 A_{\text{loop}} &= 8\sqrt{\pi/\sqrt{3}} && \approx 10.78 \quad (\text{dislocation loops}), \\
 A_{1D} &= 9/(8\pi^{2/3}) && \approx 2.632 \quad (\text{pure 1D sinks}), \\
 B_{\text{rot}} &= (4/\pi)(8\pi/3)^{1/3} && \approx 2.627 \quad (1\text{D}/3\text{D interpolation}).
 \end{aligned} \tag{E.1}$$

Table E.26 lists the dissociation and binding energy RADCLUSTER input parameters for EUROFER. The parameters used to compute helium cluster dissociation are given in Table E.27, and those used in RADCLUSTER for trap mutation are listed in Table E.28. For clusters at or above $\ell_{\text{max}}(\alpha)$, trap mutation can be enforced as a hard boundary: any He absorption event that would push $m > \ell_{\text{max}}$ is immediately redirected into a Frenkel pair emission step. The ℓ_{max} formula represents the trap-mutation limit, not the He emission limit. The He emission limit (where $E_B^{\text{He}} = 0$) lies at a somewhat higher He/V ratio, but trap mutation intervenes first.

Table E.23: Reaction rate input parameters for EUROFER cluster dynamics.

Parameter	Symbol	Value	Units
<i>Geometric prefactors (precomputed constants):</i>			
Spherical cluster	$A_{\text{sph}} = (48\pi^2)^{1/3}$	7.818	—
Dislocation loop	$A_{\text{loop}} = 8\sqrt{\pi/\sqrt{3}}$	10.78	—
Pure 1D sink	$A_{1D} = 9/(8\pi^{2/3})$	2.632	—
1D/3D interpolation	$B_{\text{rot}} = (4/\pi)(8\pi/3)^{1/3}$	2.627	—
V-SIA recombination	$4\sqrt{3}\pi$	21.77	—
<i>Dislocation sink:</i>			
Network dislocation density	ρ_d	10^{13} – 10^{14}	m^{-2}
Interstitial bias factor	Z_i^d	1.02–1.15	—
Vacancy bias factor	Z_v^d	1.00	—
<i>Grain-boundary sink:</i>			
Grain diameter	d_g	5–20	μm
Bias factors	$Z_i^{gb} = Z_v^{gb}$	1.00	—
<i>Precipitate sink:</i>			
Mean precipitate radius	r_p	10–50	nm
Precipitate number density	N_p	10^{20} – 10^{21}	m^{-3}
Bias factors	$Z_i^p = Z_v^p$	1.00	—
<i>Mobility cutoffs:</i>			
Max mobile SIA cluster	i_{mobile}	100	SIAs
Max mobile vacancy cluster	v_{mobile}	5	vacancies
<i>He state-space parameters:</i>			
Max He loading parameter	α_{He}	1.5–2.0	—
$\ell_{\text{max}}(m) = \lfloor \alpha_{\text{He}} m^{2/3} \rfloor$			(trap-mutation limit)
Re-solution parameter (fission)	b_0	10^{-2}	$\text{dpa}^{-1}/\text{He}$
Re-solution parameter (fusion)	b_0	10^{-1}	$\text{dpa}^{-1}/\text{He}$
<i>Size grid (user-defined):</i>			
Max SIA cluster tracked	N	user input	—
Max vacancy cluster tracked	M	user input	—
Max He per cluster	L	user input	—
Grouping transition size	n_{group}	~50–200	—

Table E.24: RADCLUSTER cluster-mobility input parameters. Single-defect values appear in Table E.25; this table covers size-dependent cluster diffusion. SIA clusters glide in 1D as $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops; vacancy clusters migrate in 3D with size-increasing barriers.

Quantity	Symbol	Adopted	Units	Literature range / source
<i>SIA-cluster 1D glide ($n \geq 4$, $D_n^{1D} = \frac{3a^2\nu_0}{2n^{s_i}} \exp(-E_m^{1D}/k_B T)$):</i>				
Glide migration energy	E_m^{1D}	0.03	eV	$\lesssim 0.05$ [61]
Attempt frequency	ν_0^{1D}	6×10^{12}	s ⁻¹	[61]
Size exponent	s_i	0.7	—	0.5–1.0
Mobility cutoff	i_{mobile}	100	SIAs	—
<i>Small-cluster SIA migration (size-resolved, for reference):</i>				
$n = 1$ ($\langle 110 \rangle$ dumbbell), 3D	E_m	0.34	eV	[52]
$n = 2$ (parallel $\langle 110 \rangle$), 3D	E_m	0.42	eV	[52]
$n = 3$ (3D/1D transition)	E_m	0.15–0.20	eV	—
$n \geq 4$ ($\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loop, 1D)	E_m^{1D}	$\lesssim 0.05$	eV	[61]
<i>Vacancy-cluster diffusion ($D_{(-m,0)} = D_v m^{-s_v}$, $m \leq v_{\text{mobile}}$):</i>				
Size exponent	s_v	1.0	—	—
Mobility cutoff	v_{mobile}	5	vacancies	—
$m = 1$ (monovacancy), 3D	E_m	0.67	eV	0.65–0.70 [52, 56, 111]
$m = 2$ (divacancy), 3D	E_m	0.70	eV	0.62–0.75 [94, 95]
$m = 3$ (trivacancy, fast), 3D	E_m	0.42	eV	0.35–0.50 [94, 98]
$m = 4$ –5 (weakly mobile)	E_m	0.7–1.1	eV	[94]
$m \geq 6$ (immobile sink)	—	$D = 0$	—	[94]
<i>Mixed 1D/3D transport (EUROFER):</i>				
Mean free path	$\hat{L} = L/a$	30–100	—	—
1D/3D interpolation constant	B_{rot}	2.627	—	—

Table E.25: RADCLUSTER point-defect diffusion and energetics input parameters for bcc Fe / EUROFER. The Adopted column gives the single value used in the code; the Literature range / source column records the supporting data. Effective EUROFER diffusivities follow $D_{\alpha}^{\text{eff}} = D_{\alpha}^{\text{Fe}} / (1 + \sum_s K_s c_s)$ with $K_s = z_s \exp(E_b^s / k_B T)$ (solute trapping in Table C.22).

Quantity	Symbol	Adopted	Units	Literature range / source
<i>Lattice and elastic constants:</i>				
Lattice constant	a	0.2867	nm	[49]
Atomic volume	$\Omega = a^3/2$	1.18×10^{-29}	m ³	—
Burgers vector ($\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$)	b_{111}	0.2482	nm	—
Burgers vector ($\langle 100 \rangle$)	b_{100}	0.2867	nm	—
Shear modulus (RT)	μ	82	GPa	—
Poisson ratio	ν	0.29	—	—
Surface energy	γ_s	2.0	J/m ²	—
<i>Vacancy:</i>				
Formation energy	E_f^v	2.0	eV	—
Migration energy	E_m^v	0.67	eV	0.55–0.70 [52, 56, 95]
Attempt frequency	ν_v	1.0×10^{13}	s ⁻¹	6×10^{12} – 6×10^{13} [53, 112]
Pure-Fe diffusion prefactor	D_0^v	8.2×10^{-8}	m ² /s	—
Divacancy binding (2NN)	E_B^{2v}	0.22	eV	—
Divacancy migration	E_m^{2v}	0.70	eV	0.62–0.75 [94, 95]
<i>Self-interstitial ($\langle 110 \rangle$ dumbbell):</i>				
Formation energy	E_f^i	3.64	eV	—
Migration energy (T-R)	E_m^i	0.34	eV	[52, 57]
Attempt frequency	ν_i	1.0×10^{13}	s ⁻¹	$\sim 4 \times 10^{12}$ [52, 57, 71]
Pure-Fe diffusion prefactor	D_0^i	8.2×10^{-8}	m ² /s	—
Di-SIA binding	E_B^{2i}	0.80	eV	—
Di-SIA migration	E_m^{2i}	0.42	eV	[52]
<i>Interstitial helium (tetrahedral):</i>				
Migration energy	E_m^h	0.06	eV	0.06–0.09 [64]
Attempt frequency	ν_h	3.0×10^{12}	s ⁻¹	10^{12} – 3×10^{12} [65]
Pure-Fe diffusion prefactor	$D_0^h = a^2 \nu_h$	2.5×10^{-8}	m ² /s	—
He–vacancy binding (1st He)	E_b^{h-V}	2.30	eV	[64, 65]
He–vacancy binding (2nd He)	$E_b^{h-V_2}$	2.00	eV	[64]
He–divacancy binding	E_b^{h-V}	2.5–2.8	eV	[102]
He trapping coordination	z_V^h	6	—	—
<i>He equation of state (virial coefficients, 600–1000 K):</i>				
Second virial coefficient	B_2	1.67×10^{-29}	m ³ /atom	—
Third virial coefficient	B_3	1.84×10^{-58}	m ⁶ /atom ²	—

Table E.26: Dissociation / binding energy input parameters for EUROFER cluster dynamics: vacancy binding to voids and bubbles, and point-defect binding to dislocation loops.

Parameter	Symbol	Value	Units
<i>Void (vacancy cluster) binding — vacancy emission:</i>			
Vacancy formation energy	E_f^v	2.0	eV
Surface energy	γ_s	2.0	J/m ²
Divacancy binding (DFT)	$E_b^v(2)$	0.22	eV
Atomistic–continuum decay constant	λ	0.5756	vac ^{−1}
Atomistic–continuum anchor size	$\alpha_{1/2}$	10	vacancies
<i>Bubble — vacancy binding (Eq. B.18):</i>			
He–vacancy binding (1st He in V_1)	$E_B^V(1, 1)$	2.30	eV
Fitting amplitude $A(m = 0)$	$A(0)$	1.2353	eV
Fitting amplitude $A(m = 1)$	$A(1)$	2.9064	eV
Fitting amplitude $A(m = 2)$	$A(2)$	3.4147	eV
Fitting amplitude $A(m = 3)$	$A(3)$	2.1504	eV
Fitting amplitude $A(m = 4)$	$A(4)$	−0.1590	eV
<i>Vacancy loop binding:</i>			
Stacking fault energy	γ_{sf}	0.6	J/m ²
Core radius	r_c	$b/3$	—
Divacancy binding anchor	$E_b(2)$	0.22	eV
Decay constant	λ	0.575	vac ^{−1}
<i>Interstitial loop binding (power-law fit, $n \leq 25$):</i>			
$\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loop: A	A_{111}	0.7501	eV
$\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loop: B	B_{111}	0.3873	—
$\langle 100 \rangle$ loop: A	A_{100}	0.7160	eV
$\langle 100 \rangle$ loop: B	B_{100}	0.3581	—
Blending transition center	n_{tr}	25	SIAs
Blending transition width	σ_{tr}	5	SIAs

Table E.27: Helium binding energy model parameters for bubbles (Eq. B.25). The continuum term uses the He solution energy, the thermal de Broglie wavelength, and the virial coefficients from Table E.26. The atomistic correction decays exponentially with m .

Parameter	Symbol	Value	Units
<i>Continuum He binding (Eq. B.24):</i>			
He interstitial solution energy	E_s^{He}	2.35	eV
He atomic mass	m_{He}	4.0026	amu
He virial B_2	B_2	1.67×10^{-29}	m^3/atom
He virial B_3	B_3	1.84×10^{-58}	m^6/atom^2
<i>Atomistic-continuum blending (Eq. B.25):</i>			
Decay constant	μ	0.658	He^{-1}
Fitting amplitude $A^{\text{He}}(\alpha = 2)$	$A^{\text{He}}(2)$	0.55	eV
Fitting amplitude $A^{\text{He}}(\alpha = 3)$	$A^{\text{He}}(3)$	0.40	eV
Fitting amplitude $A^{\text{He}}(\alpha = 4)$	$A^{\text{He}}(4)$	0.75	eV

Table E.28: Trap mutation (Frenkel pair emission) parameters for EUROFER cluster dynamics. Trap mutation is the reaction $\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha \rightarrow \text{He}_m\text{V}_{\alpha+1} + \text{SIA}$, with rate $\Gamma_{\text{TM}} = \nu_0 \exp(-E_{\text{TM}}/k_B T)$. Self-trapping refers to the $\alpha = 0$ case (pure interstitial He cluster). Values from [59], [104], [67], and [109].

Parameter	Symbol	Value	Units
<i>Trap mutation rate: $\Gamma_{\text{TM}} = \nu_0 \exp(-E_{\text{TM}}/k_B T)$</i>			
Attempt frequency	ν_0	1.0×10^{12}	s^{-1}
<i>Activation barriers $E_{\text{TM}}(\alpha, m)$ for $\text{He}_m\text{V}_\alpha$ in bcc Fe:</i>			
He_5V_1	$E_{\text{TM}}(1, 5)$	~ 1.0	eV
He_6V_1	$E_{\text{TM}}(1, 6)$	~ 0.5	eV
He_7V_1	$E_{\text{TM}}(1, 7)$	~ 0 (spontaneous)	eV
<i>Self-trapping barriers ($\alpha = 0$, pure He clusters):</i>			
He_4	$E_{\text{TM}}(0, 4)$	~ 0.3	eV
He_5	$E_{\text{TM}}(0, 5)$	~ 0.1	eV
He_6	$E_{\text{TM}}(0, 6)$	~ 0 (spontaneous)	eV
<i>Maximum He loading (trap-mutation limit):</i>			
He/V ratio parameter	α_{He}	1.5–2.0	—
$\ell_{\text{max}}(\alpha) = \lfloor \alpha_{\text{He}} \alpha^{2/3} \rfloor$			
<i>Competition criterion:</i>			
He emission dominates if $E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m) < E_{\text{TM}}(\alpha, m)$			
Trap mutation dominates if $E_{\text{TM}}(\alpha, m) < E_B^{\text{He}}(\alpha, m)$			
In bcc Fe: trap mutation wins at $\text{He}/\text{V} \gtrsim 1.3\text{--}1.7$ for $\alpha \leq 4$			

Appendix F. Parameter Identification Algorithm

The two-fidelity emulator of stage (ii) is constructed and queried as follows. The procedure is written so that each step maps directly onto a callable routine in the calibration code; symbols follow the notation of the proposed workflow above.

Inputs.. Parameter bounds $\{[\theta_i^{\min}, \theta_i^{\max}]\}_{i=1}^p$ for the $p \approx 10$ –12 screened parameters; condition grid $\{(T_k, d_k)\}$ of temperatures and target doses; low-fidelity dose cap $d_{\text{LF}} \approx 0.1$ dpa and coarse bin-moment resolution n_{LF} ; high-fidelity dose cap $d_{\text{HF}} \approx 100$ dpa and full bin resolution n_{HF} ; low- and high-fidelity design sizes $N_{\text{LF}} \gg N_{\text{HF}}$; verified integrator tolerances (rtol, atol) held fixed at both fidelities.

1. **Low-fidelity design.** Draw N_{LF} points $\{\boldsymbol{\theta}^{(j)}\}$ from a space-filling Sobol sequence over the bounded parameter box and rescale each coordinate to its physical range.
2. **Low-fidelity runs.** For every design point, integrate RADCLUSTER with a resolution n_{LF} to dose d_{LF} under tolerances (rtol, atol), and record the early-time identifiable observables $\mathbf{y}_{\text{LF}}^{(j)}$ (incipient loop number density, He-stabilized bubble density, and mean size). Discard and flag any run that fails the tolerance check rather than relaxing it.
3. **High-fidelity subset.** Select N_{HF} design points as a maximin subset of the low-fidelity design so that the expensive runs remain space-filling and nested within the cheaper ones.
4. **High-fidelity runs.** For each selected point, integrate at full resolution n_{HF} to d_{HF} , capturing the cavity bifurcation and supercritical void swelling, and record the full observable vector $\mathbf{y}_{\text{HF}}^{(j)}$ and size distributions.
5. **Transform.** Map all density observables to log space and standardize every output channel to zero mean and unit variance; store the transform parameters for later inversion.
6. **Fit low-fidelity GP.** Train a Gaussian process $\widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{LF}}(\boldsymbol{\theta})$ on $\{(\boldsymbol{\theta}^{(j)}, \mathbf{y}_{\text{LF}}^{(j)})\}$ with an anisotropic Matérn-5/2 kernel; optimize length scales and noise by maximizing the marginal likelihood.

7. **Fit discrepancy GP.** At the high-fidelity points, evaluate $\mu_{\text{LF}}^{(j)} = \widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{LF}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}^{(j)})$ and form the autoregressive residual $r^{(j)} = \mathbf{y}_{\text{HF}}^{(j)} - \rho \mu_{\text{LF}}^{(j)}$. Train a second GP $\delta(\boldsymbol{\theta})$ on $\{(\boldsymbol{\theta}^{(j)}, r^{(j)})\}$ and estimate the scaling ρ jointly with the discrepancy hyperparameters by marginal likelihood.
8. **Assemble predictor.** Define the fused high-fidelity emulator

$$\widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{HF}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \rho \widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{LF}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) + \delta(\boldsymbol{\theta}), \quad \sigma_{\text{HF}}^2(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \rho^2 \sigma_{\text{LF}}^2(\boldsymbol{\theta}) + \sigma_{\delta}^2(\boldsymbol{\theta}),$$

returning both the mean prediction and its predictive variance in the standardized log space.

9. **Validate.** On held-out high-fidelity runs, check that the standardized prediction errors have unit-variance and that nominal coverage of the predictive intervals is achieved; if coverage fails, increase N_{HF} and return to step 4.
10. **Serve to calibration.** Expose a function that accepts $\boldsymbol{\theta}$, returns $(\widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{HF}}, \sigma_{\text{HF}}^2)$ in physical units (inverting the transform of step 5), and adds σ_{HF}^2 to the measurement and discrepancy variances in the likelihood of Eq. (55).
11. **Active refinement.** After each calibration pass, place the next high-fidelity run at the $\boldsymbol{\theta}$ that maximizes expected posterior-variance reduction per unit predicted CPU cost, append it to the high-fidelity set, and refit from step 7.

The output is the calibrated posterior, together with a propagated predictive uncertainty in which the dose-extrapolation error is carried by the high-fidelity discrepancy term $\delta(\boldsymbol{\theta})$ rather than by an uncontrolled polynomial fit.

Appendix G. The experimental microstructure database

Appendix G.1. Data sources and trend analysis

The database

The comparison data are collected in a workbook, `RadiationDatabase.xlsx`, whose five measurement sheets (`Neutron_DislocLoops`, `Ion_DislocLoops`, `Neutron_Voids_Swelling`, `Ion_Voids_Swelling`, and `Ion_He_Bubbles`) contribute 68 measurement rows drawn from 38 publications. The alloys span the reduced-activation ferritic/martensitic (RAFM) grades EUROFER97 and EUROFER-ODS, F82H, CLAM, and RUSFER-EK-181; the conventional ferritic/martensitic grades T91, T92, NF616/Gr. 92, HT9, and HCM12A; the oxide-dispersion-strengthened variants 14YWT, 14.5Cr-ODS, 14.5Cr-3.5Al(Zr)-ODS, and the Y-Ti/Y-Al/Y-Al-Zr ODS series; and the model alloys Fe-9Cr, Fe-9Cr-C, Fe-12Cr, and pure iron. Each row carries a mean feature diameter, a feature number density, a dose, an irradiation temperature, the irradiation source, and, for loops, the dominant Burgers vector.

Every point plotted in this section is labeled with the number of the paper in which it was measured (Table G.29), so points sharing a source also share a label across every panel. Those numbers are properties of the source, not of the row: a paper contributing four rows carries the same number four times. A row is assigned to the neutron or ion population by the irradiation source it reports, not by the sheet in which it is stored. One entry in the neutron cavity sheet (source 17, EUROFER97 at 26 dpa) is, in fact, a dual-beam Fe^{3+} experiment included there for comparison and is treated throughout as an ion irradiation.

Neutron-equivalent temperature

Charged-particle irradiations run at damage rates two to four orders of magnitude above a fission or fusion neutron spectrum. At a fixed temperature, the higher rate leaves less time per dpa for thermally activated evolution, so an ion experiment reproduces the microstructure of a neutron experiment carried out at a *lower* temperature. Following the standard temperature-shift argument, all ion-irradiation temperatures are moved onto a neutron-equivalent axis,

$$T_{\text{eq}} = T + \Delta T, \quad \Delta T = -60 \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C} \quad (\text{ion irradiation only}), \quad (\text{G.1})$$

and neutron and spallation temperatures are left unshifted. Every abscissa in this section is the T_{eq} of Eq. (G.1). The shift is a single declared constant

(T_SHIFT_ION); setting it to zero recovers the raw temperatures and changes no conclusions below because neutron and ion data are never fitted together.

The fitted model and its uncertainties

Both number densities and mean diameters are positive, span decades, and scatter multiplicatively. The model used throughout is therefore log-linear, with a group-dependent intercept and a slope shared by the groups of a panel,

$$\ln y = a + \sum_g c_g \delta_g + bx, \quad x = T_{\text{eq}} \text{ (K)} \quad \text{or} \quad x = 1000/T_{\text{eq}} \text{ (K}^{-1}\text{)}, \quad (\text{G.2})$$

where y is a number density $N \text{ (m}^{-3}\text{)}$ or a mean diameter $\bar{d} \text{ (nm)}$, δ_g is the indicator of group g , and c_g is its intercept offset relative to the reference group ($c_g = 0$ for the reference). A first-order (single-slope) form is kept deliberately: with samples this small and this scattered, a more flexible model—a higher-order polynomial, a spline, or a separate slope per group—can only lower the residual scatter by tracking noise, and a fit that tracks noise predicts new points worse even as its in-sample R^2 improves. The relevant target is therefore expected out-of-sample error, not goodness of fit, and the parsimonious model is the one that minimizes it [113, 114]; each added term is retained only where it lowers that error rather than merely the residual. The log-linear form is moreover the physically expected one on these axes: the microstructural quantities are set by thermally activated processes—diffusion, emission, and nucleation—whose rates follow Arrhenius kinetics, so a straight line in $1000/T_{\text{eq}}$ is the signature of a single dominant activation energy and its slope b is that energy through $E_{\text{eff}} = -1000 b k_{\text{B}}$. Curvature would signal a change of controlling mechanism across the temperature range and would need a mechanistic justification, not merely additional fit parameters; the straight line is thus the null model both statistically and physically, and is retained until the data force otherwise. The corresponding probability model is log-normal with a temperature-dependent median and geometric standard deviation (GSD),

$$y \mid x \sim \text{Lognormal}\left(a + \sum_g c_g \delta_g + bx, s^2\right), \quad \text{GSD} = e^s, \quad (\text{G.3})$$

so that a factor e^{2s} either side of the fitted line is an approximate 95 % prediction interval. That band, not R^2 , is the quantity to compare a simulation

against: it is drawn as the shaded region on every panel. Reported for each fit are the coefficients with their standard errors, the residual variance s^2 in $\ln y$ and the multiplicative scatter $\text{GSD} = e^s$ about the fit, R^2 and adjusted R^2 , the small-sample information criterion AIC_c (the Akaike information criterion with the finite-sample correction, $\text{AIC}_c = -2 \ln \hat{L} + 2k + 2k(k+1)/(n-k-1)$ for a fit with k parameters and n points and maximized likelihood $\hat{L}$; the terms in k penalize added parameters, so a lower AIC_c indicates the model expected to predict best out of sample), the leave-one-out (LOO) root-mean-square prediction error in $\ln y$, and — on the $1000/T_{\text{eq}}$ panels — the effective activation energy obtained from $y = y_0 \exp(-E_{\text{eff}}/k_{\text{B}}T)$, i.e. $E_{\text{eff}} = -1000 b k_{\text{B}}$.

Data Grouping

Pooling every irradiation type into one fit is not defensible for this database. The alloy set, the dose range, the damage rate, and the He/dpa ratio all differ systematically between neutron and ion experiments, and Figure G.11 shows the consequence: the two populations occupy different and only partially overlapping regions of the $(T_{\text{eq}}, \text{dose})$ plane. Neutron data reach down to 333 K but stop at 35 dpa; ion data start at 513 K and reach 650 dpa. A slope fitted across both is a slope fitted partly across the difference between them. Sections Appendix G.2 and Appendix G.3 therefore fit the two separately and never pool them.

Within each irradiation type, further groupings are treated as hypotheses and tested rather than assumed. The candidates are the He-bubble/void distinction, dose thresholds at 10, 15, 20 and 30 dpa, $\ln(\text{dose})$ as a continuous covariate, an ODS flag, the coarse alloy family (9Cr F/M, 12Cr F/M, ODS, pure Fe) and the nominal Cr content. Each is compared with the plain T_{eq} -only model by (i) the LOO prediction error, which cannot be lowered by fitting noise, (ii) AIC_c , and (iii) a nested F test. A grouping is adopted in a figure only if it lowers the LOO error; where nothing does, a single line is fitted and the grouping is used for marker color alone. The full ranking for all eight panels is given in Table G.30.

Two exclusions apply to every fit. Rows without a reported dose cannot enter a dose-grouped model without inventing a value, so they are plotted in gray and excluded from the fit. Spallation rows (SINQ, mixed $n + p + \alpha$) are plotted on the neutron panels because spallation is a neutron-spectrum irradiation but are never fitted: there are at most two per panel, and their He/dpa ratio, ~ 90 appm He/dpa, is an order of magnitude above any fission

spectrum.

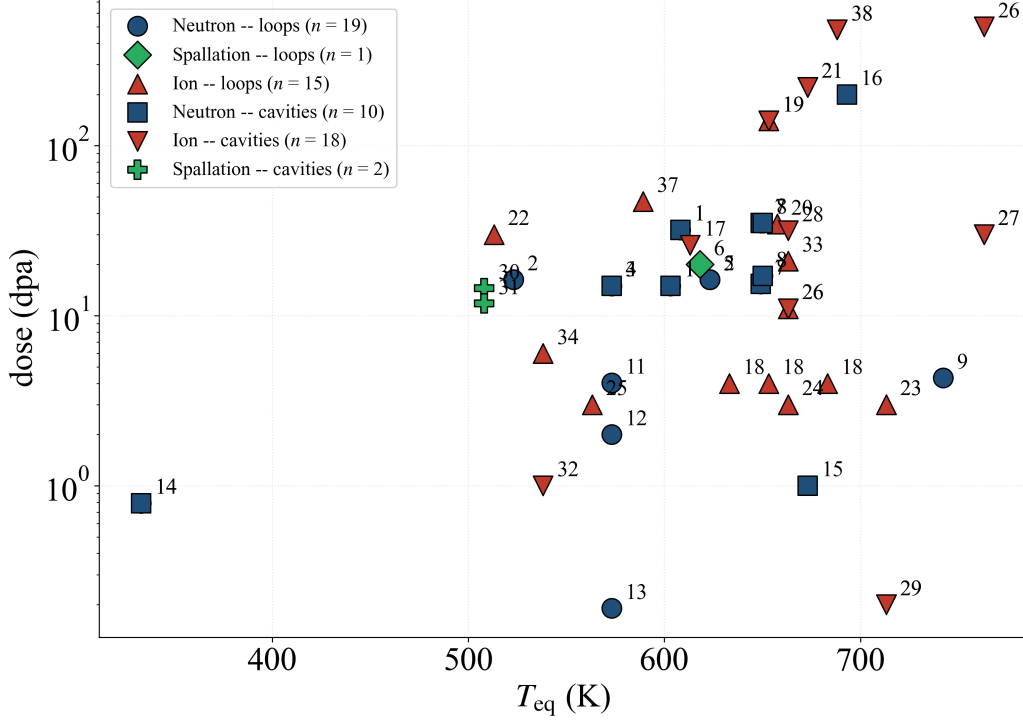


Figure G.11: Coverage of the $(T_{\text{eq}}, \text{dose})$ plane by the database. Color encodes the irradiation class and marker shape the defect population; each point carries the number of the paper it was measured in (Table G.29). Neutron and ion data occupy different regions — the neutron set extends to 333 K but only to 35 dpa, the ion set begins at 513 K and reaches 650 dpa — which is why the two are fitted separately throughout this section.

Appendix G.2. Neutron irradiation

The neutron set comprises 19 loop rows and 7 fitted cavity rows (plus one loop and two cavity rows from spallation, plotted but not fitted), covering $T_{\text{eq}} = 333\text{--}742$ K and $0.19\text{--}35.1$ dpa, in EUROFER97, EUROFER-ODS, F82H, T91, HT9, Fe-9Cr and pure Fe.

Appendix G.2.1. Loop number density

Figure G.12 presents the loop number density on the Arrhenius axis. The result is a negative one: over 400 K of temperature, the fitted slope is $b = -9.3 \times 10^{-4} \pm 3.6 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$ ($t = -0.26$, $R^2 = 0.004$), and the

Table G.29: Sources of the database rows. The number in the first column is the label carried by every point measured in that paper, in every figure of this section. A dagger marks an entry whose first author differs from the workbook’s author–year key (the key is retained because the database is indexed on it); an asterisk marks an entry for which no published paper could be matched, and for which no citation is therefore given.

#	Source	Reference	#	Source	Reference
1	Klimenkov 2012 [†]	JNM 426 (2012) 52	20	Toloczko 2024*	—
2	Gaganidze 2011	JNM 417 (2011) 93	21	Getto 2015	JNM 465 (2015) 116
3	Gaganidze 2016 [†]	NME 9 (2016) 471	22	Ando 2018*	—
4	Dethloff 2016	NME 9 (2016) 471	23	Swenson & Wharry 2018	JNM 502 (2018) 30
5	Klimenkov 2017	JNM 493 (2017) 426	24	Jiang 2024*	—
6	Wan 2010*	—	25	Boulanger & Serruys 2009	JNM 386–388 (2009) 441
7	Gao 2018 [†]	JNM 504 (2018) 122	26	Liu 2023*	—
8	Gao 2019 [†]	JNM 523 (2019) 421	27	Song 2018	JNM 502 (2018) 76
9	Zhong 2021	JNM 552 (2021) 153001	28	Wakai 2002	JNM 307–311 (2002) 278
10	Zhong 2024	JNM 593 (2024) 154990	29	Yutani 2007	J. ASTM Int. 4 (2007) JAI100701
11	Yan 2021	JNM 557 (2021) 153207	30	Dai 2004*	—
12	Lambrecht 2014 [†]	JNM 533 (2020) 152130	31	Jia 2005	JNM 343 (2005) 212
13	Lambrecht 2009	JNM 385 (2009) 334	32	Schroeder & Trinkaus 1986 [†]	JNM 141–143 (1986) 723
14	Eldrup 1999	JNM 271–272 (1999) 97	33	Auger 2019 [†]	JNM 528 (2020) 151852
15	English 1982	JNM 108–109 (1982) 222	34	Rogozhkin 2020	Inorg. Mater. Appl. Res. 11 (2020) 359
16	Gelles 1990s*	—	35	Gilbon 1988	JNM 155–157 (1988) 1268
17	Rouffié 2014	HAL cea-02383837	36	Konstantinovic 2021 [†]	JNM 545 (2021) 152724
18	Zheng 2018	Phil. Mag. 98 (2018) 2440	37	Was 2025	JNM 616 (2025) 156065
19	Toloczko 2015 [†]	JNM 462 (2015) 458	38	Lee 2021*	—

Arrhenius form gives $E_{\text{eff}} = -0.044 \pm 0.074$ eV — consistent with zero. None of the eight candidate groupings lowers the LOO error meaningfully: the best, a dose threshold at 15 dpa, reaches $\text{LOO} = 1.318$ against 1.368 for the temperature-only model at $p = 0.09$. The summary of this panel is, therefore, a distribution rather than a trend:

$$N_{\ell}^{(n)} = 5.2 \times 10^{21} \text{ m}^{-3}, \quad \text{GSD} = 3.3, \quad (\text{G.4})$$

i.e., two thirds of all reported neutron loop densities lie between 1.6×10^{21} and $1.7 \times 10^{22} \text{ m}^{-3}$, and 95% within a factor $\text{GSD}^2 = 10.9$ of it. The spread is real and physical: it mixes alloys, doses from 0.19 to 35 dpa, four reactors and a range of TEM visibility thresholds, and the last of these alone can move a reported loop density by an order of magnitude. A cluster-dynamics calculation that lands anywhere inside Eq. (G.4) is consistent with the neutron database; the database cannot discriminate more finely than that.

Appendix G.2.2. Mean loop diameter

The loop size panel is the one place in the neutron data where a grouping is clearly justified. The coarse alloy family lowers the LOO error from 0.746

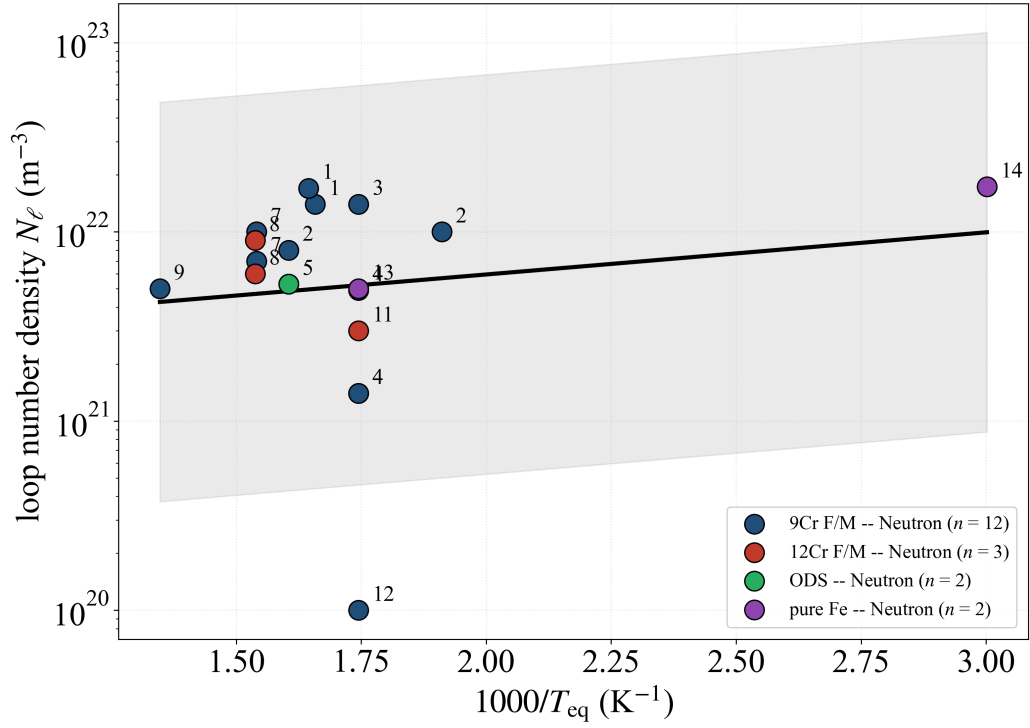


Figure G.12: Neutron-irradiation loop number density on the Arrhenius axis. The effective activation energy, $E_{\text{eff}} = -0.044 \pm 0.074$ eV, is consistent with zero: within the scatter of the pooled neutron database the loop number density carries no measurable thermal activation.

to 0.569 and the residual variance from $s^2 = 0.394$ to 0.178 — 55 % of the variance in $\ln \bar{d}$ removed — at a nested- F probability of $p = 0.0025$ (Table G.30). With a common slope $b = 2.82 \times 10^{-3} \pm 1.62 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$ the group offsets relative to 9Cr F/M are, in Figure G.13,

$$\begin{aligned} c_{12\text{Cr F/M}} &= +0.87 \pm 0.27 \quad (\times 2.4, t = +3.2), \\ c_{\text{ODS}} &= +1.19 \pm 0.32 \quad (\times 3.3, t = +3.7), \\ c_{\text{pure Fe}} &= +0.92 \pm 0.41 \quad (\times 2.5, t = +2.3), \end{aligned} \tag{G.5}$$

so at 600 K the fit predicts $\bar{d}_\ell \approx 6 \text{ nm}$ in 9Cr F/M steels against $\approx 14 \text{ nm}$ in 12Cr grades, $\approx 15 \text{ nm}$ in pure Fe and $\approx 20 \text{ nm}$ in the ODS variants, with a residual scatter of $\text{GSD} = 1.53$ about each line.

The ordering is physically coherent. In the 9Cr RAFM grades the high density of Cr, C and N solutes and of M_{23}C_6 interfaces traps migrating self-interstitial clusters and truncates their growth, giving a dense population of small loops; pure Fe, with none of that trapping, grows the same number of loops to larger size. The offsets should nevertheless be read with the confounding in mind: the ODS group is only two rows (EUROFER-ODS at 16.3 dpa, both at 623 K), and both were imaged in one study, so c_{ODS} carries the between-laboratory difference as well as the alloy effect. The slope itself is only 1.7σ from zero, so the temperature dependence of the mean loop diameter remains weakly determined even after grouping — what the grouping buys is a much tighter prediction band, not a better-resolved trend.

Appendix G.2.3. Cavity number density

The neutron cavity data are the sparsest panel in the database — seven fitted rows — and they produce the steepest apparent trend anywhere in this section: $b = -1.91 \times 10^{-2} \pm 3.4 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$ ($t = -5.6$, $R^2 = 0.863$), equivalently $E_{\text{eff}} = -0.364 \pm 0.053 \text{ eV}$ on the Arrhenius axis (Figure G.14). The fit predicts $5 \times 10^{23} \text{ m}^{-3}$ at 350 K falling to $4 \times 10^{21} \text{ m}^{-3}$ at 600 K.

That trend must not be quoted without its leverage caveat. Two of the seven rows are pure iron — Eldrup 1999 at 333 K, 0.79 dpa ($1 \times 10^{24} \text{ m}^{-3}$, a positron-annihilation measurement of nanovoids) and English 1982 at 673 K, 1 dpa — and they alone span 340 K of the 400 K lever arm. The remaining five rows are all F/M steels confined to 603–650 K, and fitted on their own they give $b = +2.3 \times 10^{-2} \text{ K}^{-1}$: the slope *reverses sign*. The apparent strong temperature dependence of the neutron cavity density is thus a statement

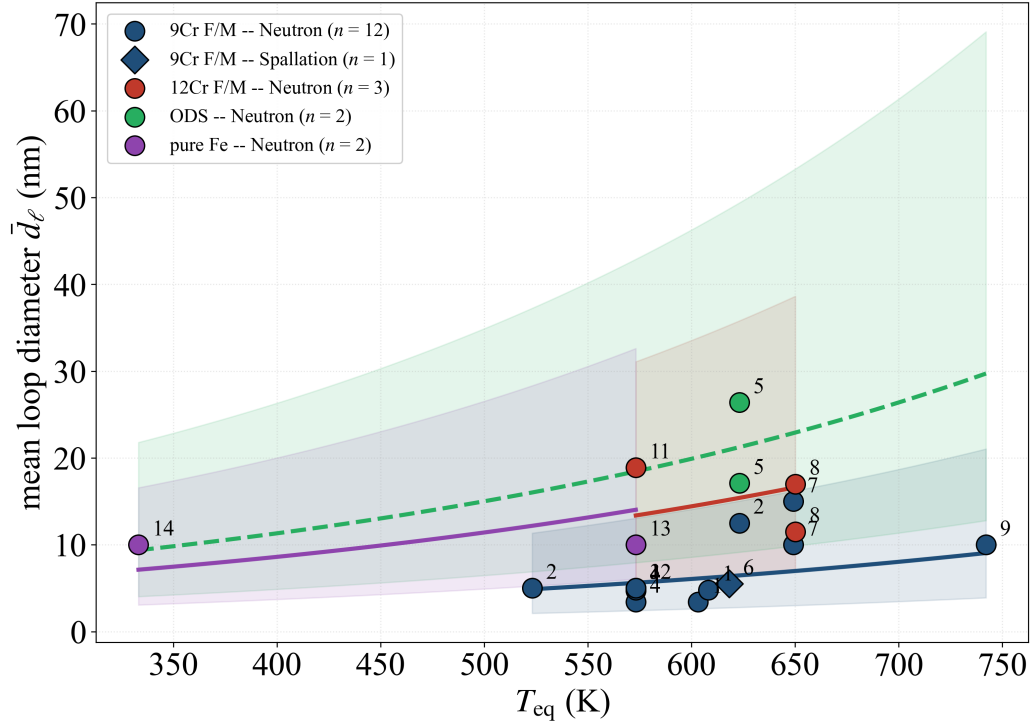


Figure G.13: Neutron-irradiation mean loop diameter against equivalent temperature, grouped by alloy family with a common temperature slope and group-specific intercepts. Bands are the $\pm 2s$ prediction bands of the common-slope model. The ODS line is dashed because both ODS rows were measured at the same temperature. The spallation point (source 6, diamond) is plotted but not fitted. Grouping by family removes 55% of the variance in $\ln \bar{d}$ ($p = 0.0025$).

about the difference between low-temperature pure iron and F/M steel at 600–650 K, not a temperature trend measured within either. Used as a validation target it constrains only the endpoints; within the F/M steel window the data support no more than a constant $\approx 2 \times 10^{21}$ – $6 \times 10^{21} \text{ m}^{-3}$.

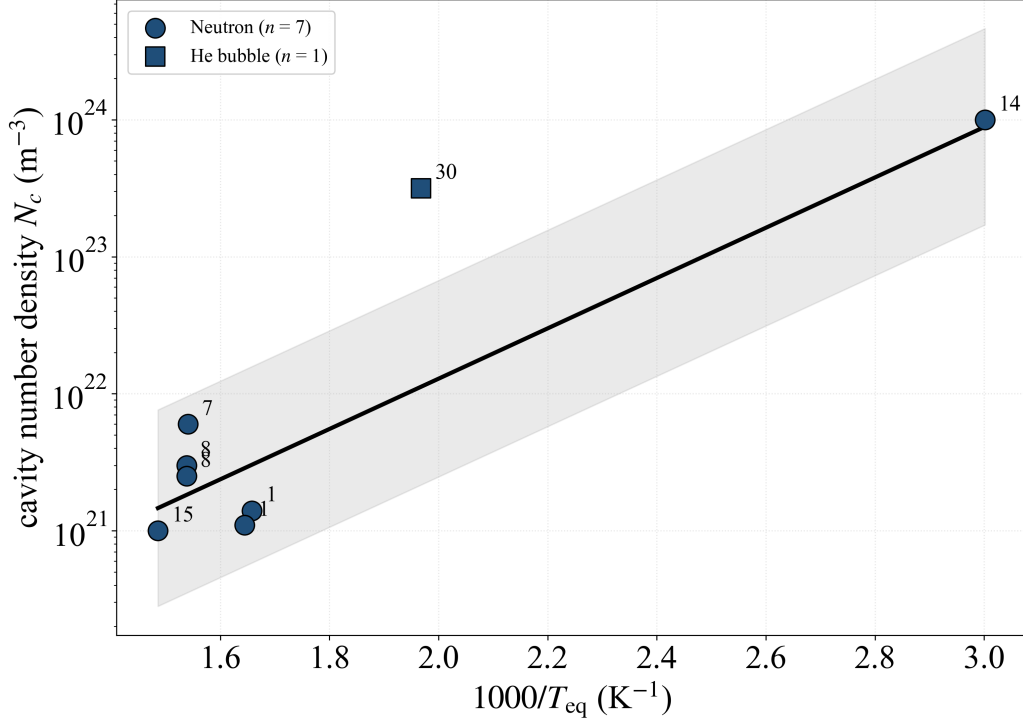


Figure G.14: Neutron-irradiation cavity number density on the Arrhenius axis, $E_{\text{eff}} = -0.364 \pm 0.053 \text{ eV}$. The same leverage caveat applies: the activation energy is set by the two pure-Fe endpoints.

Appendix G.2.4. Mean cavity diameter

The mean cavity diameter (Figure G.15) rises weakly with temperature, $b = 3.14 \times 10^{-3} \pm 1.28 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$ ($t = +2.5$, $R^2 = 0.545$, $\text{GSD} = 1.44$), giving $\bar{d}_c \approx 2.3 \text{ nm}$ at 600 K. Cavities in neutron-irradiated F/M steel below $\sim 700 \text{ K}$ are small and dense: every EUROFER97, T91 and HT9 entry is at or below 2.6 nm, several reported only as $< 2 \text{ nm}$, and the bimodal T91 and HT9 rows at 35 dpa report a dominant small population plus a sparse large one. A dose split at 15 dpa appears to fit this panel well ($s^2 = 0.018$, $R^2 = 0.951$), but it is not reported as a result: with seven points and the

split falling between rows at 15.0 and 15.4 dpa, the threshold was chosen by scanning, and the apparent gain is selection, not signal. As for the density, the trend is anchored by the pure-Fe rows — the five F/M rows alone give $R^2 = 0.194$ with a slope of opposite sign.

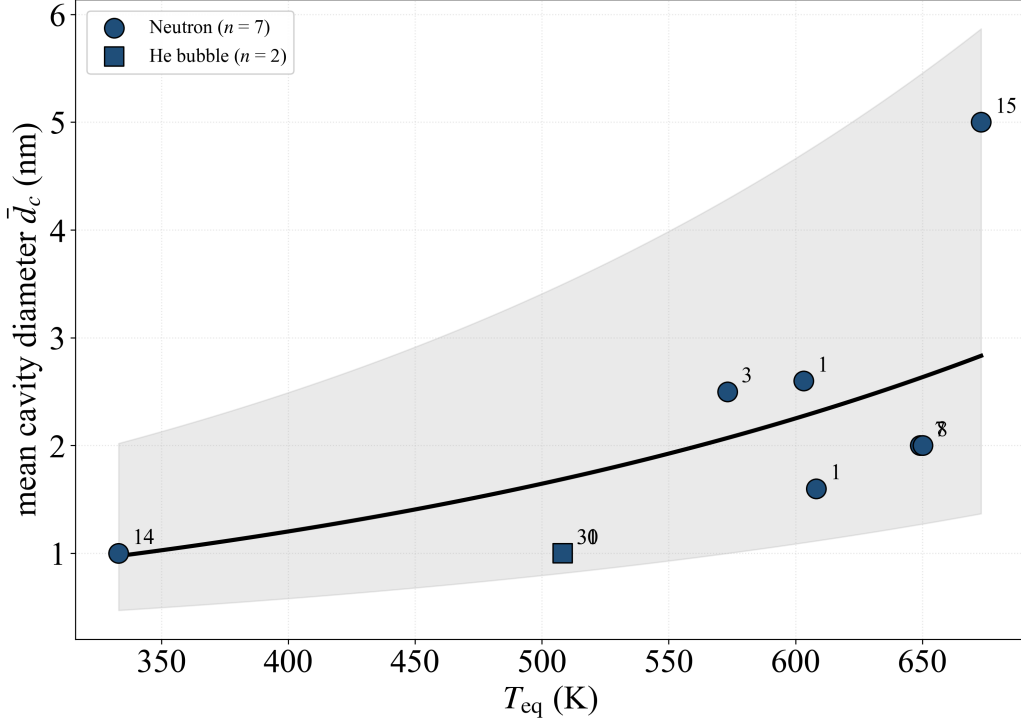


Figure G.15: Neutron-irradiation mean cavity diameter against equivalent temperature, with the log-linear fit and its $\pm 2s$ band. Spallation points (sources 30, 31) are plotted but not fitted. Cavities remain below ~ 3 nm throughout the F/M-steel window.

Appendix G.3. Ion irradiation

The ion set comprises 10 loop-density, 14 loop-size, 12 cavity-density, and 16 fitted cavity-size rows over $T_{eq} = 513\text{--}763$ K and 0.2–650 dpa. Its composition differs from the neutron set in three ways that matter for the fits: the temperature range is narrower and higher, the dose range is far wider, and roughly half the cavity rows are dual-beam or He-implantation experiments in which the measured feature is a helium bubble, not a void.

Appendix G.3.1. Loop number density

Unlike the neutron panel, the ion loop density does respond to a grouping — but to dose, not to alloy. Splitting at 15 dpa (Figure G.16) gives a common slope $b = -2.32 \times 10^{-3} \pm 3.19 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$, again indistinguishable from zero, and an intercept offset

$$c_{>15 \text{ dpa}} = -0.80 \pm 0.37 \quad (\times 0.45, t = -2.2), \quad (\text{G.6})$$

so the loop density above 15 dpa is about half that below it. This removes 32 % of the variance at $p = 0.067$ and lowers the LOO error from 0.545 to 0.454. Treating dose as a continuous covariate is marginally better still (LOO = 0.405, $p = 0.024$, $s^2 = 0.147$); the discrete split is shown in the figure because it is directly comparable with the other panels of this section, and both are reported in Table G.30.

A decreasing loop density with accumulated dose, at essentially constant loop size, is the signature of loop coarsening and of loop absorption into the dislocation network — exactly the saturation mechanism that the loop-network loss channel is intended to reproduce. It is worth noting how much tighter this panel is than its neutron counterpart: GSD = 1.55 about the fit against 3.4. Single-laboratory ion campaigns with consistent TEM protocols scatter far less than a database assembled from twenty neutron studies, which is an argument for using ion data to test trends and neutron data to test absolute levels.

Appendix G.3.2. Mean loop diameter

The ion loop size shows the complementary behavior: no temperature dependence at all ($b = -8.3 \times 10^{-5} \pm 1.78 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$, $t = -0.05$) but a clear dose dependence, with a split at 30 dpa giving

$$c_{>30 \text{ dpa}} = +0.84 \pm 0.30 \quad (\times 2.3, t = +2.8), \quad (\text{G.7})$$

37 % of the variance removed at $p = 0.016$ (Figure G.17). At 650 K the fit gives $\bar{d}_\ell \approx 5.6 \text{ nm}$ below 30 dpa and $\approx 13 \text{ nm}$ above it, with GSD = 1.47.

Taken with Eq. (G.6), the two ion loop panels describe a coarsening population: between the low- and high-dose groups the mean diameter roughly doubles while the number density roughly halves, so the loop line length $\sim N_\ell \bar{d}_\ell$ is approximately conserved. That is the quantitative statement a dose-resolved cluster-dynamics calculation should be asked to reproduce, and it is considerably more discriminating than either panel alone. The ODS flag, alloy family and Cr content are all rejected on this panel ($p \geq 0.16$).

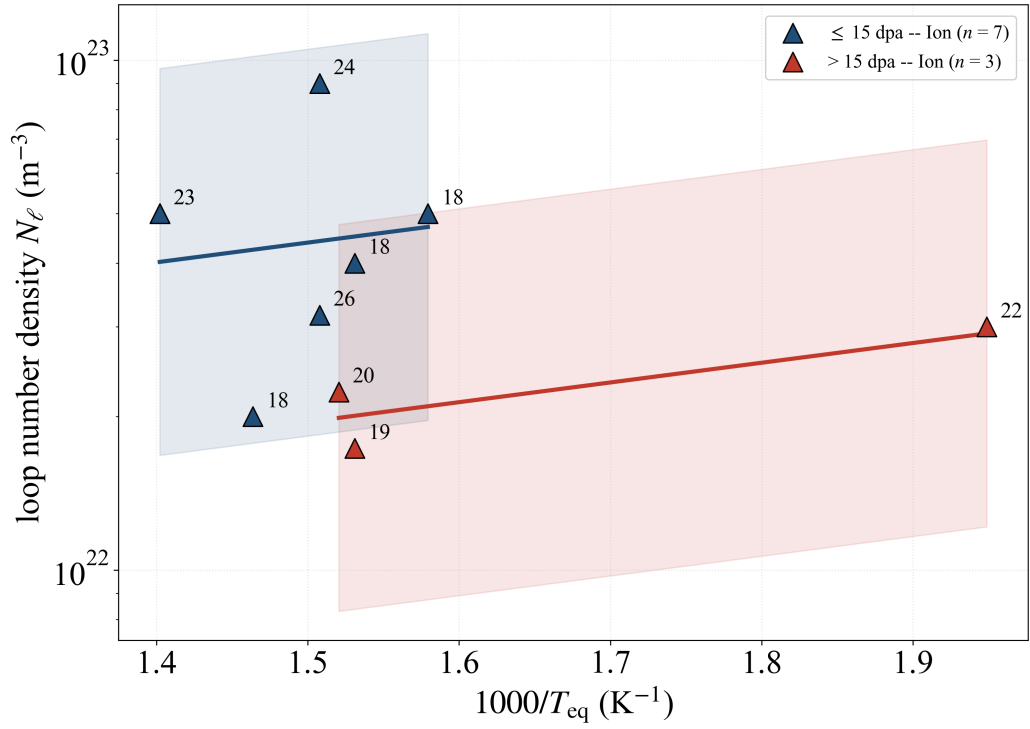


Figure G.16: Ion-irradiation loop number density on the Arrhenius axis, $E_{\text{eff}} = -0.077 \pm 0.099$ eV. The dose offset is unchanged ($\times 0.45$); the thermal activation is again consistent with zero.

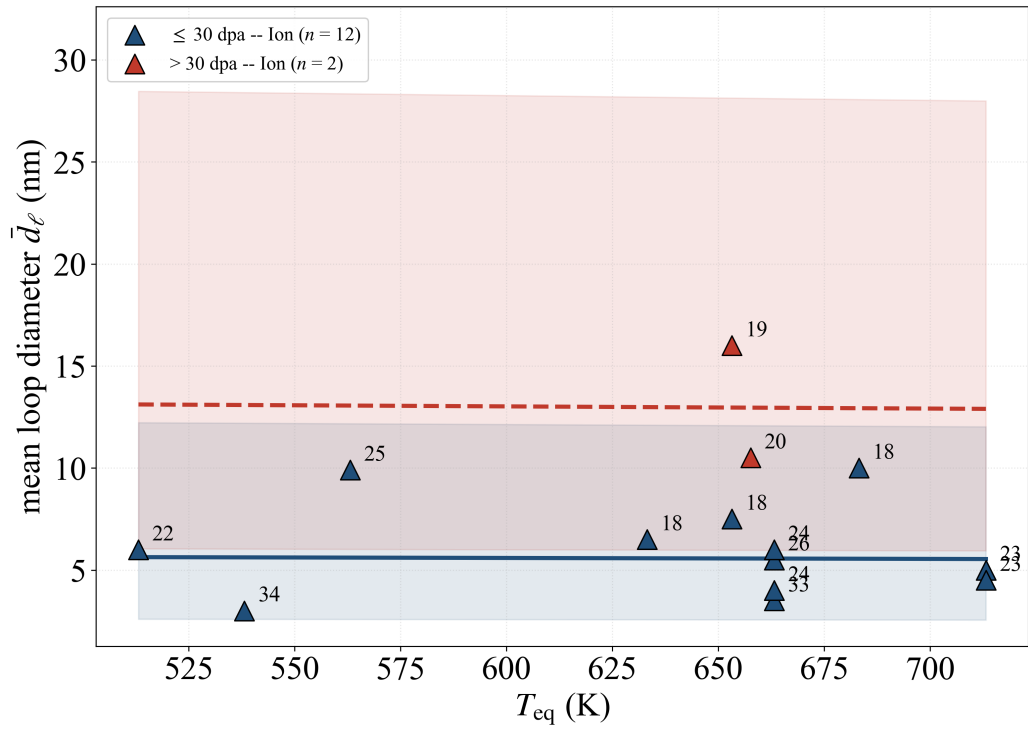


Figure G.17: Ion-irradiation mean loop diameter against equivalent temperature, grouped at 30 dpa. The mean diameter is a factor ≈ 2.3 larger above 30 dpa while the density (Figure G.16) is about half, i.e. the population coarsens at roughly conserved loop line length. The high-dose line is dashed: its two rows lie 6 K apart, so the offset is measured but the slope is borrowed from the low-dose group.

Appendix G.3.3. Cavity number density

This is the largest single reduction of scatter anywhere in the database, and it is a classification result rather than a fitting result. Separating helium bubbles from voids (Figure G.18) removes 78 % of the variance in $\ln N_c$ at $p = 0.0002$, taking s^2 from 3.08 to 0.665 and the LOO error from 1.846 to 0.918. The offset is enormous,

$$c_{\text{He bubble}} = +4.49 \pm 0.74 \quad (\times 89, t = +6.1), \quad (\text{G.8})$$

and the common slope is again indistinguishable from zero ($b = 1.49 \times 10^{-3} \pm 8.7 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$; on the Arrhenius axis, Figure G.18, $E_{\text{eff}} = +0.066 \pm 0.380 \text{ eV}$). Bubbles in the dual-beam and He-implantation experiments sit near $3 \times 10^{22} - 1 \times 10^{23} \text{ m}^{-3}$; voids in single-beam self-ion experiments sit near $1 \times 10^{20} - 1 \times 10^{21} \text{ m}^{-3}$. Nothing else — not the ODS flag, not the alloy family, not $\ln(\text{dose})$ alone — comes close.

The interpretation must be stated with its confounding. In this panel the six He-bubble rows are at 0.2, 0.2, 11, 30, 30 and 30 dpa and the six void rows are at 31.6, 140, 140, 220.8, 220.8 and 220.8 dpa: the partition “He bubble versus void” and the partition “dose ≤ 30 dpa versus > 30 dpa” are the *same six rows*, and the two models are numerically identical ($s^2 = 0.665$, LOO = 0.918 for both). This database therefore cannot separate the effect of helium from the effect of dose on the ion cavity density. Both readings are physically sensible — helium stabilizes a dense population of small bubbles against thermal dissociation, and the void number density falls as voids coarsen at high dose — and the two-order-of-magnitude offset is almost certainly both effects at once. A calculation reproducing the offset for the wrong reason would be indistinguishable here; disentangling them requires dose-matched bubble/void pairs that the database does not contain.

Appendix G.3.4. Mean cavity diameter

The ion cavity size panel contains 17 rows, one of which (source 35) reports no dose and is plotted but not fitted. Here the dose split and the bubble/void split are *not* the same partition, and the dose split is decisively better: at 30 dpa it removes 67 % of the variance ($s^2 : 0.735 \rightarrow 0.240$, LOO $0.946 \rightarrow 0.528$, $p = 0.0001$) against 45 % for the bubble/void split ($s^2 = 0.380$, LOO = 0.669, $p = 0.0027$). The dose-grouped fit (Figure G.19) gives a resolved positive slope $b = 4.01 \times 10^{-3} \pm 2.07 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$ and

$$c_{>30 \text{ dpa}} = +1.35 \pm 0.25 \quad (\times 3.9, t = +5.5), \quad (\text{G.9})$$

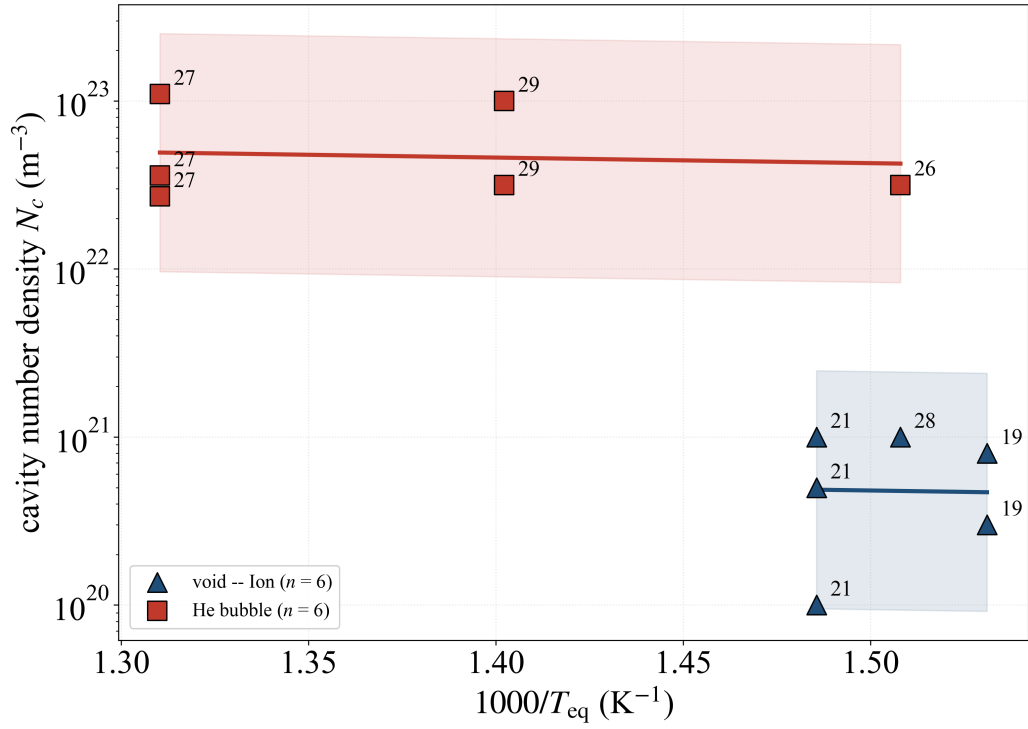


Figure G.18: Ion-irradiation cavity number density on the Arrhenius axis. The bubble/void offset is unchanged; the effective activation energy, $E_{\text{eff}} = +0.066 \pm 0.380$ eV, is entirely undetermined over the 110 K spanned by the ion cavity data.

i.e. $\bar{d}_c \approx 3.5$ nm below 30 dpa and ≈ 13.5 nm above it at 700 K. The bubble/void version of the same panel is shown in Figure G.20 for comparison: bubbles are a factor 0.33 smaller than voids, but the split leaves twice as much residual variance as the dose split, so on *size* the dominant variable is dose.

That asymmetry is itself informative. Cavity number density is controlled by whatever sets the nucleation site density — helium is the natural candidate — whereas cavity size is controlled by accumulated vacancy flux, i.e. by dose. The two ion cavity panels are therefore best used as a pair of independent constraints rather than as one.

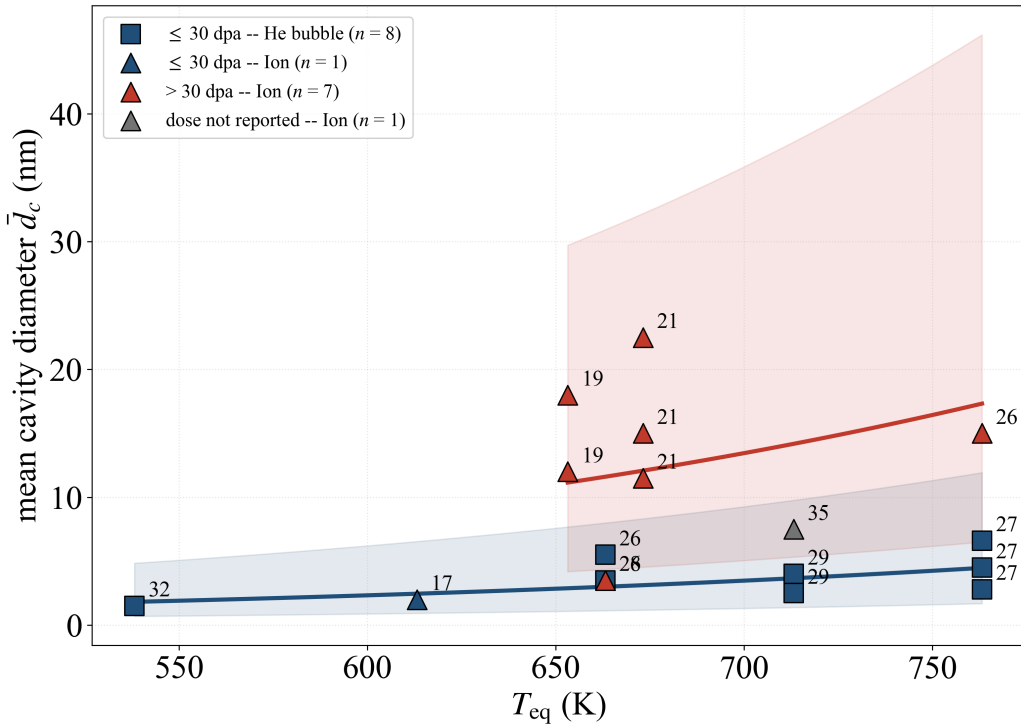


Figure G.19: Ion-irradiation mean cavity diameter against equivalent temperature, grouped at 30 dpa with a common slope. The gray point (source 35) reports no dose and is excluded from the fit. Unlike the density panel, the dose split and the bubble/void split are different partitions here, and the dose split is the better model.

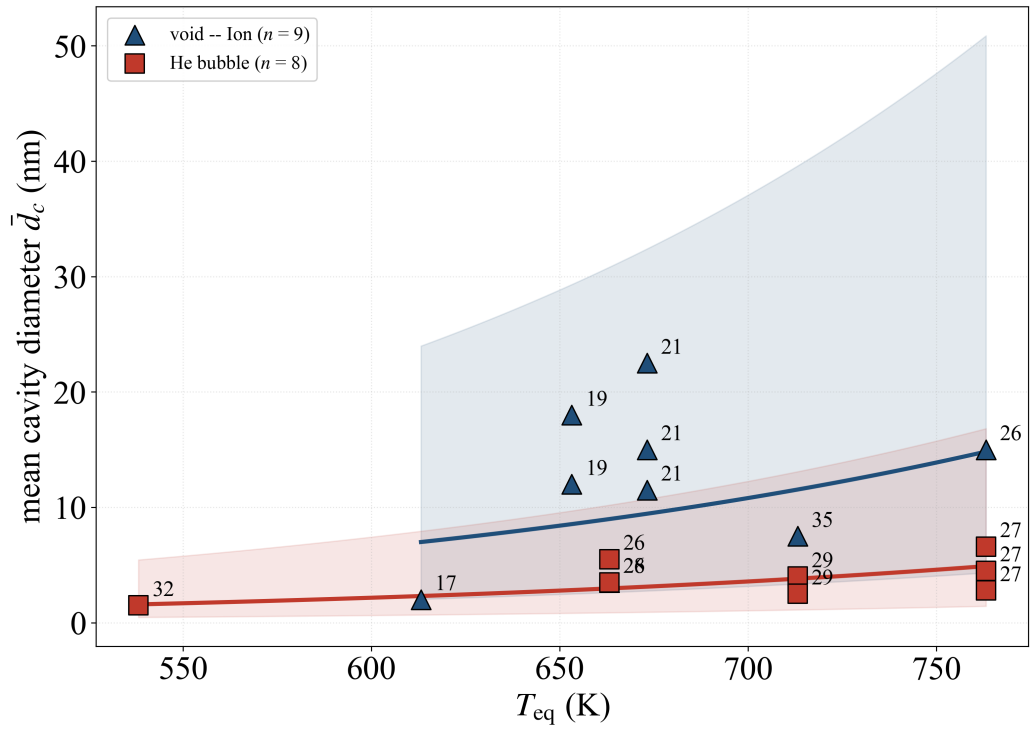


Figure G.20: The panel of Figure G.19 grouped instead by cavity type. Helium bubbles are a factor ≈ 0.33 smaller than voids ($p = 0.0027$), but this split leaves $s^2 = 0.380$ against 0.240 for the dose split: on cavity size, dose is the dominant variable.

Table G.30: Model selection for all eight panels. Every candidate grouping was fitted to each panel; k is the number of regressors beyond the intercept and the temperature term, s^2 the residual variance in $\ln y$, LOO the leave-one-out root-mean-square prediction error in $\ln y$, and p the nested F -test probability against the temperature-only model. Only the temperature-only model and the two best candidates are listed for each panel. Bold marks the model adopted in the corresponding figure.

Panel	Model	k	s^2	R^2	LOO	p
<i>Neutron</i>						
Loop density ($n = 19$)	T only	1	1.502	0.004	1.368	—
	$T + \text{dose} > 15 \text{ dpa}$	2	1.326	0.172	1.318	0.090
	$T + \text{alloy family}$	4	1.764	0.037	1.509	0.922
Loop size ($n = 19$)	$T + \text{alloy family}$	4	0.178	0.649	0.569	0.0025
	$T + \text{ODS flag}$	2	0.314	0.291	0.680	0.035
	T only	1	0.394	0.054	0.746	—
Cavity density ($n = 7$)	T only	1	0.970	0.863	3.285	—
	$T + \text{dose} > 15 \text{ dpa}$	2	1.063	0.880	3.481	0.495
Cavity size ($n = 7$)	T only	1	0.133	0.545	0.408	—
	$T + \text{dose} > 15 \text{ dpa}^a$	2	0.018	0.951	0.354	0.004
<i>Ion</i>						
Loop density ($n = 10$)	$T + \text{dose} > 15 \text{ dpa}$	2	0.193	0.422	0.454	0.067
	$T + \ln(\text{dose})$	2	0.147	0.558	0.405	0.024
	T only	1	0.282	0.033	0.545	—
Loop size ($n = 14$)	$T + \text{dose} > 30 \text{ dpa}$	2	0.150	0.425	0.443	0.016
	$T + \text{ODS flag}$	2	0.217	0.170	0.508	0.165
	T only	1	0.239	0.003	0.530	—
Cavity density ($n = 12$)	$T + \text{He bubble}^b$	2	0.665	0.913	0.918	0.0002
	$T + \text{dose} > 30 \text{ dpa}^b$	2	0.665	0.913	0.918	0.0002
	T only	1	3.079	0.554	1.846	—
Cavity size ($n = 16$)	$T + \text{dose} > 30 \text{ dpa}$	2	0.240	0.712	0.528	0.0001
	$T + \text{He bubble}$	2	0.393	0.530	0.669	0.003
	T only	1	0.735	0.051	0.946	—

^a Not adopted: with seven points and the threshold falling between rows at 15.0 and 15.4 dpa, the split point was chosen by scanning and the apparent gain is a selection effect. ^b Numerically identical models — the six He-bubble rows are exactly the six rows at dose ≤ 30 dpa (Section Appendix G.3).

Appendix G.4. Loop size distributions

Six complete TEM loop-diameter histograms are available in the database, all for neutron-irradiated EUROFER97 and EUROFER-ODS at two temperatures, and resolved by Burgers vector where the diffraction conditions allowed it. Because a cluster-dynamics calculation predicts the whole size distribution and not only its mean, these are the most demanding validation targets in the database.

Each histogram is renormalized to 100 % and fitted with a two-parameter log-normal by moment matching in $\ln d$,

$$f(d) = \frac{1}{d \sigma \sqrt{2\pi}} \exp \left[-\frac{(\ln d - \mu)^2}{2\sigma^2} \right], \quad (\text{G.10})$$

$$\bar{d} = e^{\mu + \sigma^2/2}, \quad d_{\text{med}} = e^{\mu}, \quad d_{\text{mode}} = e^{\mu - \sigma^2}.$$

with standard deviation $\bar{d}(e^{\sigma^2} - 1)^{1/2}$. The fitted parameters are given in Table G.31. Agreement is good throughout ($R^2 = 0.88\text{--}0.99$) and the fitted means reproduce the mean diameters quoted in the source papers to within 1.1 %, which is a useful internal check that the histograms and the summary rows of the database describe the same measurements.

Appendix G.4.1. Distributions at 300 °C

Figure G.21 shows the three distributions measured in EUROFER97 after 15 dpa at 300 °C in BOR-60, resolved by Burgers vector and imaging area. All three are narrow and strongly peaked below 5 nm, with $\sigma = 0.49\text{--}0.54$ and means of 3.4–4.7 nm. The two $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ populations, imaged in different areas under different diffraction conditions ($g = \{\bar{3}10\}$ and $g = \{200\}$), give $\bar{d} = 4.66$ and 4.73 nm — a 1.5 % difference, which is a direct measure of the area-to-area and imaging-condition reproducibility of the technique. The $\langle 100 \rangle$ population is distinctly smaller, $\bar{d} = 3.41$ nm.

That the $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops are the smaller population at 300 °C is consistent with them forming by reaction between $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops rather than directly in cascades: the $\langle 100 \rangle$ population is younger, and at this temperature the parent $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops have not yet grown large enough for the conversion to generate a coarse product.

Appendix G.4.2. Distributions at 350 °C

Figure G.22 collects the three populations available at 350 °C. They are not from one experiment and must not be read as one: the 3 dpa distribution is EUROFER97 under 700 keV Kr^{2+} ion irradiation, whereas the

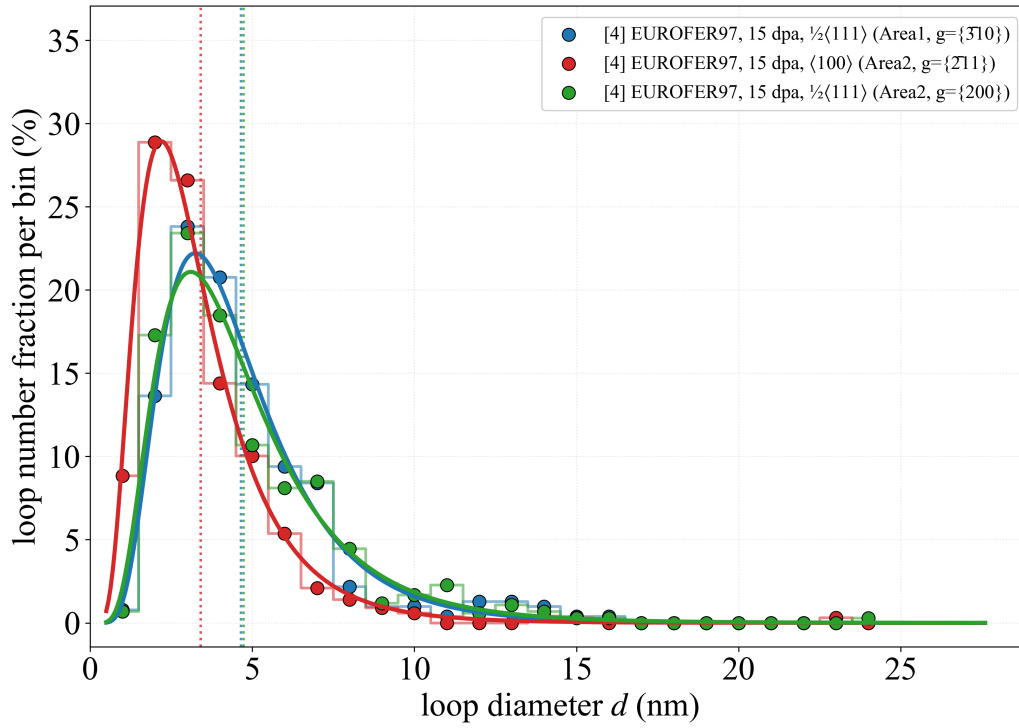


Figure G.21: Loop size distributions in EUROFER97 after neutron irradiation to 15 dpa at 300 °C, resolved by Burgers vector and imaging area. Markers and thin steps are the measured per-bin fractions, thick curves the fitted log-normals of Eq. (G.10), and dotted vertical lines the fitted means. The two $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ populations, measured in different areas under different diffraction conditions, agree to 1.5 % in the mean.

two 16.3 dpa distributions are EUROFER-ODS after neutron irradiation, resolved into $\langle 100 \rangle$ and $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ populations. The contrast is nonetheless striking: at 16.3 dpa the ODS material carries loops with $\bar{d} = 17.2$ nm ($\langle 100 \rangle$) and 26.7 nm ($\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$), against 9.9 nm for the 3 dpa ion case and 3.4–4.7 nm for EUROFER97 at 300 °C. The $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ population is now the *larger* of the two, reversing the ordering seen at 300 °C, and it is also the broader ($\sigma = 0.48$ against 0.39).

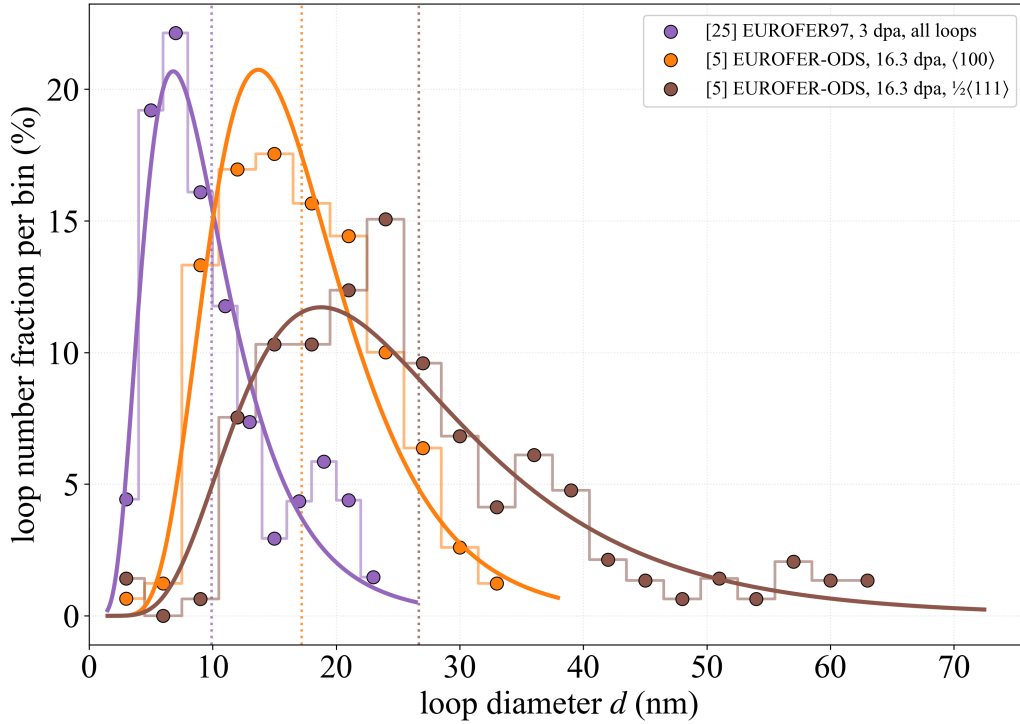


Figure G.22: Loop size distributions at 350 °C. The 3 dpa distribution is ion-irradiated EUROFER97; the two 16.3 dpa distributions are neutron-irradiated EUROFER-ODS resolved by Burgers vector. These are three different experiments and the comparison between them is confounded by irradiation type, dose and alloy simultaneously.

Appendix G.4.3. Temperature and dose evolution

Figure G.23 places all six fitted log-normals on a common probability-density axis. The shift is large: the mean loop diameter rises from 3.4–4.7 nm at 300 °C to 9.9–26.7 nm at 350 °C, a factor of three to six for a 50 °C change. The width parameter, by contrast, is remarkably stable — σ lies between 0.39

and 0.54 across all six distributions, two alloys, two irradiation types and a factor five in dose. A cluster-dynamics model reproducing these data must therefore produce distributions whose *shape* in $\ln d$ is nearly invariant while their *location* moves strongly with temperature and dose; matching the mean alone is not sufficient, and matching the width is a nearly parameter-free test.

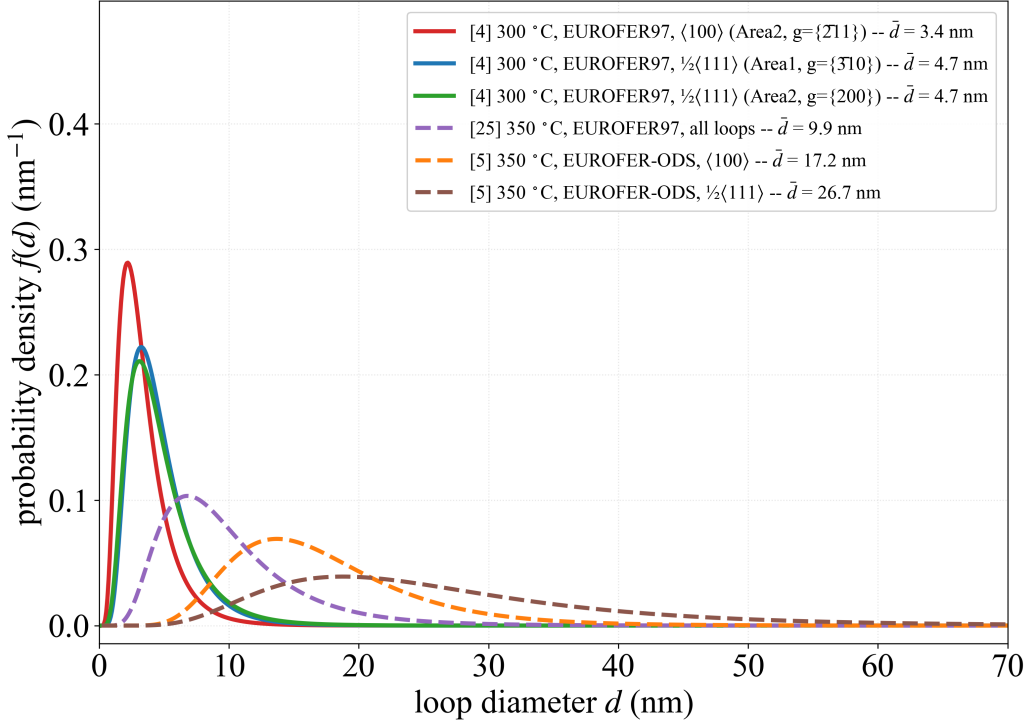


Figure G.23: All six fitted log-normal loop size distributions on a common probability-density axis, each normalized to unit area; solid for 300 °C and dashed for 350 °C. The location moves by a factor three to six between the two temperatures while the log-normal width parameter stays within $\sigma = 0.39$ –0.54 throughout.

Appendix G.5. Loop character: the $\langle 100 \rangle$ fraction

Sections Appendix G.2 and Appendix G.3 treat the loop population as one species. It is not: irradiated bcc iron and its alloys carry two distinct interstitial loop families, $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops, which are glissile and formed directly in cascades, and $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops, which are sessile and — on the prevailing reaction picture — formed largely by interaction between $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops. Their ratio is therefore not a detail of the microstructure but the direct observable

Table G.31: Log-normal parameters fitted to every measured loop size distribution by moment matching in $\ln d$, Eq. (G.10). “Source” is the paper number of Table G.29; SD is the standard deviation of the fitted log-normal. All diameters in nm.

Material	Irr.	T (°C)	Population	Dose	μ	σ	$\bar{d}$	d_{med}	d_{mode}	R^2
EUROFER97	n	300	$\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$, area 1	15.0	1.418	0.491	4.66	4.13	3.24	0.985
EUROFER97	n	300	$\langle 100 \rangle$, area 2	15.0	1.080	0.543	3.41	2.94	2.19	0.993
EUROFER97	n	300	$\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$, area 2	15.0	1.414	0.529	4.73	4.11	3.11	0.966
EUROFER97	i	350	all loops	3.0	2.168	0.500	9.91	8.74	6.81	0.915
EUROFER-ODS	n	350	$\langle 100 \rangle$	16.3	2.770	0.390	17.22	15.95	13.70	0.919
EUROFER-ODS	n	350	$\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$	16.3	3.167	0.484	26.68	23.73	18.78	0.877

of the conversion channel, and it is the quantity a loop-reaction model must reproduce. The `Loop_fractions` sheet collects it: 28 measurements of the percentage of the loop population that is $\langle 100 \rangle$, from nine sources. Two of them are set aside for the reason given below, leaving the 26 measurements analyzed here — 21 neutron irradiations and five ion irradiations from eight sources, spanning 250–450 °C and 13–32 dpa (Table G.34). Sixteen of them are EUROFER97 and ten are EUROFER-ODS, a split that turns out to matter more than any other in this section.

Klimenkov (2011), source 40, reports *no* $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops in neutron-irradiated EUROFER97 at 300 and 350 °C. At the same temperatures and comparable doses, Dethloff (2016, 2018) reports 77–78 % and Klimenkov (2020) reports 27 % and 79 %. These are the same material and, in part, the same group: the disagreement is between diffraction analyzes, not between specimens, and the later work resolves $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops that the earlier work did not. Those two measurements are therefore excluded from everything that follows.

The exclusion changes less than it might appear. Both of the excluded measurements read exactly 0 %, so they are boundary values that the quoted fits already omit (see below): the fitted coefficients of Figure G.24 are numerically unchanged. What moves is the sensitivity fit, from $b = 3.2 \times 10^{-2}$ to $b = 3.1 \times 10^{-2} \text{ K}^{-1}$ with R^2 rising from 0.315 to 0.371 and T_{50} falling from 368 to 357 °C. The pooled neutron trend is weakly determined either way; excluding source 40 does not rescue it.

A fraction is bounded on $[0, 100]$, so the bounded fit is **logit-linear**,

$$\text{logit } f \equiv \ln \frac{f}{1-f} = a + b T_{\text{eq}} \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad f(T_{\text{eq}}) = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-(a+bT_{\text{eq}})}}, \quad (\text{G.11})$$

with f the $\langle 100 \rangle$ fraction as a proportion. Besides b and its standard error,

the residual scatter s on the logit scale and R^2 , the fit is summarized by

$$T_{50} = -a/b, \quad (\text{G.12})$$

the temperature at which the two loop families are predicted to be present in equal numbers. T_{50} is the single most useful number for calibration: a reaction model that places the crossover at the wrong temperature is flawed in a way that no amount of agreement on total loop density would reveal.

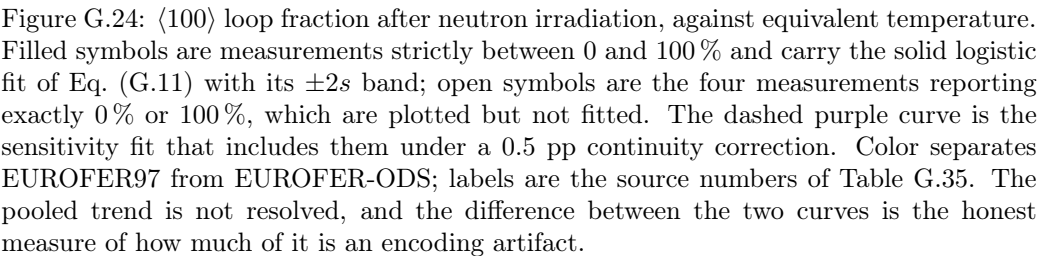
Four of the 26 retained measurements report exactly 0 % or 100 %. These are *qualitative* statements—no $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops seen, or no $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops seen—and their logit is infinite. They are plotted as open symbols and excluded from the quoted fit. A sensitivity fit that includes them under a continuity correction $f \rightarrow \max(\epsilon, \min(100 - \epsilon, f))$ with $\epsilon = 0.5$ percentage points is drawn dashed on the same panels.

Figure G.24 shows the 21 retained neutron measurements. The pooled fit over the 17 interior points resolves nothing: $b = 7.9 \times 10^{-3} \pm 8.5 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$ ($t = 0.94$, $R^2 = 0.056$), with $T_{50} = 633 \text{ K}$ (360 °C) but a residual scatter of $s = 1.50$ logit units, which is a factor $e^{2s} \approx 20$ in the odds ratio. Including the boundary measurements at $\epsilon = 0.5$ pp raises the slope by a factor of four to $b = 3.1 \times 10^{-2} \pm 9.2 \times 10^{-3} \text{ K}^{-1}$ ($t = 3.35$, $R^2 = 0.371$, $T_{50} = 357 \text{ °C}$) — a resolved and physically sensible trend, but one that rests entirely on how the four qualitative entries are encoded.

The ion set (Figure G.25) is too small to fit: five measurements from two sources at effectively two temperatures, giving $b = 1.6 \times 10^{-2} \pm 2.4 \times 10^{-2} \text{ K}^{-1}$ ($t = 0.68$). What it does show, at fixed temperature and dose, is a strong *microstructural* effect. Brimbal (2015) reports, at 400 °C and 26 dpa in one experiment, 87 % $\langle 100 \rangle$ in EUROFER97, 76 % in the tempered-martensite grains of EUROFER-ODS, and 32 % in its ferrite grains — a factor of nearly three in the odds ratio between two grain types of the same specimen. Whatever sets the loop character responds more strongly to local microstructure than the pooled temperature trend does, which is a caution against calibrating a conversion model on a single alloy condition.

EUROFER97 alone

Ten of the 26 measurements are EUROFER-ODS, and pooling them with the unstrengthened steel is not a minor approximation. The oxide dispersion acts directly on the loop population — it provides a dense array of particle interfaces that trap gliding $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ loops before they can interact with one



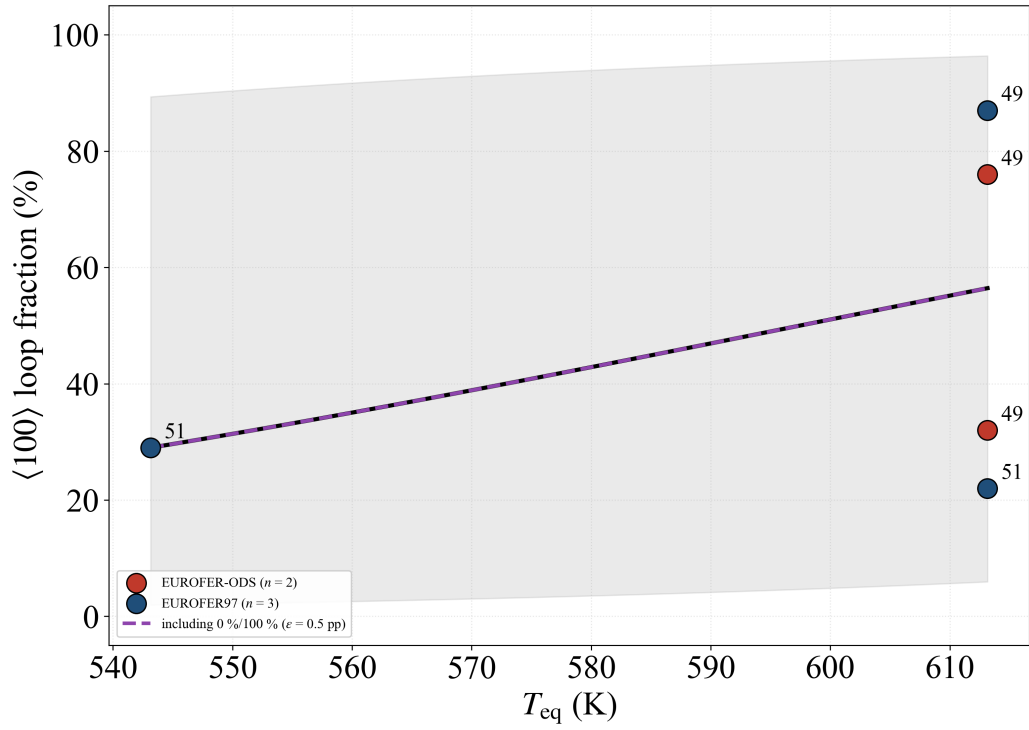


Figure G.25: $\langle 100 \rangle$ loop fraction after ion irradiation. Five measurements at two equivalent temperatures; the fit is shown for completeness and is not resolved. The three points at 613 K are one experiment (source 49) on EUROFER97 and on the two grain populations of EUROFER-ODS, and span 32–87 %.

another — so the two alloy classes pose different problems, and Figures G.24 and G.25 mix them. Restricting to EUROFER97 leaves 16 measurements, 13 neutron and three ions, from six sources, and the neutron fit changes character entirely (Figure G.26), as summarized in Table G.32:

Table G.32: Neutron loop-fraction fit parameters (interior points only) for the full multi-alloy dataset versus EUROFER97 alone. Holding the alloy fixed resolves the temperature dependence: the slope b becomes significant at 2.7σ , the residual scatter s falls, and T_{50} shifts from 360 to 313 °C.

Neutron, interior points only	All alloys	EUROFER97 only
n	17	12
b (K ⁻¹)	$+0.0079 \pm 0.0085$	$+0.0188 \pm 0.0071$
t	0.94	2.66
R^2	0.056	0.415
s (logit units)	1.50	1.04
T_{50} (°C)	360	313

The trend that could not be resolved across both alloy classes is resolved at 2.7σ once the material is held fixed; the residual scatter falls by a third, and T_{50} moves down to 313 °C — within 20 °C of the 331 °C obtained from the single Klimenkov (2020) series, which is as close an agreement as this database offers anywhere.

A second improvement matters more than the gain in R^2 . Only one of the 13 retained neutron measurements is a boundary value, so the continuity correction that dominated the all-alloy panel no longer does: the solid and dashed curves of Figure G.26 very nearly coincide ($T_{50} = 313$ against 333 °C, where the all-alloy panel gave 360 against 357 °C from the same pair of fits). The EUROFER97 result therefore does not depend on how the qualitative 0% and 100% entries are encoded, and it is the fit to use as a calibration target.

The ion subset does not survive the restriction. Three measurements at two equivalent temperatures remain (Figure G.27), and the two at 613 K are 22% and 87% — from different laboratories at the same nominal condition. The fit returns $t = 0.44$ and a prediction band spanning almost the full axis; it is reproduced for completeness and carries no constraint.

The pooled panels understate the data badly, and Figure G.28 shows why: within a single study, the temperature dependence is strong and consistent,

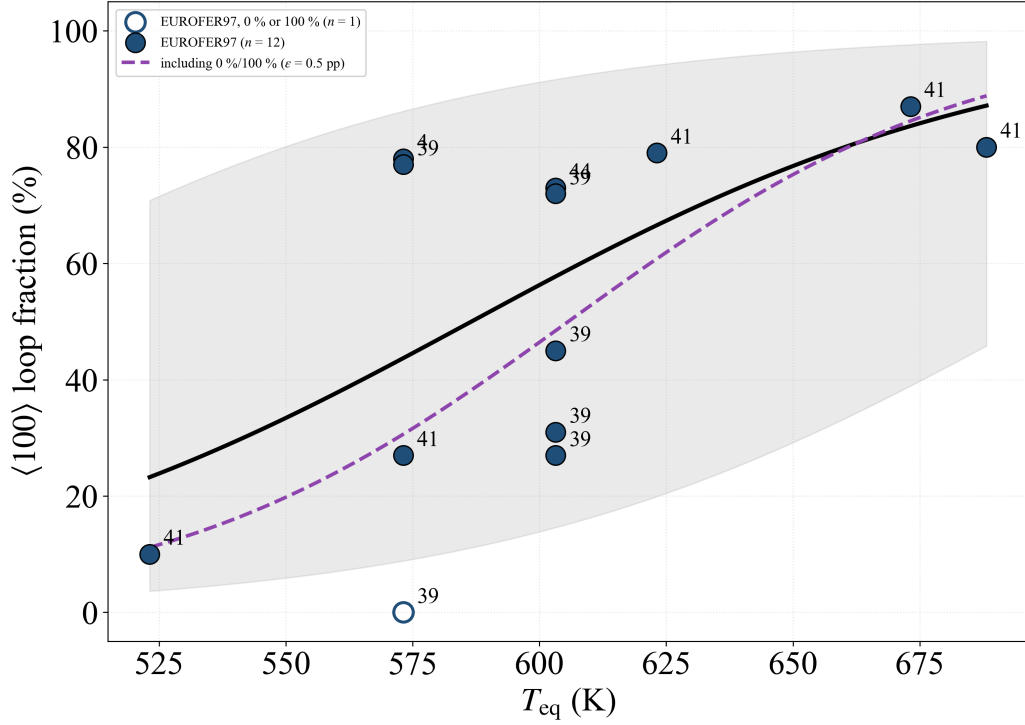


Figure G.26: $\langle 100 \rangle$ loop fraction after neutron irradiation of EUROFER97 alone, the EUROFER-ODS measurements of Figure G.24 having been removed. Symbols, curves and band are as in Figure G.24. Holding the alloy fixed resolves the temperature dependence ($t = 2.66$, $R^2 = 0.415$, $T_{50} = 313$ °C) and, because only one boundary measurement remains, brings the solid fit and the dashed continuity-corrected fit almost into coincidence — so unlike Figure G.24 the result no longer turns on how the qualitative entries are encoded.

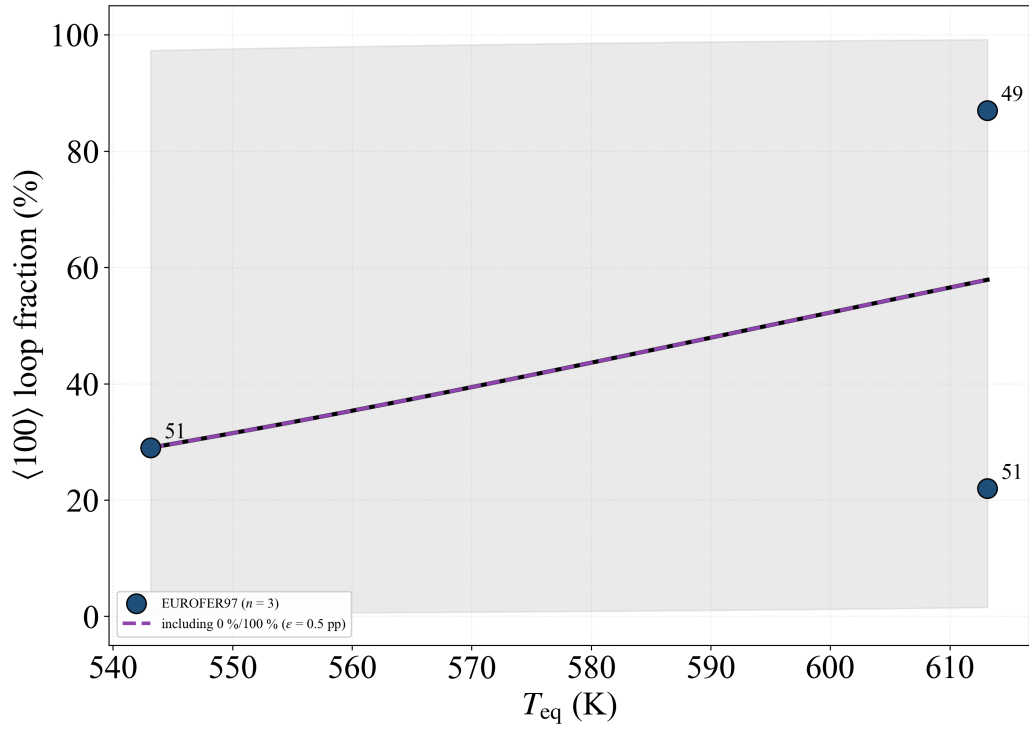


Figure G.27: The ion measurements of Figure G.25 restricted to EUROFER97: three points at two equivalent temperatures, of which the two at 613 K differ by a factor of four in the odds ratio. The fit ($t = 0.44$) and its $\pm 2s$ band, which spans nearly the whole axis, are shown to make the absence of a constraint explicit rather than to be read as a trend.

and it is the offsets *between* studies that destroy it. Fitting each source separately gives the parameters in Table G.33: Klimenkov (2020) traces the

Table G.33: Loop-fraction fits performed separately for each neutron-irradiation source. Within a single study the temperature dependence is strong and consistent; it is the offsets between studies that wash it out in the pooled fits.

Source	Material	n	b (K ⁻¹)	R^2	T_{50} (°C)
[41] Klimenkov 2020	EUROFER97	5	$+0.0245 \pm 0.0048$	0.895	331
[42] Klimenkov 2021	EUROFER-ODS	3	$+0.0098 \pm 0.0040$	0.856	601
[39] Dethloff 2018	EUROFER97	5	-0.0490 ± 0.0325	0.431	325

fraction from 10 % at 250 °C to 87 % at 400 °C in one alloy on one instrument, giving $t = 5.1$ and $T_{50} = 331$ °C; Klimenkov (2017) traces the ODS variant from 0 % at 250 °C to 100 % at 450 °C. The Dethloff (2018) series runs the other way, but all five of its points lie within 30 °C of each other, so its slope is an artifact of the analysis spread at essentially one temperature rather than a temperature trend — which is exactly what the vertical red segments in Figure G.28 represent. Figure G.29 repeats the comparison for EUROFER97 alone, where only those two studies remain.

One further discrepancy must be carried with any use of these data, and, unlike source 40, it cannot be set aside because both readings are legitimate.

- **Black dots.** Dethloff (2018) reports each condition twice, once counting resolved loops only and once including Black dot damage. The fraction moves from 72 % to 45 % at 330 °C and 15 dpa, and from 27 % to 31 % at 32 dpa. A 27 percentage-point swing from a counting convention, at one condition in one laboratory, is comparable to the entire pooled temperature signal. Any comparison against a model must state whether the model’s small-loop cutoff corresponds to the black-dot-inclusive count or not.

The $\langle 100 \rangle$ fraction rises with irradiation temperature, strongly and reproducibly *within* a given study, and passes through 50 % near 310–330 °C in EUROFER97 at 13–18 dpa. That crossover, not the pooled slope, is the number worth calibrating against, and its uncertainty is set by the between-laboratory spread rather than by counting statistics. Two independent routes agree on it: the EUROFER97-only fit of Figure G.26 gives $T_{50} = 313$ °C and

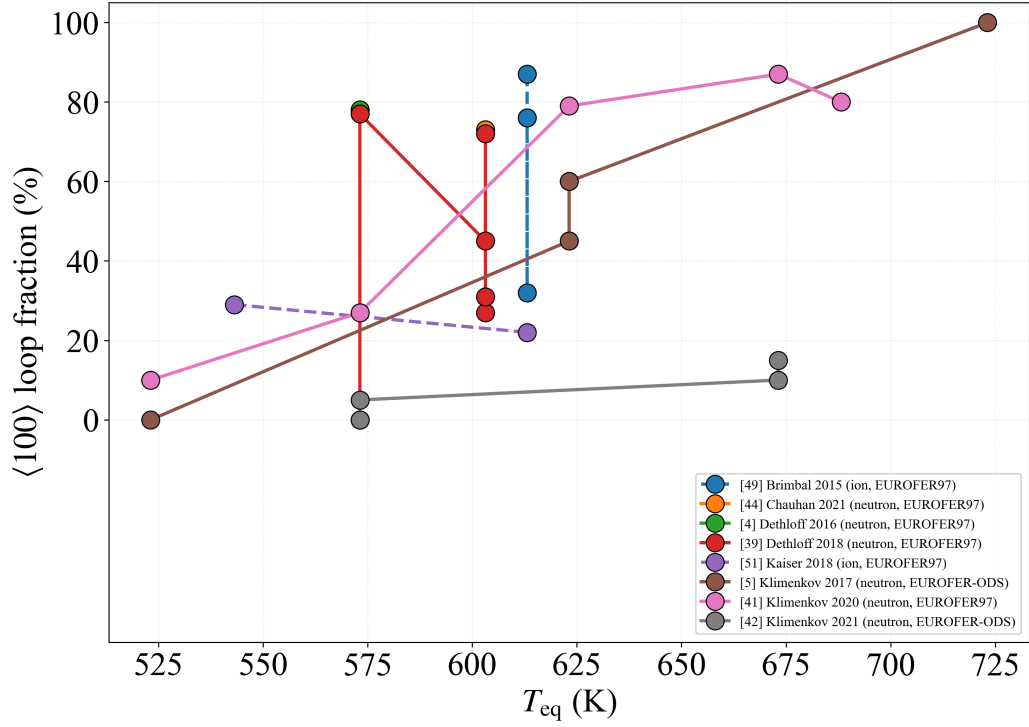


Figure G.28: The same measurements, joined within each source and ordered by temperature; solid lines are neutron irradiation, dashed lines ion irradiation. Within a study the rise with temperature is steep and consistent (sources 41 and 5); the between-study offsets are what flatten the pooled fit of Figure G.24. *Vertical segments are not trends*: they join measurements made at one temperature, either two analyses of one specimen (source 39, with and without black dots) or different grain populations of one experiment (source 49).

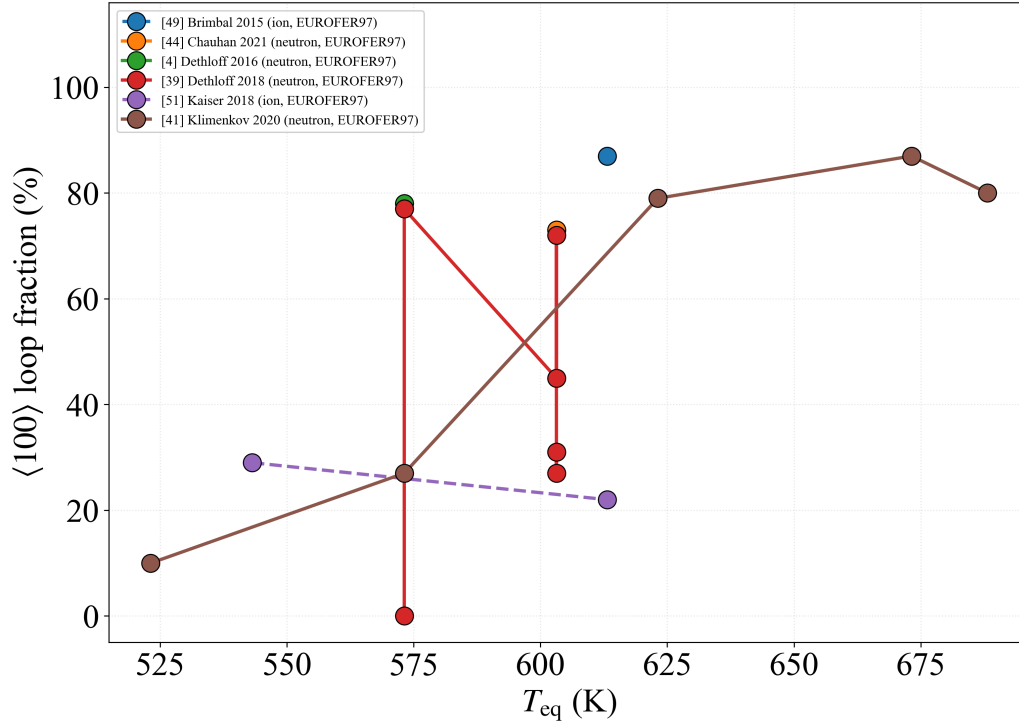


Figure G.29: Figure G.28 restricted to EUROFER97. With the ODS series removed, only two neutron studies span more than one temperature, and they disagree: Klimenkov (2020) rises from 10 to 87 % across 165 °C, while the whole Dethloff (2018) set lies within 30 °C and its apparent negative slope is the spread between analyses of one specimen rather than a temperature trend. The EUROFER97 fit of Figure G.26 is essentially the Klimenkov series with the Dethloff scatter superposed.

the single Klimenkov (2020) series gives 331 °C. The all-alloy fit of Figure G.24 should not be used for this purpose — its slope is not resolved, and what it mostly measures is the difference between EUROFER97 and EUROFER-ODS. In EUROFER-ODS, the crossover is displaced upward — source 42 puts it near 600 ° °C — consistent with the oxide dispersion suppressing the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle$ interactions that produce $\langle 100 \rangle$ loops; though, with three points, that reading is suggestive rather than established.

Appendix G.6. Summary of the group-separated fits

Table G.36 collects the eight fits in the form in which they should be used as validation targets. Each is a common-slope, group-intercept log-normal model, Eqs. (G.2)–(G.3): the prediction for a group g at temperature T_{eq} is $\exp(a + c_g + bT_{\text{eq}})$, and a calculation is consistent with the data if it falls within a factor e^{2s} of that value.

Three points govern how much weight each row can carry. First, only three of the eight panels resolve a temperature slope better than 2σ — the neutron cavity density and size, and the ion cavity size — and the first two of those rest on two pure-Fe rows. Over the range this database covers, the microstructure of F/M steel is controlled far more strongly by dose, helium, and alloy class than by temperature. Second, the residual scatter, not R^2 , is the criterion: the neutron loop density has $R^2 = 0.004$ and is still a usable constraint, because $\text{GSD} = 3.4$ is a definite statement about where a calculation must land. Third, two of the strongest effects in the table — the ODS offset in the neutron loop size and the He-bubble offset in the ion cavity density — are confounded with, respectively, a single laboratory and the dose split, and neither can be attributed on the present data.

Appendix H. Digital-Twin Construction for the Microstructure

This appendix gives a detailed plan for constructing a RadCluster-based *digital twin* of irradiated ferritic–martensitic (F/M) steel microstructure. The twin is intended to transform the existing experimental microstructure database into a calibrated, uncertainty-aware predictive model for loop and cavity evolution under fission, ion, and ultimately fusion-relevant irradiation conditions. The guiding principle is that the digital twin is not a single optimized RadCluster calculation; it is a probability distribution over RadCluster inputs and predictions, constrained by measured loop and cavity statistics and by physical conservation laws.

Table G.34: The 26 retained $\langle 100 \rangle$ -fraction measurements; the two measurements of source 40 are excluded, as described in the text. “#” is the source number of Table G.35; “irr.” is n for neutron and i for ion; T_{eq} is the equivalent temperature of Eq. (G.1). Entries marked ^{bd} are the black-dot-inclusive counts of source 39, reported alongside the resolved-loop counts for the same specimen. The four entries at 0 or 100 % are qualitative statements and are excluded from the quoted fits.

#	Material	irr.	T ($^{\circ}\text{C}$)	T_{eq} (K)	Dose (dpa)	$f_{\langle 100 \rangle}$ (%)
4	EUROFER97	n	300	573	15	78
5	EUROFER-ODS	n	250	523	16.2	0
5	EUROFER-ODS	n	350	623	16.2	45
5	EUROFER-ODS	n	350	623	16.2	60
5	EUROFER-ODS	n	450	723	16.2	100
39	EUROFER97	n	300	573	15	0
39	EUROFER97	n	300	573	15	77
39	EUROFER97	n	330	603	15	72
39	EUROFER97	n	330	603	15	45 ^{bd}
39	EUROFER97	n	330	603	32	27
39	EUROFER97	n	330	603	32	31 ^{bd}
41	EUROFER97	n	250	523	13.4	10
41	EUROFER97	n	300	573	14.6	27
41	EUROFER97	n	350	623	17.4	79
41	EUROFER97	n	400	673	17.2	87
41	EUROFER97	n	415	688	18.1	80
42	EUROFER-ODS	n	300	573	16.2	0
42	EUROFER-ODS	n	300	573	16.2	5
42	EUROFER-ODS	n	400	673	16.2	10
42	EUROFER-ODS	n	400	673	16.2	15
44	EUROFER97	n	330	603	15	73
49	EUROFER97	i	400	613	26	87
49	EUROFER-ODS (t. mart.)	i	400	613	26	76
49	EUROFER-ODS (ferrite)	i	400	613	26	32
51	EUROFER97	i	330	543	16	29
51	EUROFER97	i	400	613	16	22

Table G.35: Sources introduced by the `Loop_fractions` sheet. Unlike the five defect-population sheets, this one records its sources as titles and carries no DOI column; author, year and title below are reproduced from the workbook and the journal was not independently resolved, so nothing is asserted that the sheet does not state. Numbering continues that of Table G.29, so a paper appearing in both keeps one number throughout. A dagger marks the eight sources whose $\langle 100 \rangle$ fractions are analyzed here; a double dagger marks source 40, which reports fractions that are set aside for the reason given in the text; the remainder contribute total-loop rows only.

#	Source	Title as recorded in the workbook
4 [†]	Dethloff 2016	(Table G.29) Microstructural defects in EUROFER 97 after different neutron irradiation conditions
5 [†]	Klimenkov 2017	(Table G.29) Effect of irradiation temperature on the microstructure of a ferritic–martensitic ODS steel
25	Boulanger & Serruys 2009	(Table G.29) Dislocation loops in Eurofer and an Fe–Cr alloy irradiated by ions at 350 and 550 °C
39 [†]	Dethloff 2018	Review and critical assessment of dislocation loop analyses on EUROFER 97
40 [‡]	Klimenkov 2011	Characterization of radiation induced defects in EUROFER 97 after neutron irradiation
41 [†]	Klimenkov 2020	Correlation of microstructural and mechanical properties of neutron irradiated EUROFER97 steel
42 [†]	Klimenkov 2021	Post-irradiation microstructural examination of EUROFER-ODS steel irradiated at 300 and 400 °C
43	Weiß 2012	Quantitative characterization of microstructural defects in up to 32 dpa neutron irradiated EUROFER97
44 [†]	Chauhan 2021	Post-irradiation annealing of neutron-irradiated EUROFER97
45	Schäublin 2002	Microstructure of irradiated ferritic–martensitic steels
46	Chen 2013	Irradiation effects of HT-9 martensitic steel
47	Rogozhkin 2019a	The influence of Fe-ion irradiation on the microstructure of reduced-activation ferritic–martensitic steel
48	Rogozhkin 2019b	Study of microscopic origins of radiation hardening of Eurofer 97 in a simulation experiment with ions
49 [†]	Brimbal 2015	Microstructural characterization of Eurofer-97 and Eurofer-ODS before and after multi-beam ion irradiation
50	Zhang 2014	Irradiation-induced evolution of mechanical properties and microstructure of Eurofer 97
51 [†]	Kaiser 2018	Investigation of microstructure defects in EUROFER97 under $\text{He}^+/\text{Fe}^{3+}$ dual ion beam irradiation

Table G.36: The eight group-separated fits. $y = \exp(a + c_g + b T_{\text{eq}})$ with N in m^{-3} , $\bar{d}$ in nm and T_{eq} in K; e^{2s} is the multiplicative half-width of the $\approx 95\%$ prediction band. Slopes resolved at better than 2σ are marked *.

Irr.	Quantity	Grouping	n	a	$b \text{ (K}^{-1}\text{)}$	c_g	e^{2s}
n	N_ℓ	none	19	50.55	-0.00093 ± 0.0036	—	11.6
n	$\bar{d}_\ell$	9Cr F/M (ref.)	19	0.11	$+0.00282 \pm 0.0016$	0	2.3
n		12Cr F/M			$+0.87 \pm 0.27$		
n		ODS			$+1.19 \pm 0.32$		
n		pure Fe			$+0.92 \pm 0.41$		
n	N_c	none	7	61.29	$-0.01906 \pm 0.0034 *$	—	7.2
n	$\bar{d}_c$	none	7	-1.07	$+0.00314 \pm 0.0013 *$	—	2.1
i	N_ℓ	≤ 15 dpa (ref.)	10	53.68	-0.00232 ± 0.0032	0	2.4
i		> 15 dpa			-0.80 ± 0.37		
i	$\bar{d}_\ell$	≤ 30 dpa (ref.)	14	1.77	-0.00008 ± 0.0018	0	2.2
i		> 30 dpa			$+0.84 \pm 0.30$		
i	N_c	void (ref.)	12	46.63	$+0.00149 \pm 0.0087$	0	5.1
i		He bubble			$+4.49 \pm 0.74$		
i	$\bar{d}_c$	≤ 30 dpa (ref.)	16	-1.56	$+0.00401 \pm 0.0021 *$	0	2.7
i		> 30 dpa			$+1.35 \pm 0.25$		

Digital twins have increasingly been formulated as hybrid physics–data systems whose predictive value depends on uncertainty quantification (UQ), calibration, validation, and sequential updating. Recent reviews emphasize that uncertainty quantification and optimization are enabling technologies for digital-twin credibility, especially when the physical twin is only partially observable and when the simulator must extrapolate beyond the measured data [115]. In materials science, related work has used Bayesian learning and physics-informed surrogate models to combine simulations with sparse experiments, calibrate uncertain parameters, and propagate prediction uncertainty in additive-manufacturing and microstructure-sensitive applications [116–118]. The present RadCluster twin follows the same philosophy but applies it to the irradiation microstructure of F/M steels: the forward model is the cluster dynamics simulator, the uncertain parameters are physically bounded production, transport, binding, sink, and loop-conversion quantities, and the data are the measured loop and cavity densities, mean diameters, and size distributions. The purpose of this appendix is to turn those ingredients into a concrete digital-twin algorithm.

Appendix H.1. Definition of the Digital Twin

Let the RadCluster state at dose d and temperature T be

$$\mathbf{x}(d, T; \boldsymbol{\theta}) = [\{c_{n,\alpha}^I\}, \{c_{m,\ell,\beta}^V\}, \{c_\mu^g\}, \rho_{\text{net}}, \Delta J_i^{\text{fix}}, \Delta J_v^{\text{fix}}, \Delta J_g^{\text{fix}}]^\top, \quad (\text{H.1})$$

where $c_{n,\alpha}^I$ are interstitial-cluster populations, $c_{m,\ell,\beta}^V$ are vacancy-cluster/cavity populations, c_μ^g are matrix gas reservoirs, ρ_{net} is the evolving dislocation-network density when activated, and the ΔJ variables are cumulative sink-flux diagnostics.

The uncertain RadCluster parameter vector is denoted by

$$\boldsymbol{\theta} = (\theta_1, \theta_2, \dots, \theta_p), \quad p \simeq 16\text{--}20. \quad (\text{H.2})$$

For a given irradiation condition

$$\boldsymbol{\xi} = (T, d, \dot{d}, \eta_{\text{He}}, \eta_{\text{H}}, \text{alloy}, \text{irradiation type}), \quad (\text{H.3})$$

where η_{He} and η_{H} are the gas-production ratios in appm/dpa, RadCluster defines a deterministic map

$$\mathbf{y}_{\text{sim}} = H[\mathbf{x}(d, T; \boldsymbol{\theta})] = \mathcal{M}(\boldsymbol{\theta}; \boldsymbol{\xi}), \quad (\text{H.4})$$

where H is the observation operator that maps the full cluster population to experimentally measured quantities. The standard observable vector is

$$\mathbf{y}_{\text{sim}} = [N_\ell, \bar{d}_\ell, N_c, \bar{d}_c, f_{111}, f_{100}, S, p_\ell(d_\ell), p_c(d_c)]. \quad (\text{H.5})$$

Here N_ℓ and $\bar{d}_\ell$ are the loop number density and mean loop diameter, N_c and $\bar{d}_c$ are the cavity number density and mean cavity diameter, f_{111} and f_{100} are loop-character fractions, S is swelling, and p_ℓ and p_c are loop and cavity size distributions.

The digital twin is defined by the posterior distribution

$$p(\boldsymbol{\theta} \mid \mathcal{D}_{\text{exp}}) \propto p(\mathcal{D}_{\text{exp}} \mid \boldsymbol{\theta})p(\boldsymbol{\theta}), \quad (\text{H.6})$$

and by the posterior predictive distribution

$$p(\mathbf{y}_* \mid \mathcal{D}_{\text{exp}}, \boldsymbol{\xi}_*) = \int p(\mathbf{y}_* \mid \boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi}_*)p(\boldsymbol{\theta} \mid \mathcal{D}_{\text{exp}}) d\boldsymbol{\theta}. \quad (\text{H.7})$$

Thus, the twin reports medians, credible intervals, and risk probabilities, not only best-fit predictions.

Appendix H.2. Uncertain Parameter Vector

The first-generation twin should use a restricted but physically interpretable parameter vector. A representative 18-parameter set is

$$\begin{aligned} \boldsymbol{\theta} = [\eta_{\text{FP}}, f_I^{\text{cl}}, f_V^{\text{cl}}, E_m^I, E_m^V, E_m^{\text{He}}, \\ L_{1D}, i_{\text{mob}}, v_{\text{mob}}, A_V, B_V, A_I, \\ B_I, A_{\text{HeV}}, Z_i^d, Z_i^{\text{loop}}, T^*, K_{\text{rec}}]. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{H.8})$$

The parameters fall into five mechanism groups:

1. *Production*: cascade survival efficiency and fractions of SIAs and vacancies born as clusters.
2. *Mobility*: migration energies, the effective one-dimensional glide length, and the maximum mobile cluster sizes.
3. *Dissociation energetics*: binding-law amplitudes and exponents controlling SIA, vacancy, and gas emission.
4. *Sinks and bias*: dislocation bias and loop bias factors.

5. *Loop conversion and network evolution:* the $\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ crossover temperature and the dislocation-network recovery constant.

Each parameter is assigned a bounded prior distribution. Energies are most naturally represented by truncated normal priors,

$$E_i \sim \mathcal{N}_{[E_i^-, E_i^+]}(\bar{E}_i, \sigma_{E_i}^2), \quad (\text{H.9})$$

positive rate or density parameters by log-normal priors,

$$\rho_d, K_{\text{rec}}, L_{1D} \sim \text{Lognormal}(\mu, \sigma^2), \quad (\text{H.10})$$

and bounded fractions by beta or uniform priors,

$$f_I^{\text{cl}}, f_V^{\text{cl}} \sim \text{Beta}(a, b) \quad \text{or} \quad \mathcal{U}(0, 1). \quad (\text{H.11})$$

Discrete quantities such as i_{mob} , v_{mob} , and possible conversion-onset sizes should be treated either as categorical model variants or as integer-valued sampled parameters.

Appendix H.3. Experimental Target Representation

Let the experimental database be

$$\mathcal{D}_{\text{exp}} = \{\boldsymbol{\xi}_j, \mathbf{z}_j, \boldsymbol{\sigma}_j, g_j\}_{j=1}^{N_{\text{data}}}, \quad (\text{H.12})$$

where $\boldsymbol{\xi}_j$ contains irradiation conditions, $\mathbf{z}_j$ contains measured observables, $\boldsymbol{\sigma}_j$ contains measurement or fitted statistical uncertainties, and g_j is the grouping variable used in Appendix G, such as irradiation type, alloy family, dose group, or bubble/void classification.

For scalar positive observables, Appendix G uses log-linear statistical fits,

$$\ln y = a + \sum_g c_g \delta_g + bx + \epsilon, \quad \epsilon \sim \mathcal{N}(0, s^2), \quad (\text{H.13})$$

where x is either T_{eq} or $1000/T_{\text{eq}}$. Therefore, the natural comparison between RadCluster and the database is in log space:

$$r_j(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \frac{\ln y_j^{\text{sim}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) - \ln y_j^{\text{exp}}}{\sigma_{\ln y, j}}. \quad (\text{H.14})$$

When the comparison is made to the fitted trend rather than to an individual experimental row,

$$y_{j,\text{fit}} = \exp(a + c_{g,j} + bx_j), \quad \sigma_{\ln y,j} = s_j. \quad (\text{H.15})$$

A simulation is statistically consistent with the fitted database band if

$$|\ln y_j^{\text{sim}} - \ln y_{j,\text{fit}}| \lesssim 2s_j. \quad (\text{H.16})$$

Equivalently, y_j^{sim} lies within the multiplicative interval $[e^{-2s_j}, e^{2s_j}]$ about the fitted median.

For full loop or cavity size distributions, the discrepancy should not be reduced to mean diameter alone. Let $p_j^{\text{exp}}(R)$ and $p_j^{\text{sim}}(R; \boldsymbol{\theta})$ be the measured and simulated size distributions. The distributional contribution to the likelihood is measured by an optimal-transport distance,

$$\mathcal{W}_j(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = W_1[p_j^{\text{sim}}(R; \boldsymbol{\theta}), p_j^{\text{exp}}(R)], \quad (\text{H.17})$$

which penalizes both shifts in the location of the distribution and changes in its width or shape.

Appendix H.4. Likelihood, Model Discrepancy, and Conservation Penalties

The experimental observation model is written as

$$\ln y_j^{\text{exp}} = \ln y_j^{\text{sim}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) + \delta_j^{\text{model}} + \epsilon_j^{\text{exp}}, \quad (\text{H.18})$$

where ϵ_j^{exp} is measurement noise and δ_j^{model} is structural model discrepancy. The total variance used in calibration is

$$\sigma_j^2 = \sigma_{\text{exp},j}^2 + \sigma_{\text{db},j}^2 + \sigma_{\text{em},j}^2 + \sigma_{\text{model},j}^2, \quad (\text{H.19})$$

where the four terms represent measurement uncertainty, database scatter, emulator uncertainty, and irreducible model-form discrepancy.

The negative log-likelihood is then

$$\begin{aligned} -\log p(\mathcal{D}_{\text{exp}} \mid \boldsymbol{\theta}) &= \frac{1}{2} \sum_{j \in \mathcal{S}} w_j \left[\frac{\ln y_j^{\text{sim}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) - \ln y_j^{\text{exp}}}{\sigma_j} \right]^2 \\ &\quad + w_W \sum_{k \in \mathcal{D}} W_1[p_k^{\text{sim}}(R; \boldsymbol{\theta}), p_k^{\text{exp}}(R)] + \Phi_{\text{phys}}. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{H.20})$$

Here $\mathcal{S}$ is the set of scalar observables, $\mathcal{D}$ is the set of distributional observables, and w_j and w_W are user-assigned or hierarchically inferred weights.

The physical penalty is

$$\Phi_{\text{phys}} = \lambda_{\text{FP}} \delta_{\text{FP}}^2 + \lambda_{\text{gas}} \sum_{\mu} \delta_{g_{\mu}}^2 + \lambda_{\text{bounds}} \Phi_{\text{bounds}}. \quad (\text{H.21})$$

The quantities δ_{FP} and $\delta_{g_{\mu}}$ are conservation diagnostics for signed Frenkel-pair content and gas inventory. In accepted high-fidelity calculations these errors should remain below 10^{-6} ; values above 10^{-3} should trigger rejection of the run unless the loss is due to a modeled external sink.

Appendix H.5. Multi-Fidelity Simulation and Emulation

Direct Bayesian calibration on the full RadCluster simulator is not practical for $p \simeq 16$ –20 uncertain inputs. The twin therefore uses a two-level multi-fidelity hierarchy. The low-fidelity simulator, $\mathcal{M}_{\text{LF}}$, uses coarse size-bin moments, a reduced cluster grid, and a shorter dose horizon, but preserves verified solver tolerances. The high-fidelity simulator, $\mathcal{M}_{\text{HF}}$, uses the full bin resolution, the full loop-conversion and network model, and is integrated to reactor or fusion-relevant dose.

A space-filling design is generated in the prior parameter domain,

$$\{\boldsymbol{\theta}^{(k)}\}_{k=1}^{N_{\text{LF}}} \sim \text{Sobol}(p), \quad N_{\text{LF}} \simeq 20p\text{--}50p. \quad (\text{H.22})$$

A smaller high-fidelity design is then selected,

$$N_{\text{HF}} \simeq 3p\text{--}8p, \quad (\text{H.23})$$

using either a nested space-filling subset or active-learning criteria.

The low- and high-fidelity outputs are fused using an autoregressive multi-fidelity Gaussian-process emulator,

$$\widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{HF}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi}) = \rho \widehat{\mathcal{M}}_{\text{LF}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi}) + \delta(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi}), \quad (\text{H.24})$$

where δ is a Gaussian-process correction. The emulator reports both mean predictions and predictive variances, so emulator uncertainty enters the likelihood through Eq. (H.19).

Appendix H.6. Sensitivity Screening and Identifiability

Before full calibration, the Sobol ensemble is used to compute first-order, interaction, and total-effect sensitivity indices,

$$S_i = \frac{\text{Var}_{\theta_i} [\mathbb{E}(Y \mid \theta_i)]}{\text{Var}(Y)}, \quad S_i^T = 1 - \frac{\text{Var}_{\boldsymbol{\theta}_{\sim i}} [\mathbb{E}(Y \mid \boldsymbol{\theta}_{\sim i})]}{\text{Var}(Y)}. \quad (\text{H.25})$$

Parameters with small total-effect indices over all measured observables are not eliminated from the physics model, but they are demoted during inverse calibration. This prevents weakly identifiable parameters from absorbing experimental scatter or model discrepancy. The active calibration subset is therefore

$$\boldsymbol{\theta}_{\text{act}} = \left\{ \theta_i : \max_Y S_i^T(Y) > S_{\text{tol}} \right\}, \quad (\text{H.26})$$

while inactive parameters are either fixed at nominal values or marginalized with their prior uncertainty.

Appendix H.7. Sequential Updating and Digital-Twin Assimilation

When measurements arrive sequentially along a dose trajectory, the twin is updated recursively. Let

$$\mathbf{z}_k = H(\mathbf{x}_k) + \boldsymbol{\epsilon}_k \quad (\text{H.27})$$

be a measurement at dose step k . The prior at step k is the posterior from step $k - 1$ propagated through RadCluster:

$$p(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \mathbf{x}_k \mid \mathbf{z}_{1:k-1}) = \int p(\mathbf{x}_k \mid \mathbf{x}_{k-1}, \boldsymbol{\theta}) p(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \mathbf{x}_{k-1} \mid \mathbf{z}_{1:k-1}) d\mathbf{x}_{k-1}. \quad (\text{H.28})$$

The update is

$$p(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \mathbf{x}_k \mid \mathbf{z}_{1:k}) \propto p(\mathbf{z}_k \mid \mathbf{x}_k, \boldsymbol{\theta}) p(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \mathbf{x}_k \mid \mathbf{z}_{1:k-1}). \quad (\text{H.29})$$

For high-dimensional ensembles, this update can be approximated by ensemble Kalman inversion or an ensemble smoother. This converts RadCluster from a one-shot calibrated code into a living digital twin whose parameter posterior and microstructural state are continually revised as new irradiation data are obtained.

Appendix H.8. Active Refinement and Experiment Selection

The surrogate should be refined only where additional RadCluster runs or new experiments most reduce uncertainty in the predicted microstructure. Define an information-per-cost acquisition function

$$\mathcal{A}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi}) = \frac{\mathcal{I}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi})}{C_{\text{CPU}}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi})}, \quad (\text{H.30})$$

where $\mathcal{I}$ may be the expected reduction in posterior entropy, the expected reduction in predictive variance at fusion conditions, or the expected improvement in validation likelihood. The next simulation is chosen by

$$(\boldsymbol{\theta}_{\text{next}}, \boldsymbol{\xi}_{\text{next}}) = \arg \max_{\boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi}} \mathcal{A}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\xi}). \quad (\text{H.31})$$

The same criterion can be used to recommend new irradiation experiments: select the temperature, dose, dose rate, and gas-production ratio that most reduce the uncertainty in predictions at DEMO-relevant conditions.

Appendix H.9. Workflow Summary

Figure H.30 summarizes the offline construction of the RadCluster digital twin. Figure H.31 shows the online or sequential assimilation mode.

Appendix H.10. Acceptance Criteria for a Validated Twin

A RadCluster digital twin should be accepted only if it satisfies the following conditions.

1. **Statistical consistency:** scalar predictions fall within the appropriate Appendix G log-normal prediction bands, preferably within $\pm 2s$ in log space.
2. **Distributional consistency:** predicted loop and cavity size distributions match measured histograms within an agreed Wasserstein tolerance.
3. **Conservation consistency:** high-fidelity accepted runs satisfy $\delta_{\text{FP}} < 10^{-6}$ and $\delta_{g\mu} < 10^{-6}$, unless a modeled external sink explicitly removes material.
4. **Predictive validation:** posterior predictive intervals cover withheld validation data at approximately their nominal credibility level.

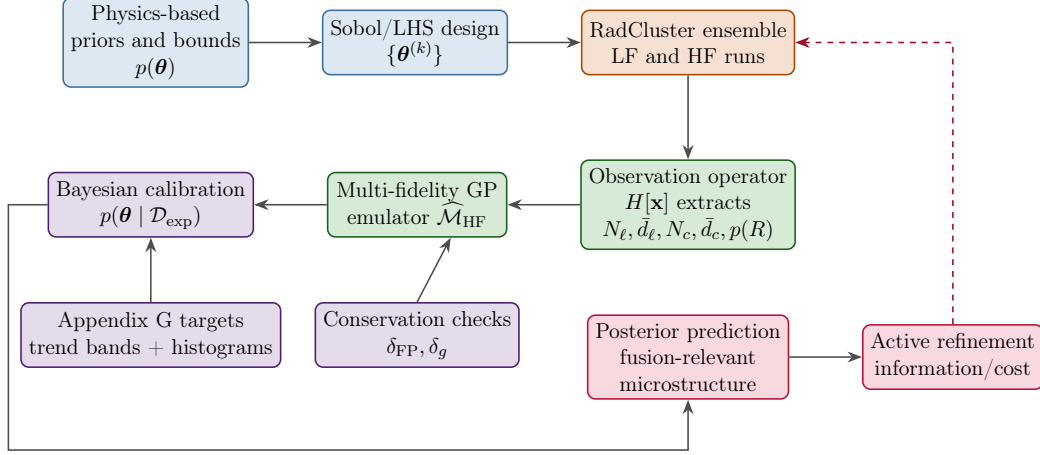


Figure H.30: Offline construction of the RadCluster digital twin. Physical priors define the uncertain parameter space, a space-filling design generates RadCluster ensembles, the observation operator extracts experimental observables, a multi-fidelity emulator enables Bayesian calibration, and active refinement requests additional simulations where they most reduce predictive uncertainty per unit computational cost.

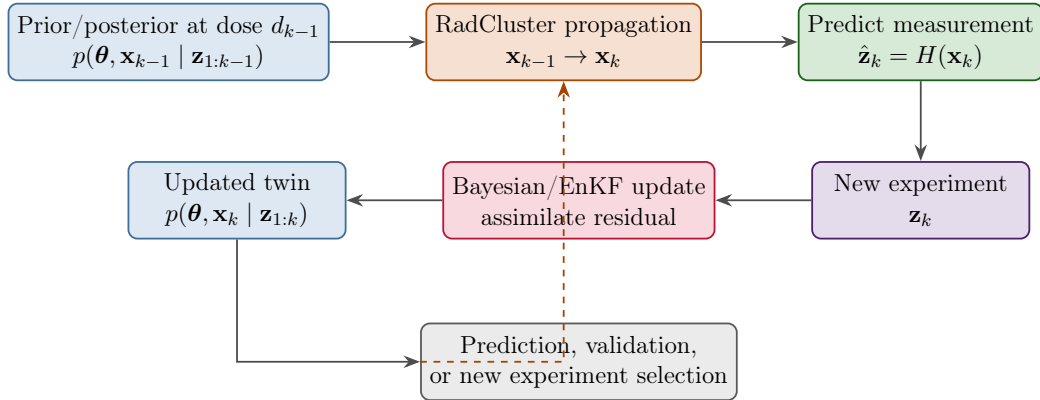


Figure H.31: Sequential digital-twin assimilation. New measurements at dose step k are compared with RadCluster predictions through the observation operator. The residual is used to update the joint posterior over model parameters and microstructural state, after which the twin is propagated to the next dose or used to design the next informative experiment.

5. **Extrapolation discipline:** fusion-relevant predictions are reported as posterior predictive distributions, not deterministic curves.

Once these criteria are met, the calibrated twin can be used to predict microstructure under fusion-relevant conditions,

$$T = 300\text{--}550^\circ\text{C}, \quad d = 0.1\text{--}150 \text{ dpa}, \quad \eta_{\text{He}} = 10\text{--}15 \text{ appm/dpa}, \quad \eta_{\text{H}} = 40\text{--}50 \text{ appm/dpa}, \quad (\text{H.32})$$

with credible intervals for loop density, loop size, cavity density, cavity size, swelling, loop-character fractions, and the probability of entering a bimodal cavity-growth regime.

Appendix H.11. Implementation Checklist

A practical implementation should contain the following files or modules:

1. `parameters.yaml`: symbols, units, nominal values, bounds, prior types, and active/inactive flags for every uncertain parameter.
2. `experiments.yaml` or a database reader for `RadiationDatabase.xlsx`: irradiation conditions, observables, uncertainty estimates, grouping variables, and distributional data.
3. `run_ensemble.py`: low- and high-fidelity RadCluster ensemble execution with conservation diagnostics and solver-status logging.
4. `extract_observables.py`: maps cluster distributions to N_ℓ , $\bar{d}_\ell$, N_c , $\bar{d}_c$, swelling, loop-character fractions, and histograms.
5. `surrogate.py`: multi-fidelity Gaussian-process training, prediction, and emulator uncertainty estimation.
6. `calibrate.py`: posterior inference using MCMC, sequential Monte Carlo, variational inference, or ensemble Kalman inversion.
7. `active_refinement.py`: selection of additional RadCluster runs or proposed experiments by information gain per computational cost.
8. `predict_fusion.py`: posterior predictive simulation under fusion-relevant temperature, dose, dose-rate, He/dpa, and H/dpa histories.

Appendix H.12. Target Measurements and Physics-Supported Parameter Ranges

The two tables below consolidate, in a single place, the quantities needed to launch the RadCluster digital-twin calibration: Table H.37 lists the experimental *target* observables that the twin must reproduce, together with the fitted validation bands taken from the group-separated fits of Table G.36; Table H.38 lists the physics-supported prior ranges for the 18 uncertain parameters of Eq. (H.8). Together they define the target vector and the admissible input hypercube for the ensemble and calibration workflow of Sections Appendix H.6–Appendix H.11.

Table H.37: Target measurements for the RadCluster digital twin. The observable vector is that of Eq. (H.5). Validation bands are the common-slope, group-intercept log-normal fits of Table G.36: a simulation is consistent with a row when its prediction lies within the multiplicative half-width e^{2s} of the fitted value $y = \exp(a + c_g + b T_{\text{eq}})$ (N in m^{-3} , $\bar{d}$ in nm, T_{eq} in K). Loop-character fractions and swelling are matched directly; full size distributions are compared as histograms.

Observable	Symbol	Irr. / grouping	Validation target (band)
Loop number density	N_ℓ	n, pooled	$\ln N = 50.55 - 9.3 \times 10^{-4} T_{\text{eq}};$ $e^{2s} = 11.6$
Loop mean diameter	$\bar{d}_\ell$	n, 9Cr F/M (ref.)	$\ln \bar{d} = 0.11 + 2.82 \times 10^{-3} T_{\text{eq}};$ $e^{2s} = 2.3$
		n, 12Cr F/M	$c_g = +0.87$
		n, ODS	$c_g = +1.19$
		n, pure Fe	$c_g = +0.92$
Cavity number density	N_c	n, pooled	$\ln N_c =$ $61.29 - 1.91 \times 10^{-2} T_{\text{eq}};$ $e^{2s} = 7.2$
Cavity mean diameter	$\bar{d}_c$	n, pooled	$\ln \bar{d}_c =$ $-1.07 + 3.14 \times 10^{-3} T_{\text{eq}};$ $e^{2s} = 2.1$
Loop number density	N_ℓ	i, ≤ 15 dpa (ref.)	$\ln N = 53.68 - 2.32 \times 10^{-3} T_{\text{eq}};$ $e^{2s} = 2.4$
		i, > 15 dpa	$c_g = -0.80$
Loop mean diameter	$\bar{d}_\ell$	i, ≤ 30 dpa (ref.)	$\ln \bar{d} = 1.77 - 8 \times 10^{-5} T_{\text{eq}};$ $e^{2s} = 2.2$
		i, > 30 dpa	$c_g = +0.84$
Cavity number density	N_c	i, void (ref.)	$\ln N_c =$ $46.63 + 1.49 \times 10^{-3} T_{\text{eq}};$ $e^{2s} = 5.1$
		i, He bubble	$c_g = +4.49$
Cavity mean diameter	$\bar{d}_c$	i, ≤ 30 dpa (ref.)	$\ln \bar{d}_c =$ $-1.56 + 4.01 \times 10^{-3} T_{\text{eq}};$ $e^{2s} = 2.7$
$\langle 111 \rangle$ loop fraction	f_{111}	EUROFER97	$f_{111} = 1 - f_{100}$
$\langle 100 \rangle$ loop fraction	f_{100}	EUROFER97, 13–18 dpa	logit-linear, Eq. (G.11): $\ln \frac{f_{100}}{1 - f_{100}} = a + b T_{\text{eq}};$ $T_{50} \approx 310\text{--}330^\circ\text{C}$
Swelling	S	from $N_c, \bar{d}_c$	$S = \frac{\pi}{6} N_c \bar{d}_c^3$ (derived)
Loop size distribution	$p_\ell(d_\ell)$	per condition	log-normal, Eq. (G.10): $f(d) =$ $\frac{1}{d\sigma\sqrt{2\pi}} \exp\left[-\frac{(\ln d - \mu)^2}{2\sigma^2}\right]$
		134	
Cavity size distribution	$p_c(d_c)$	per condition	log-normal per mode, Eq. (G.10); bimodal (void + He bubble)

Table H.38: Physics-supported ranges for the 18 uncertain parameters of Eq. (H.8), grouped by the five mechanism classes. Ranges are the recommended prior bounds for the first-generation twin and are drawn from the input-parameter tables of Appendix Appendix A and the RADCLUSTER input tables (Tables A.13, E.23, E.24, E.25, E.26), from the measured $\langle 100 \rangle$ -fraction crossover (Sec. Appendix G.5), and from the atomistic and rate-theory literature cited therein. “Prior” indicates the recommended prior family of Sec. Appendix H.2 (TN: truncated normal; LN: log-normal; U: uniform; B/U: beta or uniform; cat: categorical/integer).

Parameter	Symbol	Range	Units	Prior
<i>Production</i>				
Cascade survival efficiency	η_{FP}	0.20–0.35	—	TN
SIA clustered fraction	f_I^{cl}	0.50–0.70	—	B/U
Vacancy clustered fraction	f_V^{cl}	0.10–0.25	—	B/U
<i>Mobility</i>				
SIA migration energy	E_m^I	0.30–0.45	eV	TN
Vacancy migration energy	E_m^V	0.55–0.70	eV	TN
He migration energy	E_m^{He}	0.06–0.09	eV	TN
1D glide length	L_{1D}	1–10 ³	nm	LN
Max mobile SIA cluster	i_{mob}	1–100	SIAs	cat
Max mobile vacancy cluster	v_{mob}	1–5	vac.	cat
<i>Dissociation energetics</i>				
Vacancy binding-law amplitude	A_V	0.5–2.0	eV	TN
Vacancy binding-law exponent	B_V	0.3–0.7	—	TN
SIA binding-law amplitude	A_I	1.0–3.5	eV	TN
SIA binding-law exponent	B_I	0.3–0.7	—	TN
He–vacancy binding amplitude	A_{HeV}	1.5–3.0	eV	TN
<i>Sinks and bias</i>				
Dislocation SIA bias	Z_i^d	1.02–1.15	—	U
Loop SIA bias	Z_i^{loop}	1.05–1.30	—	U
<i>Loop conversion and network evolution</i>				
$\frac{1}{2}\langle 111 \rangle \rightarrow \langle 100 \rangle$ crossover temp.	T^*	580–610	K	TN
Network recovery constant	K_{rec}	10 ^{−3} –10 ¹	—	LN

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Declarations

- **Ethics Declaration:** The author declares that this work is original, has been conducted in accordance with accepted standards of research integrity, and does not involve human or animal subjects.
- **Ethics approval and consent to participate:** Not applicable.
- **Consent for publication:** Not applicable.
- **Competing interests:** The author declares that he has no known competing financial interests or personal relationships that could have appeared to influence the work reported in this paper.
- **Author contributions:** Nasr M. Ghoniem conceived the work, performed the analysis, developed the code, and wrote the manuscript.
- **Declaration of generative AI-assisted technologies :** During the preparation of this work, the author(s) used Anthropic Claude in order to research published literature, assist in coding, and prepare figures. After using this service, the author reviewed and edited the content as needed and takes full responsibility for the content of the published article.

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